

Pols 101 Introduction to Political Science

Numbered Transcript

POLS 101 • Dr. Eric Kaufmann

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Lecture 1: Power, People, Politics

At a glance — Kaufmann introduces power, people, and politics.

- 1.1 Welcome, everybody. My name is Eric Kaufmann. I've been a professor of politics for about 25 years. I'm going to be talking today about political science. This is an introduction to the study of politics. Or in the US it's, or in North America, it's called political science more often. Essentially what politics, the study of politics is, it's a study of two broad things, which is government, which is a sort of a set of institutions, and power, which in a crude way is really about getting people to do things, particularly things they don't otherwise want to do.
- 1.2 In more detail, this is the study of government, politics, and political behavior. And that includes a number of different aspects. So this is about understanding political systems, that is the institutions, processes, power processes and dynamics, political ideologies, and also how individuals behave politically. There's two real dimensions there. One is really to do with either government or power, and then the other is to do with the "is", the empirical, studying how the world actually works versus the "ought", how we would like to see the world work, which is more the ideology, the political philosophy. The "is" is more studying of political systems and institutions and the behavior of individuals and groups.
- 1.3 So that's kind of rough breakdown of what political science is about. It's often interdisciplinary as a field, and draws on insights from economics, history, philosophy, and so on. So that's kind of a real, very quick overview of political science. Just think government on the one hand, power on the other, as being core to what this is about. And I kind of want to use an analogy, really from physics, where if you think about energy and matter, $E=MC^2$, there's this relationship. If you think of matter, that feels like something physical, and energy is sort of a flow. And similarly with thinking about political science, we have this energy, which is power, which is kind of flowing through the system. And then you have the matter, which is the institutions, the government, the legislatures, the courts, and so on.
- 1.4 So we've got these different aspects, power and government, which you can think about in very crude terms as similar to energy and matter within the system. There's also another physics analogy, which is to the idea of potential energy, which is, you know, water behind a dam, or a ball which is up high and is about to fall down. It's got potential energy. And similarly, when we think about power, why did the US defeat Japan in the Pacific War? We can think of a whole series of sources of power, resources, the number of people in a country, the technological level, the education level, and all of these are resources that can be feeding into political power of an entity, like a nation state. So that is another analogy again with physics, this idea of the potential power of an entity which is governed to some degree by its resources.

- 1.5 We can also think more broadly about power, about social power. And if we think of various sources of social power, there's again an analogy with various sources of energy. So you think about tidal, wind, solar, wave power, biomass, coal, et cetera, these different sources of energy. And similarly, we have different sources of power. It could be that you are an expert, and everybody looks to you; and so, there you're able to make people do things, or you're able to pay people money. So that's a sort of reward-based power. Or maybe you're a gang leader and you can threaten them with kneecapping or being killed. That's kind of coercive power. So we've got all these different sources of power.
- 1.6 Another one is charisma. Charismatic leaders are able to get people to do things more easily than uncharismatic leaders. Resources, the degree to which you can sort of buy what you want. So we have these different sources of social power, which you can kind of analogize as similar, to some degree, as sources of energy in a physical system. And just to run through a number of these sources of social power, we have, for example, coercive power, which is the ability to, through the use of force and threats, to get people to do what they may not want to do.
- 1.7 And so government and law enforcement agencies have this kind of power to enforce laws and maintain order and just to pick a number of these others. Reward power, the ability to obviously financially incentivize people to do what you want them to do. So employers have this kind of power over employees, although sometimes, obviously, employees may have more of the power, if it's very hard to get workers, and you have to keep them happy, then they have a certain amount of power. So that's reward power.
- 1.8 There is also the idea of legitimate power, power that derives from an institution. Chief Justice of the Supreme Court or CEO. And notice, I'm not just talking about governing institutions or political institutions. I'm talking about a business, for example. There could be power in a relationship. There could be power in many different, at many different sites in society.
- 1.9 We also have informational power. Controlling flows of information can be useful, so for example, an intelligence agency that has control over certain data that is very valuable. You might be a connector. You might be somebody who everyone needs to get to know because they can put you in touch with somebody who's influential. So that's sort of social connector power. Someone with extensive networks, particularly influential networks, has that kind of connectionpower .
- 1.10 I mentioned charisma already. A charismatic individual, Martin Luther King and Nelson Mandela, these sorts of people who are able to inspire people, and that gets people to do what somebody wants them to do. So that's another source of power. So we have these different sources of power, even interpersonally, even in an organization like a business, not to mention a government. When we think about power as a, as, again, I used the analogy of energy in a system. So, power is a process, and we need to

distinguish the idea of power being able to get people to do what you want them to do, particularly if they don't necessarily want to do it.

- 1.11 Power as a process from what we're going to talk about next, which is government and structures, political structures. So there's power, the process, the flow, and then there are political structures. Here are a couple on this slide. The first is the structure of the military, the US Military in this case. You have the army, and then beneath that, corps, and then divisions, brigades, battalions, companies, and then down to the platoon and even down to the squad. So you've got that sort of organization chart. And similarly, you have an organization which starts with the generals to the major generals to the colonels, etc. So you have that kind of structure.
- 1.12 Also you have that structure within governing institutions. And that, you might say that it's important to have that structure because that allows for the most efficient exercise of power. If you want to have the most effective military, then you should have this kind of a structure where power flows down from the top, and that allows the machine to move more effectively and efficiently. Now, there are some who would say, well, maybe it's in some cases better to have more power at a lower level so that local commanders can take initiatives. And in some situations that may be the case, but in other situations it makes sense to have this more vertical power structure.
- 1.13 But the point here is that, what we're talking about are structures versus the flow of power within those structures, which is not the same thing. It's important to say that, with regard to structures I've mentioned, there's government, political structures. There's also other kinds of structures. There are economic structures. You know, you have businesses within an economy. There are social structures, networks, groups. Political is one of four bits of social science, in a way. You've got politics, the economy, the society, and the culture. And I'll show you in a way how these things interrelate. So in terms of structures, we can distinguish the governing institutions and the political structures from social structures, cultural structures, and economic structures.
- 1.14 Another way of thinking about where politics fits into the broader social sciences and even beyond that, into knowledge as a whole—where does politics fit and power fit? And I'll draw here on the work of a famous sociologist called Talcott Parsons, who wrote a book called *The Social System* in 1951. You know, if you think of our society, you've got individuals who speak a certain language and have certain meaning system. That's the cultural level. They have certain social networks, friends, groups they're members of, associations. That's the social level. Then you have power and how power is managed, the structures that manage power. That's the political level, which is what we're mostly going to be talking about in this course.
- 1.15 You then have, beneath the political, in a way, the economic level, which is how to acquire resources, distribute resources, produce resources. That's the economic level. And then we have, you know, if you think of us as individuals, we're cultural beings, we're social beings, we're political beings, we're economic beings. We're obviously

biological. You know, we have heart, lungs, et cetera, cells. But that biology then relies on the chemical layer, about what we put into our bodies. And then the physical, the physics, neutrons and everything that is underneath that. So you kind of have these emergent properties. You go from the physical level to the chemical to the biological, and then above that into the social. You've got economy, politics and culture.

- 1.16** And a way of thinking about this is that, as we move up from the physical through to the biological, up into the social, the information is going up and the matter and energy is going down. So economy is more— you're very close to the ground, digging up resources, redistributing. It's the material and, to some degree, the lower level survival needs of a population. The cultural is more, once you've satisfied those needs. It has higher informational content, lower matter, energy.
- 1.17** This was sort of the theory of Parsons. And what his argument was is that each of these levels had a certain function to play, had its part to play, in the way society works. And so if we think about that then, political has a certain function in society. That is, how do you harness power, organize power, distribute power most effectively in a society? And that's the job of the, of the political layer. And that's kind of what we're going to be talking about. But obviously the political layer interacts with the social and the economic and the cultural and even the physical layers as well.
- 1.18** So we've got institutions, i.e., as structures, and politics as power. Just looking at this question of power, you can analyze power as an aspect not just of government, but as an aspect of many other kinds of structure. So we can see it at work in social groups, in the economy, in a business, and not just in government institutions. And so if we think about the work of, particularly feminists and Marxists, but particularly feminists, for example, this idea that power is everywhere, and so in a relationship between a man and a woman, there's various power balances. You can have power structures that are encoded even in social relationships.
- 1.19** So that view, that power is something that can be abstracted away from just the political structures and we can see it operating in many different parts of society, is really a view that says, well, politics is about power. And you can almost imagine a kind of grid which has the sort of four structures of society. The economy, the polity, the society, and the culture. And the four flows, the sort of processes or functions, which is economic production and distribution, political effectiveness and stability, or power, community cohesion, which is really about social ties and networks. And then the last is the cultural level, which is about meanings.
- 1.20** We're actually going to look mainly at political structures in this course, but you could equally look at power and focus only on power. Now that's not mainly what political science does, but you could look at just the study of power in businesses and firms, in the economy, or in relationships, or in the meaning-making cultural system. So you may or may not have heard of Michel Foucault and Postmodernism, who, you know, these sorts of ideas where they say that knowledge is power and that, in fact, all knowledge

encodes certain power relationships. And there's always power machinations that are driving whether certain words are used, certain sentences, certain myths and narratives are used. So that's a sort of very political approach to culture.

- 1.21 So we can have a political power-centered approach to culture, society, and the economy, as well as to the polity. And the polity is just another word for political institutions of a society. So within that set of political institutions, we can also look at the impact. We can look at the impact of the economy on the political structure. So we can look at how economic forces affect, shape, government at all levels. We can look at how social forces and networks and groups affect politics and elections and parties and all these different political institutions.
- 1.22 And then also we can look at cultural battles—religious fundamentalism, nationalism, cultural left ideology. How do the culture wars, how do all these things affect parties and power and elections? And so those are all different ways in which we can look at the way these structures and these processes interact.
- 1.23 Now, alongside just sticking with this analysis of a four-by-four, the structures and the processes, there are different fields within political science and also economics and sociology, which tend to take each of these grids as their focus of analysis. So, for example, political economy is the branch of politics that would look at the interplay between power in the economy and between political structures and economic structures. So the IMF and World Bank as structures that might affect national politics. The idea there is that, in a way, political structures are shot through by economic forces and vice versa as well.
- 1.24 I mentioned just now Foucault and Postmodernism. People who study culture who are saying, well, actually we have to study the impact of power on culture. That would be an example of where the cultural structure being affected by the political as a force, as a process. And this kind of gets to—there's a slide here from the Andrew Heywood textbook which looks at, tries to understand, well, what is politics? And tries to say, well, we have two definitions. One is the art of government and public affairs, and that's very much the institutional definition of politics.
- 1.25 The other is this idea of power and politics as a process. And there the focus is more on this idea of, how is it that we're not just tearing each other's throats out? How is it that people are able actually to organize, determine who has power and when, and that that can therefore be very functional and efficient for the running of a system? So we have a constitution that says, well, in this situation the Supreme Court has power; in this situation the House of Representatives and the Senate has power; or in this situation, the President has power. Those are all ways of determining who has power when, in order to achieve consensus and agreement, rather than conflict.
- 1.26 So part of the idea of political institutions is, these are ways of managing conflict and competing interests in order to make the society function better. So we have then this

debate over, what is politics? Is it more about the institutions or is it more about power as a process? You also have different theories. So for example—and you won't be familiar with these names—but behavioralism, rational choice theory, institutionalism. These are names given to empirical political science theories, that is, theories that try to explain the world as it is, and they explain the functioning of parties and governments and individuals within the system.

- 1.27** But they are different theories that would put an emphasis—so for example, institutionalism puts more emphasis on institutional rules and people obeying those rules. And there, the institution reproducing itself over time, through long stretches of time. Whereas, rational choice theory is much more about, no, there's just this collection of individuals. Forget about institutions. It's just all these individuals seeking their best interests. And where those interests align, you suddenly have a movement. Very individualistic approach versus the institutional approach, which is much more of a group structure.
- 1.28** Those are just different theories within political science about how the world works. They are a bit more institutional or focus more on explaining what's happening in institutions; whereas feminism, and particularly Postmodernism, would tend to be looking not just at government and parties and political institutions, but also at relationships, culture, and other realms. So they're more interested in politics as power, as a process, not politics as institutions.
- 1.29** A distinction as well, which we can think about between the public and the private and the—traditionally, the idea of political science is, political science is about the public realm, the public sphere, not the private realm. And this was the division. The family would be off-limits for, not off-limits, but it's just not of interest to political science because the view was, that's not really where politics takes place. Politics might take place in a town hall meeting, maybe. It could be local politics. It could be a council meeting. It could be parliament. It could be something that's larger. But essentially there's this distinction between the private and the public.
- 1.30** That is to some degree challenged by increasingly newer views that would argue that politics takes place across the public-private boundary. There's the view of politics then as public affairs, which is the traditional view, which would distinguish between the political, which is again the town hall meetings and the government, and what's happening in the public, which is reported on by the press. And then the non-political, which is the private sphere of the family.
- 1.31** But even associational life, people meeting, forming clubs, for example, friendly societies, that would be seen as not politics. That's civil society, and that that's outside politics, at least in this traditional view that distinguishes between the public and private realm. There's clearly a disagreement between some who think that more of the so-called private realm is actually properly studied as political science. So civil society associations, for example, fraternities like the Masons, for example, some of

these associational bodies actually are quite political. They lobby, they get involved in trying to raise money for different causes. So the line between the public and private is actually pretty blurry, according to this view.

- 1.32** And especially when we're talking about businesses and trade unions and other groups which may even have formal representation. The trade unions have a formal representation in the Labor Party, for example, in Britain. If we take Northern Ireland Protestant fraternities like the Orange Order along had a formal, they had a certain number of seats within the Unionist Party. So there actually can be some quite formal ties between the so-called private civil society organizations and formal politics. And therefore it doesn't necessarily make sense to split the public and the private so neatly.
- 1.33** And then as I mentioned, the more radical Postmodernist Foucaultian-type arguments are that, or feminist arguments, would say, well, actually, even in the very private family relationships you've got power going on. And that, that's part of politics. And so that's even, that's even more—taking this view even more radically that there really is almost no, nothing that is private and not part of politics. It's everywhere. You can't really even have any separation.
- 1.34** I mentioned the idea of politics as compromise, as a means of resolving conflict that doesn't involve force. And so I mentioned that a constitution which would stipulate who has power when, who gets to exercise power, that's very important. As long as everybody buys into this system, that's a way of having legitimate power within a system. So certain individuals and institutions are allowed to get people to do what they want them to do. And that prevents the society from tearing each other apart through old-fashioned forms of politics which might have involved violence. So this is a means of resolving conflict.
- 1.35** If you don't have these institutions, then what you have is anarchy and what you have is violence. And actually, anarchy, historically, has been associated with very high levels of violence and very high levels of death and disorder in a society. So actually, the historical record and social science really does tell us that anarchy is really a terrible way of organizing society and it leads to poverty and violence. So you need to have social order, something that people are content to accept, in order to have a high functioning society.
- 1.36** Some of this text from the Andrew Heywood reader, which I'm drawing on to some degree in this lecture, would argue that we are maybe moving into a period in which there is weaker legitimation in the system, so that people are not as willing to accept the authority of the existing party system, the existing government structures. And so you have the rise of, for example, populism and polarization. One of the arguments is, does that represent a breakdown in the political order—people's willingness to accept certain rules, who has power, and how conflicts are resolved? If there's a loss of faith in the political class, in the political institutions, if that legitimacy is withdrawn, do we then revert to earlier and more anarchic forms of human relations?

- 1.37** And that's one of the questions we might want to ask is, to what extent is that really happening? Or is that, in fact, is this just part of the normal warp and weft of politics? I mean, because the counterview would be to say that actually populism is important also in a political system in terms of allowing voices that have been excluded to enter the system and have representation. And so this is actually part of the normal working of democracy. Against that are those who say, well, no, populism represents actually the loss of faith in the procedures and rules in the system, and therefore threatens the system and threatens to lead to a breakdown in the political order.
- 1.38** In terms of political analysis, the way political scientists do politics, there are different levels here. We have, for example, concepts such as conservatism, liberalism. We have models which are ways of explaining particular problems in the world at a relatively low level. Why do people vote for party A instead of party B? Is it to do with the economy going up or down? Is it to do with social groups shifting their votes from one party to the other? So you have these sorts of lower level models explaining particular phenomena.
- 1.39** And then you have finally, at the greatest level of abstraction, you have theories like Marxism, which has—Marxism explains the world as largely emanating from what's happening in the economy. And so if the economy is organized through feudalism, then you get one kind of political order. If it's organized through capitalism, then you get another kind of political order rising automatically up from the means of production. One of the most important is the distinction between pluralism and elitism. The pluralist view is that politics is about a bunch of different interests that are competing with each other to advance their own particular interests. And they make deals and compromises in order to form coalitions to get ahead.
- 1.40** Another view, however, is no. All of that activity of these different groups pursuing interests is much less important than what's going on with a particular elite who control the top tiers in those political structures, and that that is really what drives change within the system. So elite theory versus more pluralist approaches. And then you also have an earlier tradition which is no longer talked about as much, which is functionalism, which is all about saying, well, what is functionally necessary? What is good for, what is good for a particular society in terms of organizing power, in terms of culture and so on? And whatever is good for society is what's going to emerge. So it may be good for the society to have a more hierarchical political system or perhaps a more decentralized political system. And that's the functionalist view as, so it's a certain set of theories compared to the pluralist and the elite theories.
- 1.41** In terms of political science, political science is often focused—well, much of politics is focused on the domestic level, looking at politics within a society. Parties, interest groups, governing structures. But there is also an international and global dimension to politics as well. That is, you have political institutions at many different levels. You've got your local government, you've got your regional state, et cetera, governments. You

have your national governments, but you also have supranational, above the nation levels of government, such as the European Union, or even global, like the UN, IMF, World Bank, these other institutions which are above the level of the nation state.

- 1.42** You also have global flows which are maybe not to do with global institutions, but you have, for example, multinational corporations which have operations across borders and have a lot of power, perhaps over certain governments. If they say, well, we'll build a factory here which will generate this many jobs and will pay you a certain amount, then they get a certain amount of power over a particular country. You may have transnational lobby groups. Friends of the Earth operates in many different countries, can lobby the United Nations, can lobby particular governments at the nation-state level. Or transnational terrorist organizations. That could be Al-Qaeda, it could be ISIS, it could be, you know, a transnational terrorist group, transnational criminal group.
- 1.43** So these different organizations and processes which cut across political boundaries and, to some extent, have been accelerated by greater connectivity between countries in the world through the Internet, perhaps through cheaper air travel, the ability of finance capital to move around the world more easily. All of these forces of globalization means there's perhaps more interpenetration between the global level or even the supranational level and the nation-state. So this question of how do we divide the domestic from the international or global is another question that politics deals with.
- 1.44** And one argument is that, as we've had increases in global connectivity to some degree, global migration, global trade, that has meant that this distinction between the purely domestic and the international is harder to maintain. And so we have to also look at politics internationally and globally and not just nationally. It's worth saying, however, there is a branch of politics called international relations. And international relations very much looks at the way nation-states interact with the global, whether that's defined as supranational organizations like the IMF, World Bank and UN and European Union, or the sort of global flows, transnational flows. I mentioned crime, terrorism, international civil society, lobby groups, for example. Just ways in which the political interacts with that.
- 1.45** International relations is also very interested in the relationship between states in the world. If you think about the fact that, within a particular country, the country has a monopoly on the use of force. I mean, that's the definition of the state, classically, is this idea that the state has a monopoly on the use of force inside the territory and defense of the country against those outside. So the policing and the military. You can't have separate power jurisdictions within a particular state and call it anything other than a weak state or a failed state.
- 1.46** If Afghanistan, which has occurred in the past, has had different areas that were controlled by different warlords, the argument, therefore, is that that's a weak state or a failed or fragile state. Whereas, it's only when you have the government, as in Britain,

that would control the entire country politically. So orders from the center would run through the entire country. There you have actually got strong state capacity throughout the territory. But if you think about the international, you have almost 200 different nation-states in the world. And it's not obvious that those 200 nation states are under any kind of authority. Whereas, the different regions of the United States or France are under the control of the American or French authorities. Whereas, the relationship between countries in the world and the global level is one of anarchy.

- 1.47** It's more like Afghanistan in the sense during the warlord period, where you have different areas controlled by different people. And that's really the world. There's 200 different, 200 different warlords, if you like, in the world, controlling each of those states. There is no central authority, nobody centrally who can tell countries what to do. Now, that's not to say there is zero influence at the global level or at the supranational level. Particularly if countries have signed up to be members of a supranational entity like the European Union, they will have strong incentives to abide by European directives. And there is perhaps some global civil society and global influence of global institutions like the United Nations.
- 1.48** These are things that international relations scholars would tend to focus more on. And they would also focus on how states relate to each other in that anarchy. Again, thinking of 200 different warlords, how do states manage relationships with the other warlords in that global ecosystem? And that's a different question. It involves many things. Strategy, military strategy, alliance behavior, whether you decide to join supranational organizations or not. All of those questions are the questions of international relations. I won't be talking too much about international relations per se in this course. That's probably a separate course, has separate theories about how states behave in the global order and the influence of supranational and global institutions.
- 1.49** So just to kind of walk you through a number of different subfields within political science, we have the study of government and institutions, which is the structures and functions of government, different levels, which we'll be talking about in a subsequent lecture. Legislators, executives, judiciaries, electoral systems, party systems, and bureaucracies. That's kind of the classical domestic politics or comparative politics field. We then have political behavior, which is analyzing the behavior of the individuals and groups within a system. How do they behave? Do they behave rationally? Do they behave tribally? Do they obey elites? What are the ways in which actors within the system behave?
- 1.50** Again, government and institutions, political behavior, those are both about how the political world works. "Is"—the empirical. Political theory is about the "ought." So the first two are more like science. Political theory is more like philosophy. If we could design things perfectly, what is the way in which we should organize power and society? So questions about justice, authority, rights, the role of government within the

system. Should we—there are political theorists who believe in pretty much an anarchy, that if you just let people be and you get government off their backs, you will have this spontaneous brotherly order that will emerge. That is one political philosophy.

- 1.51** Another is, no, actually, people aren't angels. You need to actually have a system that can moderate their excesses. And that's a different political theory. It's very close. Political theory is very much like political philosophy, going back to Aristotle and Plato, and it has a much older lineage. So political philosophy and political theory are pretty much the same thing. Liberalism, liberalism, socialism, conservatism, these are all political philosophies. There are also other kinds of distinctions between, for example, those who think you can judge a system by the consequences of a particular system. So what's called consequentialism. And those who say no, that there are first principles you have to stick to, which is known as deontology, or deontological political philosophy.
- 1.52** So that's political theory. It's much more about how ought we to organize society and politics. And that's different from the other parts of political science, which are largely about, let's just study, you know, why do people vote the way they do? Why do certain political systems lead to more coups, more war? Those are actually scientific questions that have a right and wrong answer, in a way. We then also have comparative politics, which is really about, well, what can we learn about different domestic politics by comparing processes in different countries?
- 1.53** You know, let's look at populism across, not just in the United States with Trump, let's say, or Bernie Sanders. But we're going to compare that to what's happening in Britain with maybe Farage and Jeremy Corbyn. Or we're going to go to Europe and look at Syriza and we're going to Podemos and we're going to look at other, the populist right in Europe. Or perhaps we're going to go globally and we're going to look at Modi in India and Milei in Argentina. We're going to take a global view and maybe by taking the zooming out and looking at larger groups of countries, we can start to see patterns and relationships that hold globally.
- 1.54** But then maybe certain patterns only hold, let's say, in the West. You know, maybe populism in the West is more about immigration and maybe populism in the developing world is more about governments that are not delivering economically. That could be true. It could not be true. Maybe there are certain similarities, but comparative politics is really about looking at political units across the globe and trying to find patterns cross-culturally.
- 1.55** Another one might be, what are the factors that predict a country going to war, or a country having a civil war? We can take 200 countries across 50 years and look at what correlates with what. One of the things might be that countries that are poorer are more likely to have civil war. That's one of the findings in the literature. So comparative

politics is, again, another field. Tends to take the nation-state as its unit of analysis and have a very international kind of focus.

- 1.56** I mentioned international relations already. I'm not going to go into more detail about international relations. Some of the topics that you might study if you take IR are diplomacy, conflict, international law, and global governance. The reason international law, now you see, with international law, you have politics shading over into law as a field. And the reason for that is that these international law codes, if a country is committing, if there's genocide going on in a country, should the outside world step in? In Rwanda, should the US have invaded Rwanda to prevent the genocide?
- 1.57** There's a couple of principles at work in international law. One is, well, we have to respect state sovereignty, the right of Rwanda. Rwanda has power within Rwanda. And if we, if we, every time there's problems in a country, we allow outside powers to come in and invade a country, we're breaching state sovereignty. So one view is, state sovereignty has to be the highest principle. Another view is, no, it's human rights. It's the highest principle. The rights of the individual. So if the human rights are being violated in a country, then other countries have the right to invade to restore human rights. So these are different principles. They're balanced in different ways within international law.
- 1.58** And in a way, international law is a bit like constitutions within countries, but at a global level. So in a country you would say, who has power within the country? You know, the courts, the legislatures, the president. But in the international law, it's about which principle is supreme. Generally speaking, in international law, state sovereignty is the highest principle. It's higher than human rights, actually, generally speaking. So that's international relations. We then have political economy, which I've mentioned about. This is the intersection between political and economic institutions, analyzing how political institutions affect the economy.
- 1.59** So one famous book talks about how, if you have very authoritarian government, then you tend to get corruption. You don't tend to get a lot of trust. Property rights are not very secure, and therefore it's very hard for the economy to grow. So if you have a sort of authoritarian or an anarchic political system, then that's going to have a very negative impact on the economics. It's going to be very hard to get particularly a free market emerging where people have secure property rights, where if someone cheats you, you can go to the courts. All of that is very difficult when you don't have the right political institutions in place. So this is really exploring the connection between political institutions and the economy.
- 1.60** Another subfield is public policy, which is, the question is, how is policy influenced? Who sets the direction of economic policy in a country? Is it lobby groups? Is it the bureaucrats in the civil service? What is the role of executives, et cetera, the media? So there are all these different forces that would affect policy and whether certain policies are enacted. It could well be that the population as a whole wants a certain policy.

Maybe they want more spending on the health service; maybe they want lower taxes. But that's not what comes out formally because there are different interests.

- 1.61** Maybe lobby groups perhaps have more power than the average citizen, and so what turns out in the end. Or maybe the civil service or the bureaucracy, actually, is able to frustrate certain policies and is able to have influence in shaping the direction of policy. So there are all these different actors. It's not just the people having their preferences enacted. There are actors within the system at the elite level, also at the bureaucratic level, that might be able to steer policies in a certain way, which may systematically be different from what the population wants. And so then you get discontent rising in the system.
- 1.62** One of the reasons for populism might be, so, for example, in Western countries, one argument is that immigration is higher than what most citizens want for a whole bunch of reasons to do with lobby groups within the system, the preferences of certain elites within the system. And therefore there is a sort of dissonance between what the population wants and what the government is delivering, and that's creating discontent within the system that leads to more populism. That's one argument.
- 1.63** And then finally we come to, research methods isn't really a proper field of politics. It's more just a way of how do you study, how would you study the political? There are many different methods. There's case study methods where you look at different countries, let's say, or business, where you look at a company. That's more like a case study approach, business studies. Whereas, a lot of comparative politics now would tend to use large-scale quantitative data sets. So, 200 countries over 50 years, along, you know, 10 different characteristics, like rich or poor, are they a democracy or not, how big is their population, were they colonized, how many ethnic groups in the country. All of these things are thrown into the model and you see which are the, which are the factors that predict a country going to civil war or becoming a democracy.
- 1.64** And that, that's sort of a quantitative modeling approach, which is probably, at least in the top journals in political science, that tends to be the approach. Now if you're doing political philosophy or international, not international, but political philosophy to a large extent, then you would not use quantitative methods because it's all about the "ought." So you're engaging in philosophical reasoning and arguing about pros and cons, first principles, premises, and so forth.
- 1.65** So just to conclude then, I've tried to give you a very, very broad overview of what is politics. We've talked about politics as institutions of government and politics as power, the processes and functions of the power flowing through the institutions. We then turned to look a little bit at models and different subfields within politics, such as, I talked about comparative politics, international relations, and political theory or political philosophy. Those are the three big branches of political science. And again, just to sort of reiterate, there is this distinction between the "is", the empirical, the

study of political behavior and institutions—that very scientific approach, which you can do through different methodologies.

- 1.66 You can use case studies, you can use large-scale quantitative modeling, or that's the "is" part, which is most of political science. But then we have the "ought", you know, how ought we to design society and politics? And that's more the political theory. Again, those are sort of two separate foci. And again, to reiterate, there's also that difference between power, power as process and government as institutions. So between those two, that kind of gives you a very sort of quick, high-level view of the field. And there are different theories and subfields that would tend to focus on different combinations of those two processes.

Lecture 2: Comparative Political Institutions

At a glance — Comparative political institutions.

- 2.1** Welcome back. I'm going to be talking next about comparative political institutions . This is a topic, this is a basic intro to politics topic that falls within the study of government and institutions. That's the empirical part of political science. That is, we're trying to explain how things work, and we're looking very much, classically, at governing institutions. I'll particularly be comparing the governing institutions of the US and Britain, but also to some degree, France and other countries as well. I just want to take you through some of the basics in institutions when we're studying government institutions.
- 2.2** The first is that we can divide the institutions of government into three general branches. That is the legislatures, the executives, and the judiciaries. The legislatures make law and enact legislation. So a bill will be proposed in the House of Representatives or in Parliament, for example . So the legislatures draft and make the laws. The executives , think president, prime minister, their cabinet . That's the executive. The executive implements the law and executes the law. And the judiciary, the Supreme Court of the United States, for example, interprets the law and adjudicates on the meaning of the law. The judges will have to think, what were the legislators thinking when they drafted a law? What was the actual intent behind the law?
- 2.3** That will be important for the judges when they are deciding in a case as to whether, for example, whether you can have quotas for different racial groups in university admittance or for government contracting. That would be an example where the judiciary would render a decision as to know that is either consistent with or inconsistent with the meaning of the civil rights laws that were drafted in 1965. So they have to get into the heads, in a way, of the legislators. At least in theory, that is how they should interpret the meaning of the law. So we have legislatures, executives, and judiciaries.
- 2.4** You also have a constitution. A constitution would tend to set out who has power and when. So you might say, well, the president can veto legislation from Congress, but Congress, in a two-thirds vote, can override the presidential veto. The Supreme Court can strike down a law. All of those things are specified in the constitution document, which would tell you who has power and where. It's all about the distribution and structure of power in a particular polity. These are the three branches of government.
- 2.5** The way in which they have power over each other is sometimes referred to as checks and balances , the ways in which you don't allow the executive, the president, to just do whatever he wants without regard to any of the other branches of government. They're checked and constrained by the other branches of government. The

constitution then specifies the rules as to where power is distributed, who has power over whom. Again, we can contrast that democratic, the democratic constitutions, which are about these checks and balances, the liberal democratic constitutions, with autocratic systems that might say the king or the president has absolute power to dissolve the legislature, to get rid of the judiciary, pack it with his own cronies. That is an autocratic system as compared to a democratic system .

- 2.6 Sometimes in autocratic systems, you will have a parliament and you will have even a supreme court, but those will be toothless and just symbolic and will have no real power. There's a distinction between the symbol of having, calling yourself the Democratic People's Republic of Korea, using the term democratic, but actually no one would claim North Korea as a democracy. So there's a distinction between the symbol and the reality of power.
- 2.7 OK, so that's the three branches of government. What I want to do next is compare within democratic. Again, I'm excluding the autocracies, which are, of course, very important in the world, and we will be talking about them as well. But I'm excluding the autocracies to focus on the democracies. But within the democracies, we have a couple of different designs. It's about, how do you design the system to achieve the best result? There's not a single blueprint for how you design a political system. But there are a few blueprints, not 100 on the menu. There's probably two or three on the menu. The two most common ones, obviously, are presidential versus parliamentary systems.
- 2.8 To some degree, these are connected to the history of different societies. So where you had a revolution, overthrowing the aristocracy, like in France, the French Revolution, or the United States, breaking away from the British Empire, Britain. Then you have the parliamentary systems, which are more common in, where the monarchy survived, and there was a reform of the society like Britain, where the power of the king was gradually moderated and more power flowed to parliament, but you don't get rid of the monarch. There remains a constitutional monarch. That's true in some of the Nordic countries as well . So you're more likely to get a parliamentary system.
- 2.9 And then, of course, if Britain then has colonies, they will tend to copy the metropole , and then you get the spread of that parliamentary system. So that is presidential versus parliamentary. These are the systems that have emerged in the world. And then in other cases, you have a country like Japan, picking and mixing from the different systems to design their own. So we're comparing then democratic political systems. There's presidential and parliamentary. There's a question here about the structure of government, how power is distributed amongst the different branches, which differs, to some degree, between the presidential and the parliamentary system. We want to consider the role of the executive president, prime minister, and their cabinets. In which system is the executive more powerful?
- 2.10 So I have a chart here that just shows you the presidential democracy versus the parliamentary democracy. So in a presidential system, people vote not just for, they

don't just vote once for a particular entity. They vote for the President, and they vote also for their local representative. So in the US system, for example, you would have down ballot voting for representatives in Congress, Senator, and your representative. You would have separate votes, which means that you could vote Republican for President and Democratic in the Congressional elections for your senator and for your congressman. So you would tend to get, therefore—you could get different parties being represented in the legislature and in the executive.

2.11 Whereas in a parliamentary democracy, it's the vote just for the legislature. Now, yes, there is a prime minister, but you don't vote separately for the prime minister and for your member of parliament. You vote only one ticket, and the prime minister has a seat as an MP, but you're only really voting once. So the power comes from the citizens through to the legislature. The legislature then, in a way, appoints the executive, the Prime Minister, because the party chooses the Prime Minister; the Prime Minister chooses their cabinet. But they are elected by the people. Whereas in the presidential case, the President is directly elected by the people, and the legislature is also directly elected by the people, and people may decide to split.

2.12 So in the '80s and '90s, there was something called gridlock, which happened a lot in the US, where people might vote for Bill Clinton, the Democrat, as the President, but they might vote Republican for their local member of Congress or their Senator. So you would tend to get a split, where maybe Congress would be controlled by one party, President by another party. That leads to, they have to compromise if anything is to get done or else you get nothing done, which unfortunately is, to some degree, one of the issues in US politics. So presidential versus parliamentary, those are some differences.

2.13 In terms of the legislative process, how a bill becomes law, we want to understand how that process works in a parliamentary system and in a presidential system as well. There are some differences which we can talk about. Clearly, in the case of the parliamentary system, like Britain, bills are proposed in the House of Commons. Yes, they are scrutinized by the Lords, but generally, the House of Commons has the power. The Lords really has limited power. Whereas you would never say in the American system that the Congress has limited power or that the Senate has very little power. They all have quite a bit of power.

2.14 That's one important difference legislatively, that in the parliamentary system, the party that essentially controls parliament has a lot of power to enact legislation, whereas in the presidential system, particularly when you have different parties that are running different branches of government, the power of, let's say, the president is much more limited. But in other cases, if they have the same party, if the Republicans are dominant in the Senate, the House, and the presidency, then actually they may, to some extent, have more power even than in a parliamentary system.

2.15 We want to look at the process of legislation. We also want to look at public participation and accountability. How are leaders held accountable by the public, and

the implications of these for how successful a particular political system is for delivering on accountable government, good government, and representativeness. We'll be looking at those dimensions of political system performance, comparing the two major liberal democratic political systems. And in this map, this shows you which parts of the world have a presidential system, which parts of the world have a parliamentary system. You can see that the United States and most of Latin America has a presidential system. Again, the legacy of revolution. France also, it's mixed, but clearly it does have a president. The French Revolution partly explains why that is the case.

- 2.16** You have dictatorship or autocracy in many parts of the world. Russia, China, Vietnam, North Korea. These are examples. Much of sub-Saharan Africa as well is falling into this non-democratic form of government where power is largely in the hands of an autocratic leader, whether that is the President or the king or the monarch. That is really where power lies in a dictatorship. However, in this map, what we see is, even though a lot of the countries I just mentioned in sub-Saharan Africa, China, Russia, et cetera, are de facto autocracies, where the leader has pretty much absolute power, there are symbolically the system that they choose to adopt actually does make room for a legislature and a court. It's just that those are toothless.
- 2.17** So formally, they might be parliamentary or presidential in their design, but practically, they are autocracies. It's only in places that are democracies that you actually have power flowing to the legislature and the courts, for example. You can also see that some of the countries that were part of the British Empire, Australia, Canada, for example, are more likely to have a parliamentary system rather than a presidential one.
- 2.18** OK, so just to talk then about the features of these systems, what is a presidential system? The President is the elected head of state in a particular nation, head of the government, chief executive officer of the nation. In a presidential system, we have a separation of powers because people are voting directly for the President, but they are also voting directly for their representative in the legislature, like their member of Congress. There's also courts as well, acting as another power center. The system posits the President and the legislature as co-equal, each having similar levels of power. The President is not a member of the legislature. That's different from the Prime Minister, who is a member of the legislature, is elected as an MP. The President is not elected as a member of Congress. So that's one difference.
- 2.19** Now, whether that matters in terms of—the President of the US is not accountable locally to a particular constituency, the way the Prime Minister, for example, does have a constituency that they have some accountability to as well. So what is a presidential system? And we've got a picture of the Mexican Assembly here, which is, again, part of that presidential system. We have the direct election of the President by the people. That is separate from the assembly, which is directly elected. You have a vote for members of Congress, a vote for the President. Fixed terms of office, very neatly delineated. It's not to say that there are no fixed terms in parliamentary systems. They

can also sometimes have terms. They are, as in Britain, more fluid to some degree, not four years fixed, although there are conventions that delimit how long a term of office is, even in a parliamentary system.

2.20 The President has a lot of power in foreign policy and foreign affairs. They can make a decision, for example, to go to war in a presidential system, whereas in a parliamentary system, actually, the Prime Minister actually has to bring that before Parliament. So they can't just unilaterally make these foreign policy decisions. Now, even though the President, in the US case, can declare war and can act, has a certain amount of power independent of Congress, to some degree, the President in foreign policy is more powerful than the Prime Minister. In a presidential system as well, the President can veto legislation coming from Congress, from the legislature. So you have a presidential veto. That doesn't exist clearly in the parliamentary system. The Prime Minister cannot veto legislation. Of course, he or she wouldn't necessarily do that, but they can't veto legislation coming out of parliament. So that's another important distinction.

2.21 So the presidential system has a lot of these formalized checks and balances that delimit who has power when. It's designed so that each part of the system checks the power of the other part of the system. To some degree in the parliamentary system, power is a little bit more concentrated in the legislature, which is—Parliament in Britain, for example, is supreme, supreme over the courts, for example, in a way that is not as true, really not true in the presidential system, where the court can strike down legislation. Legislatures in a presidential system, they can vote to impeach. They can impeach a president. We saw some of that clearly with talk of impeachment of President Trump. We have this power to impeach, but it's very difficult to get the votes necessary to impeach.

2.22 In a parliamentary system, there isn't impeachment, but you can have a vote of no confidence in the Prime Minister, and that's one way in which the legislature checks the power of the executive in the parliamentary system. The parliamentary system of government, which, by the way, is more common than the presidential, arguably, globally, although it's a toss-up to some degree, depends on definitions. But the parliamentary system, you have people voting in the assembly, i.e., parliament, and the Prime Minister is the leader of the largest party in the assembly. Sometimes there are coalitions. In Britain, this country, we saw a coalition between the Conservatives and liberal Democrats as well to make up the numbers so that they are large enough to control a plurality of power in the system.

2.23 Presidential system works, again, more on these formal checks and balances, the electorate voting separately for, as I mentioned, separately for the assembly. So you vote for your member of Congress, you vote for the president separately, and they each check each other. It's worth saying that, going back to this term liberal democracy, democracy really is about the majority ruling, not the aristocracy or the king. So it's power to the people, popular sovereignty, and the idea that the people have power,

not the monarch or the king or even the president. That's the notion of popular sovereignty.

- 2.24** But there's also liberalism. That's democracy, but liberalism is about the rights of the individual, the rights of the individual against the state, but even sometimes the rights of the individual against the tyranny of the majority . That's part of, that you have your rights that can't be trampled on, even if there is majority sentiment to deny you rights, let's say, as a Catholic in Britain. The courts are in some ways the guarantor of liberal, the liberal part of liberal democracy. The courts defend your rights as an individual in the system.
- 2.25** They are perhaps less important to the democratic side, the idea of majority rule, popular sovereignty. That's more the legislature, and to some extent, the executive. The judiciary is about the liberal side, the defense of liberalism. So one of the terms you may have heard or may not have heard is the term illiberal democracy. Illiberal democracy. So you will have elections in different countries. Singapore, for example. You might have elections in Ivory Coast, in a number of different countries. But on the other hand, and so you have democracy in a way. You have elections, you may have the transfer of power from one party to another, but you have very weak protection of your rights. If somebody who's well connected to the ruling elite takes something of yours, cheats you in a business dealing, and they are well connected, they can work the system. So your rights are not properly protected, or you can be thrown in jail, again, without a lot of protection for your rights.
- 2.26** That shows you the weakness of the judiciary and the legal system in protecting your constitutional rights . So just to say that liberal democracies are really mixing together two things, which is protection of your individual rights, the liberalism, and the democracy side, which is popular sovereignty that the majority rules, not a small elite. Those two elements can be in tension . There can a tension between liberalism and democracy. To some extent, one way we can—well, we could understand some aspects of populism as a tension between what populism is sort of about is the majoritarian, the desire of the people being frustrated. To some degree, that might be because of the power of the judiciary and its emphasis on constitutional liberties as against majority rules. You can have tension between the liberalism and the democracy.
- 2.27** Just continuing on with presidential systems, what we have is the judiciary , which is the protector of individual rights, but also the meaning of legislation and interpreting the legislation. Then you have the executive and the assembly, each given certain powers. There are certain rules for how disputes between these are resolved. I mentioned presidential vetoes . In the US system, the president can veto legislation, but that then can be overridden by a two-thirds majority in Congress. So in the US system, the President is the formal head of state. There's a formal role, which is that you represent the country, US, France, et cetera, but also a more legislative role and a power role. In other countries, constitutional monarchies like Britain, the formal head

of state is the king or queen, the monarch. So the Prime Minister is not the formal head of state, but the Prime Minister is the de facto leader of the executive.

2.28 Prime ministers, as distinct from presidents. The parliamentary system has a couple of features that are distinct from the presidential system. I mentioned that formal head of state, the monarch—that's not there in a presidential system. And that, again, reflects the history of presidential republics that overthrew monarchs. Whereas in a parliamentary system, particularly a constitutional monarchy, the monarch would be the formal representative of the state and the incarnation of the state. Also, the legislature in a parliamentary system, like Britain's, the House of Commons, the leader is drawn from the House of Commons. It's an MP that becomes Prime Minister. That's another difference.

2.29 The other aspect that is important is how you remove. In a parliamentary system, and a good example is what's happened in Britain over the last few years, there have been a succession of different prime ministers. You started out with Boris Johnson in 2019, and then Liz Truss came in, and then Liz Truss was removed. Rishi Sunak came in, and maybe now Rishi Sunak is going to be removed. So that would never happen in the US case. No matter how discontented people were with Joe Biden, he wouldn't be removed and replaced with somebody else. They can't do that. That is not part of the American constitutional set-up. So that's a distinctive element of the parliamentary system. You could say that that's a good thing, perhaps, in that it allows for more responsiveness. So maybe if Johnson is really unpopular, you can remove him and get somebody else. And that's maybe responding to the public mood. Maybe that's a good thing. It's more flexible. Maybe it's not a good thing because it creates chaos. But there's a debate to be had there.

2.30 It's worth saying, by the way, the President, yes, can be impeached, but the bar for that is much higher than in the parliamentary case. So it's not the same process. Generally, you might say that the President has more power in the sense that it's harder to get rid of him or her than in a parliamentary system. The Prime Minister is always, to some degree, beholden to the good graces of his or her party.

2.31 Where does prime ministerial power come from then if prime ministers are not directly elected? I mean, it's quite interesting because there's a whole debate about, is Rishi Sunak legitimate or Liz Truss legitimate because they weren't elected by the people to lead the government? So there's this whole question of legitimacy. But in general, you would never question the president's legitimacy because the president has been directly elected by the population. Even if the population comes to not like the President, but they did elect him or her. So that is their choice, and it has that legitimacy. So the prime ministerial power then derives instead from a number of different sources. One is their patronage, their ability to place people in relatively good positions within the government.

- 2.32** There are certain government positions which are more highly valued than others, which have greater prestige than others, and which also may lead to an individual who has performed particular roles like Chancellor of the Exchequer, becoming Prime Minister later. Whereas if you are, I don't know, doing culture and media, that might be less prestigious, and that's not necessarily a stepping stone to becoming a Prime Ministerial candidate. So level and range of patronage, control of appointments to cabinet, which is, again, the cabinet around the table is what — these are the top positions within government which actually set policy direction.
- 2.33** So prime ministers can appoint people to cabinet. They can also have reshuffles where they drop a number of people from the cabinet and put other MPs in as members of the cabinet. They have a certain amount of power over MPs who would desire to get closer to the levers of power. They also have position as head of the civil service. In theory, the civil service is supposed to carry out the wishes of the prime minister. Now, there's a whole debate over, does the civil service actually, in practice, have its own agenda, have independent power from the Prime Minister? Is that a good thing or a bad thing?
- 2.34** Same in the presidential system. Is it a good thing that the federal government bureaucracy didn't do what Trump wanted it to do? Is it a bad thing? There are different debates over this. One view is that people don't elect bureaucrats, therefore bureaucrats should not, they should simply be carrying out the wishes of the executive. Another view is, well, there's a certain degree to which the bureaucracy and the executive know how things work and perhaps can gauge the public mood or should have some discretion or some impact on policy. That's a debate.
- 2.35** Finally, and this is true of presidents as well, the ability to use the media, for example, if there is a backbench rebellion in Parliament, and Sunak goes on the media and is able to portray the backbenchers as fomenting disunity and causing the party to have trouble in the next election, then maybe Sunak is able to quell and to draw the sting from that backbench rebellion. So use of the media is also an important aspect of power for prime ministers. It's very important aspect, by the way, for presidents, too. If Congress is not enacting legislation that the President wants to get enacted and the President goes on the media and tries to essentially attack those people who are stymieing the legislation as impeding the will of the people, maybe the President can generate enough pressure in the media to force Congress to back down in a certain way. So it's all, use of the media is part of the tools of power that both prime ministers and presidents can wield.
- 2.36** OK, so when I talk about the executive, that's not just the president or prime minister, but also the cabinet. So virtually all political executives feature a cabinet. Here there's some quite interesting differences between presidential and parliamentary systems. What cabinets do is that they are a way of coordinating the policy agenda of the executive, and that's typically the party that controls government. So the parliamentary

cabinet in the British system would all be drawn from the conservative government because that's who's been elected. It's worth saying that, in a system that involves power-sharing, you would tend to have members of the cabinet from different parties. In Lebanon, in Northern Ireland, you would tend to have a cabinet made up of members of different parties, representing the entire legislature, not just the winning party. Whereas in a first-past-the-post or winner-take-all system like the US and Britain, the cabinet would be only made up of members of the winning party.

- 2.37** In the British system, the cabinet is appointed by the Prime Minister from MPs who've won their seats, who sit in Parliament in the legislature. So the Prime Minister is selecting people who've won office. In the US case, the President's cabinet, there's nobody in the President's cabinet that is a member of Congress. So in the British system, the Prime Minister appoints members of the cabinet from Parliament who are members of the legislature. In the US case, the President appoints people who are not members of the legislature, and so they have no divided loyalty to their congressional electors. They've got only loyalty to the President. So the US cabinet includes Secretary of State, Secretary of the Treasury, Secretary of Defense. These are all people that are appointed directly by President, in this case, President Biden.
- 2.38** And that's a difference, again, between the parliamentary system. So there's an independent power center there, totally independent from the legislature, whereas in the British system, there's an interpenetration. These members of the cabinet are from the legislature. Even if they are ejected from the cabinet, they still have their seat and they still have a voice. Whereas if you are in the American cabinet and you are ejected, you have nothing, no power left. There are a number of differences that way.
- 2.39** We have then the legislature. We can talk about the legislature and its relationship to the executive and the power of the legislature vis-a-vis the executive. We can also see some distinctions here between the presidential and parliamentary system. It's worth saying that, in terms of the legislatures or assemblies, they have a number of different functions. One is to propose and scrutinize legislation. Laws are proposed in the Senate or the House of Representatives or the House of Commons. They make their way through a number of different readings. Now, in the British system, they then go to the Lords. They are also, by the way, scrutinized in committees which are formed to actually go line by line through legislation and improve them. So part of what the assemblies are doing is they are scrutinizing legislation, refining and making it better.
- 2.40** There are, again, important differences. In Britain, the House of Lords, yes, they can scrutinize legislation. Yes, they can propose amendments, but ultimately power lies with the House of Commons, and the House of Lords doesn't have a lot of power. Whereas in the American system or the presidential system, a bill can be proposed in the—typically, what will happen is a bill will be proposed in the House and in the Senate at the same time, but the bill has to pass through both houses in order to go

through, and it's not automatic that it will necessarily pass both houses. So the Senate is a much more powerful body than the House of Lords, for example.

- 2.41 Assemblies also decide on appropriations of money. They have a budget, for example. They have to authorize the use of funds. So the American President can declare war, but if the President wants to continue that war, they need to get authorization from Congress. Assemblies are also important, generally, for recruiting people into politics. Parties tend to recruit people into politics. Those parties are linked very much to the legislature. And then lastly, legitimacy. The assembly is seen as a representative of the people. So the people vote for their local MP or member of Congress. They see that person there. They see that they're being represented properly by the system.
- 2.42 That's important for system legitimacy, and when we get into a situation where people think, "Oh, the assembly doesn't represent me." I talked about Northern Ireland for a long time. In Northern Ireland, the party associated with the Protestant voters won every election for 50 years. So the Catholic third of the population felt like, "We aren't being represented here." Yes, it's a one-person, one-vote system, but on a one-person, one-vote system with everyone voting for an ethnic party or for a religious party, that resulted in a victory for one side every time for 50 years. You can see where perhaps one section of the community would feel that they weren't represented. So representation is important in an assembly.
- 2.43 Now, there is a question of who needs to be represented. We talked about Protestant and Catholic in Northern Ireland or in Lebanon, it might be Christian, Shia, and Sunni Muslim, seeing themselves represented in government. If they're not represented, that could lead to discontent, which could lead to violence. But then there are other kinds of characteristics. Does the assembly need to be 50% male, 50% female? For example, is it important to have the working class be represented? There are almost no members of parliament or Congress who don't have a university degree, who are from working-class backgrounds. Is that a problem? If people who come from those backgrounds feel that they are not represented, does that lead to populism and discontent within the system?
- 2.44 So assemblies also have to represent, to some degree, the populations that they govern, but they don't necessarily have to represent every dimension and every group identity in a perfect mirror image of the population so that there are X number of left-handed people. That's a bit ridiculous. The question is, and there's a whole debate over how much do the assemblies have to represent the characteristics of their populations or not.
- 2.45 So just to look at a couple, a few case studies, we have the US as a presidential system, Britain as a parliamentary system, and France, which is actually a bit of a mixed system. It has a president and a prime minister. In the US case, then, we have a classic presidential system where the executive is separately elected from the legislature, and there is a formalized separation of powers. Britain, a classic parliamentary system,

fusion of the executive and legislative branches in the person of the Prime Minister, who is the leader the executive and also elected to the legislature. Then France, with a unique system that has got both an elected President and an elected legislature.

- 2.46** Just in terms of the mechanics of power in the American system, laws are drafted in Congress. That is, a House bill and a Senate bill are both tabled. They then go to the President. If they've been passed by Congress, they then go to the President to sign the bill. The President can say no and veto, but Congress can override that veto with a two-thirds vote. One example of that is Ronald Reagan wanted to see affirmative action removed in the US case, and that was overridden by Congress. So Congress has power; with enough support, it can override presidential legislation .
- 2.47** President can also issue what are called executive orders, which do not require legislation . There are certain areas in which President has power to issue an executive order. Maybe the executive order might be around government contracting. If I use the affirmative action case, there can be an executive order mandating some sort of affirmative action quota, say, X proportion of government contracts going to African-American-led firms. Now, that executive order, if another party comes in, they can rescind that executive order. None of that involves tabling legislation. That is an area where the president has a certain sphere of power to pursue a policy agenda independently of the legislature. But the legislature can, however, legislate and make it explicit. In that sense, ultimately, they can override the power of the President in that sense.
- 2.48** I mentioned already about presidents can make war, but Congress has to approve the funds. Ultimately, once again, the President has only limited, particularly over the longer term, only has limited power and cannot simply steamroll the legislature. The Supreme Court, however, can declare certain laws unconstitutional. However, the President can appoint members of the nine members of the Supreme Court. If a member of the Supreme Court dies, then there's an opportunity to appoint a member of the court. To that extent, the executive has power over the judiciary and the content, the composition of the judiciary, is controlled to some degree by the President.
- 2.49** But of course, those nine justices have long terms because they have those terms for life . In other systems, they don't have such long terms, which would then grant more power to the executive over the judiciary. It's also worth saying that the Senate has to confirm the President's judicial appointments, so that gives some voice from the legislature into the judicial appointments process. It's also worth saying that there have been different eras in American history where the power of the President has waxed and waned. Teddy Roosevelt in the early 20th century, seen as an American President that actually presided over the rise, the growth of power to the President , where there are other presidents who are more acquiescent to the legislature. So there's a certain degree to which the power of the presidency waxes and wanes over time .

- 2.50** In the United Kingdom, I mentioned that the parliament can, through a vote of no confidence, remove a prime minister, and we've seen that in Britain in recent years. And so that is a check on the power of the executive. The legislature can end the term of the leader of the executive. So that's an important check on the power of the executive in the British system. There is this term bicameral, which means two chamber. And so House of Representatives, Senate. House of Commons, House of Lords. Upper house. These upper houses or second chambers have different degrees of power in different societies. Even in the Soviet Union, you had an upper house. Actually, the upper house may have different principles, which constituted. Even in the Soviet Union, you had the Duma, the Parliament, and you had the Congress of People's Deputies, which was really about representing all the different republics within the Soviet Union system.
- 2.51** In a way, the Senate is like that, too. The Senate in the US, it's two senators for each state. Whether you have 40 million people like California or 250,000 like Alaska, you get two senators. It's not on a representation by population basis, whereas the House of Representatives is on a representation by population basis. So there will be a lot more members of Congress from California than from Alaska. But in the Senate, they will have the same number of representatives. The reason for that is, the building block for the Senate is the state. The view is that people have an identification with their state. I am a Virginian, I am an Alaskan, which is important. If you had election after election after election, and Alaskans were never in the winning party, it's a bit like Northern Ireland, the Catholics never being in the winning party. You could get discontent forming.
- 2.52** The federal principle is to say, well, we have to recognize society is made up, yes, of individuals who expect equal representation, but it's also made up of groups which are important in this society, whether it's Protestant Catholic, whether it's being a Virginian or a Massachusettsan or a New Yorker. Those are important group identities, and we have to account for them. The upper house, sometimes, and I mentioned the Soviet Union as well, even though, of course, the Soviet Union was not a democracy. But it's just interesting that the principle they adopted was that they want to represent the republics in that upper house.
- 2.53** The upper house then scrutinizes legislation from the Parliament. The upper houses have different levels of power. Britain, the upper house is much weaker than the US, where the Senate is much stronger. Those are all what are called two-chamber or bicameral systems. There's also a relationship between the legislature and the Supreme Court or the high court in Britain. In Britain, the legislature is supreme. It's recognized in the British Constitution that the legislature, parliament is supreme, parliamentary sovereignty, whereas that's not necessarily the case in the American system, where the Supreme Court can veto, strike down legislation.

- 2.54** What about France? This is a mixed system, a semi-presidential, where you have an elected president, but you also have an elected legislature with a prime minister. Now, France is an interesting melding of these two systems. So the president can appoint the prime minister. As in a classic presidential system, the President has power over foreign policy . But in terms of the legislative agenda, the Prime Minister has the power. Now, notice in the British system, which is purely parliamentary, the Prime Minister is important in driving legislative agenda, as well as having power over, for example, foreign policy.
- 2.55** You can have a situation in France where different parties—so the presidency can be Emmanuel Macron and the legislature can be the Socialist. You can have this situation where you can have different parties in control, and there you get something like the American gridlock, where you get—it's very difficult to get legislation passed, and particularly the President's legislative agenda through. That's tougher when the legislature is controlled by another party. You get these complicated arrangements. The President can dissolve Parliament , actually, in the French system. Then you would say, well, the executive has power over the legislature, but on the other hand , parliament can remove the president through a vote of no confidence. So that's the legislature having power over the president. So you have this very fluid system of checks and balances.
- 2.56** The high court, or Supreme Court in France, is largely appointed independently of the President and, to some extent, the legislature. So that's a separate power center , but on the other hand, it doesn't seem to have the same powers in the American system. The next question we might ask is, OK, so let's deal with the executive for a second and ask, what are the powers of the executive in the presidential and parliamentary system?
- 2.57** So, one is that the Prime Minister or the President is a representative of the country, symbolically to the world. The face of Britain to the world is the Prime Minister. The face of the United States to the world is the President. They're symbolizing the larger society in its unity and its national identity in a way, a formal relationship. They also have a policy-making leadership role , which is that they want to drive a particular legislative agenda, which is typically the agenda that they ran on in the elections. That's another function of the executive, is to actually drive forth a particular legislative agenda. Maybe it's fighting inflation , it's cutting hospital waiting times, it's reducing migration levels, it's increasing trade. Whatever it is, that is what the executive is partly about, delivering that particular policy agenda.
- 2.58** The executive is expected then to, in a way, govern in the interests of those who brought it to power, but also broadly in the interests of the country as a whole. Of course, it's complicated because, in some cases, parties really represent a narrow group and are really judged only on how they perform to the people who elected them. This is particularly in societies, and there are quite a few societies in the world, where people

vote for ethnic parties, and you're assessed as a leader as to how well you deliver for your ethnic constituency, not for the country as a whole. One of the arguments, again, to return to Lebanon or Northern Ireland, if you are in the Democratic Unionist Party or in Sinn Féin in Northern Ireland, you will be assessed on how well you delivered for your people in a way. Unionist for the Protestant people. Sinn Féin, how well did you deliver for the Catholic population, not only for Northern Ireland as a whole.

2.59 In terms of getting back to the functions of political executives, we mentioned driving forth a policy agenda symbolizing the nation. There's also this idea of representation so that people feel that they're being listened to, being represented by the people that they put into government. That's important for the legitimacy of the system, trust in the system. Political executives also have to steer the bureaucracy of state, and sometimes known as the "blob" in Britain or the "deep state" in the US. Those are a bit conspiratorial, but the idea is that you have to actually get the bureaucracy to do what you want it to do, to carry out the functions, whether it be an education, whether it be in the military.

2.60 Sometimes that's been satirized with shows like Yes Minister, where this idea is that the civil service, because the bureaucracy is there through multiple prime ministers or presidents, they will outlast them all, and they're able, therefore, to deflect some of the policy initiatives of the executive. Then finally, crisis leadership in a wartime situation. There's talk of the wartime leader. Who's a good wartime leader? Maybe Winston Churchill, a very good wartime leader, maybe not as good in peace time, was voted out of office fairly quickly after World War II. It's also worth saying, by the way, that in a crisis like a war, sometimes the adversarial nature of politics, particularly in a system like, and we'll talk about this next lecture, what's called a first-past-the-post or adversarial system where it's winner take all, which is different from a consensual system where all the parties cooperate.

2.61 Northern Ireland is one, Lebanon is another, where, at least in theory, the parties are supposed to be cooperating. In a war, you will get sometimes a government of national unity where it's all the parties no longer competing with each other, but in some ways cooperating with each other. And that is more of a consensual form of government and less of a competitive form of government. Whereas in the first-past-the-post system, it's usually, if you think about House of Commons debates, it's one side and the other side jeering. It's a battle, not people more or less consensually agreeing to things and not wanting anyone to feel left out, which is more that consensual style. And that consensual style can emerge in a war where everybody's united completely. Then you'll get a more consensual style of government. But it's also worth saying that that consensual style of government is constitutionally mandated in constitutions in divided societies like Northern Ireland, where it's very important that no one feel left out.

2.62 In terms of where the power lies in the executive, we have a number of different dimensions of power that determine the influence of presidents and prime ministers.

There's the formal constitutional role that is given to a president or a prime minister in the system, but that may not actually necessarily translate into the reality. There are also informal conventions that also interpret the formal constitutional dimensions, and those informal dimensions can also matter. In terms of informal dimensions of power, the personality of the leader is important. Are they charismatic or not? Can they win the media to their side and therefore win? If they got the media behind them and they're charismatic, they're more likely to be able to persuade legislators of their agenda .

- 2.63** Then there's the external context, which is broader pressures that bear on the executive branch outside. So it might be international alliances. Perhaps the US is pressuring Britain to join a war in Iraq or whatever. So you can have these external forces that also affect the power of a particular leader. Now, in terms of the relationship between the executive and the legislature, it's often the case. I mentioned that presidents can have more power than prime ministers over the policy agenda, but not always. Because it's partly about, at what point can prime ministers be removed by a vote of non-confidence, or at what point can presidents be impeached? We've mentioned that, on that dimension, presidents have more power because it's harder to impeach a president than to remove a prime minister.
- 2.64** The role of the courts, again, that's the defender of individual liberties, and it's also the interpreter of legislation. Those courts have more influence in the American case than in France or Britain. As I mentioned in the British case, Parliament is sovereign and has ultimate decision-making power over the courts in a way that's not true in the American presidential system . Just looking then at the performance of these two liberal democratic political designs, we have the parliamentary system and the presidential system. The benefit of the American presidential system is a very clearly specified separation of powers between the executive, the legislature, and the judiciary. That enacts formal checks and balances on , let's say, the power of the president.
- 2.65** This debate came up with President Trump. To what extent can Trump just do what he likes, or is he actually very much limited in what he can do because of the power of the legislature and the judiciary? Stability. You have that fixed four-year term, let's say, where you're not going to get a succession of leaders the way you have, let's say, in Britain in the last few years, which can create a certain amount of instability. So stability is a benefit of the US system. Because the President has a certain amount of independence to, let's say, make war or issue executive orders, there is a certain degree to which the President is independent of the legislature in the American system, which is not true in the British system.
- 2.66** The Prime Minister cannot just pursue a policy direction without buy-in from his or her party in the House of Commons. The Prime Minister is constrained. They have to win backing from the legislature, or at least the majority or the largest party in the

legislature. They can't just more or less go it alone in the way that the US President can. Having said that, of course, as I mentioned, when it comes to appropriations of monies from the budget, the President is still dependent on Congress. So it doesn't have total power, but at least in a short-term window, they do have a certain degree of freedom.

2.67 Then finally, in the US system, there is a certain amount of power that derives from locality. As a member of Congress, you are elected—you're up for election every two years. You're up for election every two years. You're campaigning almost all the time. You have to please your constituents because they're the people you're ultimately beholden to, because they can remove you from office at any time. You have to be very tuned into your local constituents as a member of the House. Senate, OK, that's the state level. You don't have the same district-level representation as a member of the House. And you're only elected—the Senate only changes over every six years. So you're only up for election every six rather than every two years. It's perhaps not the same relationship.

2.68 But still, if we think about the House of Representatives, that power of the local is very important. So you would think, therefore, that this system is going to be more responsive to local concerns than a parliamentary system, where, yes, you are an MP for a particular constituency. Yes, they can remove you, but you're not up for election every two years, for example. Perhaps the electoral cycle is on a longer basis. What are the drawbacks of the American presidential system? Well, on the one hand, the dark side of stability is rigidity. If you have a president who is deeply unpopular, you can't remove them. If you have a prime minister who's deeply unpopular, you can remove them. That rigidity is arguably a downside.

2.69 You have this potential for gridlock. You would rarely get a situation in the House of Commons where the prime minister wants to pursue a particular policy, and his or her party blocks the prime minister's agenda. Because if that were the case, the Prime Minister, as I mentioned, has the power to appoint people to cabinet, better or worse jobs. The Prime Minister can really drive the legislative agenda, and so you don't tend to get this gridlock. Now, you will, of course, get backbench rebellions, and we've seen this. We're seeing this now in the British system, where you can have factions within the Conservative Party, for example, which are not happy with particular legislative directions and might stage a revolt and might vote with the opposition. There is a certain potential for the legislature blocking the Prime Minister's agenda, but generally, the Prime Minister's agenda gets passed, and votes go down on party lines, usually, without too much rebellion or people crossing to vote with the other party.

2.70 Whereas, at least in theory, in the US system, although this was more true in the '80s and '90s for reasons that we'll talk about later, you could have this potential for gridlock, where people have voted for the Republicans as President and the Democrats in the House, and therefore, it's very difficult to do anything. One of the arguments for why the Supreme Court has become more important in the US is because, with this

gridlock, it's very difficult to pass legislation in the American system. And because of that, the courts are having to make more decisions, because the legislature is not able to be decisive. Whereas in the British system, that's not a problem. The legislature can, very much, the Prime Minister can get his or her agenda passed pretty well untrammelled by resistance from the legislature. So that's gridlock.

- 2.71** We've then got concentration of power in the US system. I mean, that's a debatable one. Yes, the President has a certain amount of short-term executive power, but as we've seen, there's a lot of checks, and it's not clear the President actually has that much power, particularly over the long term. Then finally, one of the issues, particularly in the US case, is this indirect election argument, which is that, when you vote, say, in a presidential election, you vote for the President, you're actually technically voting for members of something called the Electoral College within a state. That's based on winner-take-all. So whichever party in Montana, if there are— it can be 51, 49. And so all the delegates go. If the Republicans are at 51, the Democrats at 49, Republicans take all of the representatives for Montana.
- 2.72** Because of that winner-take-all at every state level, it can be the case, depending on the distribution of votes, if you're a party—What you ultimately want is your votes to be nicely spread so that you can win every contest by just a little bit, and then in certain states, OK, fine, you'll take a big loss. But if you can actually just beat the other party by a few points in the other areas more broadly across the country, you can have a more efficient distribution of the vote. What that then might mean is, as in the US in 2016, the majority of the vote went to the Democrats, but the majority of the Electoral College delegates went to the Republicans, and so the Republican President was elected.
- 2.73** Now, usually the proportion of the vote in terms of raw popular vote approximates, roughly, to who gets into power. But in a very finely balanced system where the parties are very similar in strength like the US, the result can sometimes go to the party that actually has a lower share of the popular vote. Now, it's worth saying that can also happen in a parliamentary system. In Canada, for example, the Liberal party of Justin Trudeau has a vastly larger parliamentary representation, or a considerably larger representation, than its proportion of the popular vote. So it has a more efficient distribution of vote than the Conservative Party. So this can also happen in a parliamentary system as well.
- 2.74** So then what are the benefits of the British parliamentary system? And I mentioned that the Prime Minister can really enact their agenda without much resistance from the legislature, partly because they got a majority or a plurality of votes, and therefore, that's how they came into power. And so there's a more efficient lawmaking process. The Prime Minister can really drive the policy agenda. Flexibility. This is the downside of—the British system is more flexible, but for that reason, a bit more unstable. So we can remove, if the popular mood turns against a prime minister, they can be removed,

but then that can create instability and perhaps a lack of consistent policy direction over time.

2.75 You have also a benefit in terms of the collective responsibility. So the cabinet, it's all made up of MPs. It's responsible to Parliament in a way, and that ensures greater accountability of the Prime Minister to the House of Commons, the legislature. The last point to note is that there have been some attempts to study, globally, whether presidential systems or parliamentary systems have better results. And there is some evidence, it's not conclusive, to suggest that parliamentary systems have been less conflict-ridden than presidential systems. So the jury is not fully out on this, but one of the arguments is that parliamentary systems may be a better fit, certainly too much of the developing world, for example, or places where there's a different mix of different interests, and particularly where you have ethnic voting and ethnic parties, which we'll talk about more later in the next lecture.

2.76 In terms of drawbacks of parliamentary systems, one of the drawbacks is, again, the flip side of the fact that it's very efficient and effective in delivering the policy agenda that it was elected on. The flip side of that is you might get a so-called elective dictatorship. So there's no one to check the party in office and the prime minister that is running that party. And so if people get really dissatisfied with the direction that a prime minister is taking, you can't remove them from office and you can't change the policy direction. Whereas maybe in a presidential system where the legislature has independence, they can check a president and their agenda. In the British system, there's no real ability, in the short-term anyway, to change direction.

2.77 There's this elective dictatorship problem in the British system. There's an instability problem, which is, again, you can have a succession of leaders. I mentioned Johnson, Truss, Sunak, maybe another. That instability. Then there tends to be this party dominance where there's very little ability necessarily for individual legislators to vote against their party because the party more or less whips the MPs to vote for the party's legislation. Whereas maybe in, at least it used to be the case in the American system, there was much more crossing of the aisle, where people would vote the interests of their local constituents or vote for their conscience, rather than for the party line. Whereas maybe in the British system, there's more pressure to take the party line, because if you don't vote the party line, you'll be seen as disloyal, be much less likely to be selected for nice positions in the cabinet that might be a stepping stone to being Prime Minister. So the party of government tends to be very dominant with less room for other countervailing interests to be expressed.

2.78 We can also look at the French semi-presidential system just briefly, and does it combine the best or the worst of the US and British systems? And one of the benefits is you have a balance of power between the legislature and the executive between the President and the legislature as led by a Prime Minister. So the Prime Minister has some power and the president has some power, and they can check each other to

some degree. That's arguably a benefit. You can see that, in a lot of these assessments, there's a tension between the efficiency and effectiveness of a system in delivering a legislative agenda and checks against authority and defenses against executive power. And that's to some degree a trade-off. Are you more worried about the executive getting out of control and becoming authoritarian, or are you more worried about the system bogging down because of too many checks and balances and not getting anything done? That is to some degree a tension that one has to manage. You can't have it both ways.

- 2.79** So in the French system, which seems to be very focused on checks and balances, President, Prime Minister, etc., clearly the benefit is that that can guard against authoritarianism, but the negative of that would tend to be that it's less efficient in getting things done. Also in the French system, because of the complexity of the elected legislature with its Prime Minister, this relationship between the two, that you can have these power struggles, especially where the legislature is of a different party from the President, and that can make it very difficult to know who has got responsibility in a particular area.
- 2.80** This gets back to what I just mentioned, which is this tension between checks and balances, guarding against an untrammelled executive power versus efficiency in delivering a legislative agenda, that there's a tension between those two in the design of any system. Maybe the British system is more effective for delivering a legislative agenda, but in a way doesn't provide as many checks on the power of a so-called elective dictatorship. So if a prime minister is really running the country into the ground, now you could say, well, then the party can remove the prime minister, and that's true. But if the party is behind the prime minister, actually, then there's not much that can stop that prime minister from doing a lot of damage. Whereas in these more mixed systems, there's much more of a check from the legislature onto the president.
- 2.81** So, just to conclude, we've done a grand tour of comparative political institutions, largely focusing on comparing the presidential and the parliamentary system, and focusing especially on the American presidential system and the British parliamentary system. We looked a little bit, perhaps, at the mixed French system. We looked at where power lay in each system in terms of the three main branches of government—the executive, the legislature, and the judiciary. We examined the different functions of the executive's legislatures and the courts in each system, the differences, the power of the prime minister versus the power of the president, which system is better for delivering a legislative agenda, and which system is better for checks and balances on authoritarianism.
- 2.82** And all of these things are important because it may be that we would say, OK, well, the power—there's not much of a risk of a prime minister or a president becoming a military dictator and taking absolute power. We don't worry about that too much in

Britain. I know these debates have occurred in the US more, but still, maybe that's not the main consideration. Maybe what people are more worried about is the fact that these legislatures can't get things done in terms of policy.

2.83 But in many, particularly developing countries, the worry is more about a lapse into authoritarianism. Maybe people would say, well, I'm willing to sacrifice some policy effectiveness to get more checks and balances against the potential of authoritarianism. And so, maybe the decision as to which system to adopt in, it depends partly on how mature the democracy is. How long has a country been a democracy? What is the likelihood of it lapsing into some kind of an authoritarian system. That might concentrate minds in a different direction.

Lecture 3: Political Parties

At a glance — Political parties.

- 3.1** The next topic that I'm going to be addressing is electoral systems and parties. This is another absolute necessity when we're talking about introduction to politics. It's one of those classic topics alongside comparing presidential and parliamentary systems. We're going to be now looking at different electoral and party systems, which is not the same thing as comparing political institutions and presidential and parliamentary systems. And so the US is a presidential system, the UK is a parliamentary system. They are both what's called first-past-the-post, majoritarian electoral democracies. Even though one is a presidential and one is a parliamentary, they have the same type of electoral system, which is called first-past-the-post, which is a version of majoritarian electoral systems.
- 3.2** And what that basically means is, the largest party wins. It doesn't even have to represent the majority of voters. It just has to represent the plurality. It has to be the largest party. It could have 35% of the vote. It doesn't have to have 51% of the vote. Against that, we have more consensual and proportional types of electoral system, of which the most well-known one is proportional representation. The emphasis then in the first-past-the-post system is not on representing everybody because only the winning party forms the government, forms the cabinet, et cetera.
- 3.3** The consensual system, though, is more about representing everybody. And just crudely speaking, in proportional representation, if you win 20% of the vote, 10% of the vote, if you win 10% of the vote, you get 10% of the seats. Whereas in a first-past-the-post system, you can be the UK Independence Party winning 13% of the votes, and you can have no representation. Or maybe they had one seat, sorry, one seat. But basically, you can win a significant chunk of the vote and have no representation in the House of Commons. So it isn't very representative to have a first-past-the-post system.
- 3.4** And it's also the case, by the way, that the first-past-the-post system tends to discriminate against third parties or small parties because they're not viable. They have no chance of winning, and therefore, you tend to move towards either two large parties, occasionally two large parties, and reasonable-sized third parties. But generally, it militates against having lots of parties. Whereas the proportional representation system, you may get 20 parties, each with, maybe not 20, because there's usually a threshold, but you may get a large number of parties.
- 3.5** You could say that's better because most people feel represented. I'm a Green, and there's my Green party representatives in proportion to the Green vote, or I'm a UKIP voter, and there's my 13% of the seats in the legislature. Whereas if I'm a UKIP voter and I've got one seat, then maybe you'd say, "Well, I'm not being represented." So this

is the difference between the majoritarian and the more representational and consensual electoral systems .

- 3.6** Now, at the very extreme, a PR, a proportional representation, system , can also be part of a power-sharing political system in which not only are parties represented in the legislature in proportion to the popular vote, but they are also represented in cabinet, at the cabinet table, in proportion to their vote , or at least in having some representation in the executive. That's typically in deeply divided societies, Lebanon, Northern Ireland, where group identity matters a lot to people, and therefore, you can't exclude groups.
- 3.7** It's viewed that if you exclude groups from the governing coalition, you might be risking civil war or violence. That's a different theory of government, based on a consensus between parties before moving forward, everyone feeling represented before moving forward, because there's a risk of, if people are outside the tent, then they might be incentivized to engage in insurrection or civil war, separatism and so on.
- 3.8** It's very much worth, when we're thinking about electoral systems, thinking about the idea of representation. This is a picture of two maps of the US, one that is just red and blue, blue for the Democrats, red for the Republicans. In 2016, most of the map is red, and Republicans win election. Now, you can look at that. It's very stark. You're either blue or you're red. But of course, in reality, the vote in most of these constituencies is oscillating in a band between 55, 45, and 45, 55. And you have a lot of these purple, a lot of these purple districts. And the fact that they have to—whichever party got slightly more wins. So it's winner-take-all. And so, you could say this is very binary , and it doesn't really represent the nuances of opinion in the country .
- 3.9** So one of the questions is whether a first-past-the-post system really does a good job of representing the nuances amongst voters, or does it totalize and homogenize the vote into this binary , which can leave people feeling they haven't been represented, especially if you are on the losing end in successive elections? I'm drawing some of this from Andrew Heywood's book on politics, chapters 10 and 11, where we talk about the relationship between electoral systems and politics and party systems, because there is a relationship, as I mentioned, where in a first-past-the-post electoral system , your party system tends to involve large parties.
- 3.10** I want to talk about elections first, in part one, and then in part two, I'm going to talk a bit about parties and party systems. One of the questions is, what is the function of an election? One of the key definitions of democracy is that power must be transferred, and also that different groups are free to organize as parties and not thrown in jail if they oppose the government. Elections are central to the meaning of democracy. However, there are many questions around elections and how to design electoral systems . So which posts are appointed versus elected? Who's entitled to vote within the population? What's the voting age? Who's not allowed to vote? Are prisoners

allowed to vote, et cetera? Sometimes they are, sometimes they aren't. And to what extent is there an adversarial versus a consensual system?

- 3.11** So first-past-the-post is very adversarial. You just have to look at the House of Commons to see the competition that the two parties are competing. Now, a virtue of that is, at least in theory, people will have a clear choice and they can see the differences between parties. Whereas in a more consensual, proportional representation type of system, where everyone's supposedly cooperating, you could argue there's deals that are stitched up in backrooms and maybe people don't really see what they're voting for and what the differences between the parties are. So there are pluses and minuses both to the first-past-the-post system and to the proportional representation system.
- 3.12** Just sticking with elections for the minute. Elections have a number of functions. As I mentioned, they're central to the legitimacy of democracy because the fact that people are willingly leaving office and conceding is very important to the democratic norm that says that you don't have absolute power, you can't be president for life, you've got to give up the reins of power when you lose an election. One of the reasons there's been so much controversy over some of Donald Trump's statements is the sense that this is infringing on this norm of the peaceable transfer, willingness to transfer power and concede when you lose an election.
- 3.13** What are the functions of elections? Well, one is the recruitment of politicians, training people for office, bringing them into parties, bringing segments of the electorate into politics. That's one function of elections, clearly providing representation. And that's an important distinction is the function of representing the people, where you might say, well, obviously, you have to have PR because proportional representation is a better mirror of the voters and their preferences, where the percentage of the vote translates directly into percentage of seats. That's better for representation than first-past-the-post, where percentage of vote may not translate, as I mentioned with UKIP, 13% of the vote, but less than 1% of the seats. So it's not very good in terms of representation.
- 3.14** But that is at least one function of elections, is to make people feel like they're being represented. There's also the election process in which voters are drawn into politics. If all they care about is their hobbies and their family, well, at least once every four or five years, or perhaps more frequently in countries where you have more frequent elections, they are drawn into politics, have to think about politics. That's maybe another function of elections is participating in the political process. That also is important for building up the legitimacy of the political system and the democracy, that elections help people feel like, OK, the system is responding to our preferences, and therefore it's legitimate, and so we're not going to conduct an insurrection and try and overthrow the system. We're not going to conduct a coup.

- 3.15** And that's very important, the legitimacy of a democracy. And of course, this is very much a live issue in debates over democratization in the world. What percentage of the world's countries are democratic? There was a big increase in the period from the 1960s to the 1980s. We saw a big increase in the number of democracies, at least in terms of holding elections and having at least one transfer of power. There was this what was called the third wave of democratization in the period between the '60s and the '80s, maybe into the '90s. But there's been a debate over to what extent are some of these democracies backsliding into autocracies and no longer being democracies, leaving aside whether they're liberal or illiberal democracies.
- 3.16** To what extent is there then a backsliding? And to what extent is that because the legitimacy of the political class and of the democracy and the democratic institutions has weakened within the population? Now, that may not be the reason why there's backsliding. There are other reasons. There could be insurrectionary activity and various other reasons. But perhaps one reason could be that the legitimacy, the perceived legitimacy, of the government is low or falls in the eyes of the voters, and that can lead to backsliding. So we need to have legitimate government.
- 3.17** In terms of electoral systems, I mentioned the majoritarian and the more consensual and representative systems. But even within that, we can have different mixes of representation and majoritarianism within different electoral systems. What I want to do next is just walk through a number of the alternative electoral systems in slightly more detail. You can see how the mix of representativeness versus majoritarianism. Again, the majoritarianism is linked to effectiveness, because if you've got to manage a coalition of four, five, six parties towards some policy end, that's trickier. You clearly have to get buy-in from all of the different elements in your coalition.
- 3.18** Just to take a UK example, which is not a proportional representation system, but there was a coalition between the Conservatives and the Liberal Democrats, David Cameron and Nick Clegg leading those parties. They had to agree on legislation, and it's trickier. It's more consensual in that there's more sharing of power between different parts of the electorate, but maybe it's less efficient. Maybe, again, as with the presidential and parliamentary system, where the parliamentary system allows for, to some degree, the Prime Minister to drive a particular legislative agenda without obstruction, and so is more efficient in some ways. So, too, the majoritarian electoral system is in some ways more efficient as well for getting things done. So it's that same trade-off between the getting things done and the representing.
- 3.19** So there are a number of different subtypes within these electoral systems. So voters can be asked to choose, first of all, between parties. So pick a party. Who do you want to vote for? The Conservatives or Labor or Republicans or Christian Democrats and Social Democrats. You choose a party, or sometimes you just choose between candidates, individuals, Donald Trump, Joe Biden, whatever. Voters can also sometimes select just one candidate. So in the first-past-the-post system, you just choose one

candidate. In some of these other systems, you have a rank ordering of candidates, and that rank ordering then informs who ultimately becomes the winner.

3.20 The electorate may or may not be grouped into constituencies, and that can be an issue because if you have, say, a proportional representation system where it's whatever the percent vote for the Greens is what they get in the legislature, we don't really care if there's big variation from constituency to constituency. It's just going to be purely based on national-level proportion of the vote. But that means that you don't have a local MP, a local member of Congress that you can go to with your problems. It's not as locally representative. So that is another trade-off then. Do you have constituencies or do you just have a national level list? That's an important difference.

3.21 And some constituencies can have multiple members in some of these PR systems. So it's actually the case that, in the proportional representation system, you can get constituencies, and they can have different numbers of members depending on their population level, but that each of those constituencies mirrors the national picture in a way. So you don't have a conservative area and a liberal area. You just have each area as a mirror of the national, but you do have some kinds of constituencies. And in terms of forming a government, the level required is sometimes, as I mentioned, just having the largest number of votes of any party. But in other cases, you have to have a majority of 50.1 or more to form a government.

3.22 That's, of course, going to mean the more the requirement is that you have to have 50% plus, the more you're going to actually have to move out beyond your party to bring in members of other parties to form a coalition that has enough to get over the threshold. So that forces more of a consensual form of governing where you have coalitions of parties rather than just Tories win on 30 some odd percent and they form the government. They don't have to really care about the Liberal Democrats or Labour or any of the other parties.

3.23 Now, of course, they have to care a certain degree. If they hope to beat Labour, they, to some degree, have to appeal to voters who are thinking of whether to go to Labour or the Conservatives. To some degree, they have to adapt to the preferences of a larger share of the electorate. It's not that they can be super narrow and ignore the preferences of a larger share of the electorate, but they only need a certain proportion. If you have a society like Britain or the US, where the distribution of votes, let's say for the Republicans or the Conservatives in this country, is more even, with the left-wing parties piling up votes in the cities, most of those votes are wasted in terms of the outcome. Where you have a party that has a very efficient distribution of the votes, it can get in on a relatively low percentage and still win overall. Then you might say there's a representation problem.

3.24 There's a group called the Electoral Reform Society, which has some useful resources in Britain, which I've drawn on here to talk about a number of different options for electoral systems. Within the more majoritarian camp and within the more

representational consensual camp, there are some sub-varieties here, which I'll just talk through. There's a few dimensions here to this. When designing one's electoral system, you have to think about how well does it represent the population? To what extent does it offer you a local politician who can hear local concerns, minister to local concerns, and reflect the needs of constituents? Which is an important element of designing a system, is that it's locally responsive.

- 3.25** Then you also have this question of, to what extent does it lead to more choice for voters that reflects a wider degree of the interests and motivations of voters? If you have just two parties, that doesn't give the voters much choice. You just have a choice between A and B, and maybe neither of them is really what you're really looking for. Whereas if you had a choice of 10 parties, then you're more likely to find a flavor that you like. This is this idea of electoral systems that produce party systems which produce more choice for voters. A menu with more options compared to a menu with two options is arguably better.
- 3.26** We'll just assess these electoral systems. The first is the first-past-the-post system, otherwise known as single-member plurality. Plurality refers to something less than a majority. You just have to have more votes than the other parties. In this system, you have, say, one MP per constituency or one representative of Congress in a congressional district. You divide the country up into these constituencies. Usually, they are apportioned to be of equal size. Now, sometimes there's population growth more in certain areas than others. In the US case, for example, for a long time, the rural constituencies actually had more representation than their population.
- 3.27** But there is this process of redistricting where the districts, the lines between the districts, are sometimes redrawn, or there are new districts created in a way to reflect the shifts in the population. Maybe you need to create more city districts if the cities are growing. That is a way in which the system should be responding. Now, it is true that historically, sometimes there's foot-dragging on that, depending on which party is more advantaged. In the US case, for example, the Republican Party was disadvantaged by the growth of urban constituencies which tended to vote Democrats. So there was a delay in the 1920s and '30s. Or sorry, in the '60s, there was a delay in terms of redistricting, but that eventually occurred.
- 3.28** So the winning candidate then only needs to achieve a plurality. That's the first-past-the-post. It's very much an adversarial system that's created winner-take-all. The cabinet is only Tories. There's no Labour members of cabinet, for example. So it's very much the adversarial winner-take-all majoritarian system. You then have another system which is also majoritarian in a way, which is that you have a second ballot, like in France, where there's the first round, a bunch of candidates run, and they split the vote up. Nobody has over 50%. In a second ballot system, there's only one run-off. So all but the two parties go into that second round, and then whoever wins on that second round becomes the president. So that is a second ballot system.

- 3.29** Notice that that's doing a couple of things compared to the first-past-the-post system where you win 35%, but you've got an efficiently distributed vote and you can become Prime Minister, for example, or President. Although it's unlikely you'd be President on 35%, but just sticking with me for a minute here, on the second ballot system, it forces people who voted for somebody else to decide, "OK, who do I think is my second preference, the least worst? Maybe I preferred the Socialists in my—and I voted for the Socialists in the first round. Second round between Le Pen and Macron, OK, maybe the lesser of two evils is Macron. I'll vote for Macron." And so it builds in a wider range of choices into the final winner.
- 3.30** So you could say it's more representative because at least somebody feels like, "OK, I contributed in the second round to who got elected." So you're representing at least 50% of the population, whereas under the first-past-the-post, you may only be representing 30 something percent of the population. OK, so in first-past-the-post, then, you just cross out one party on your ballot, and it just goes straight to—and this is at the constituency level. You have to win more constituencies. So it's not just who has the most popular votes. We saw in the US case that Hillary Clinton had more of the vote than Donald Trump in 2016. But taking account of how that vote is spread over constituencies, the Republicans win more constituencies and constituencies within states, so they win more states, so they win the election.
- 3.31** And that's first-past-the-post system. In terms of its rating, according to the Electoral Reform Society, their argument is that it does a good job in terms of local representation. You have an MP. The country is broken up into many different constituencies, so you have somebody to go to if you have a problem. Reasonable local representation, but in terms of voter choice and in terms of representation, not very good because you may only get two parties, two reasonable parties, to choose from. In terms of the share of the population that sees themselves reflected in government, it may actually be a minority of the country.
- 3.32** In terms of proportional representation, now moving more to —so we talked about first-past-the-post and a two-round ballot system. Those are both, to some degree, majoritarian. And if we move to the party list system, this is much more about representativeness mirroring the population. And what that is, is the percentage of the vote translates into percentage of seats. So it does a very good job on proportionality, representing the population in proportion to the vote. In terms of voter choice, it also does a reasonably good job because you get a proliferation of parties, and you can see that in the continental European proportional representation systems where you have lots of different parties. And so, many people in the electorate can say, "Aha, I'm being represented here in government."
- 3.33** Now, there are different subtypes. One of the conditions is typically a threshold. You can't get seats in the legislature until you are over 5%, let's say, in Germany. These very small fringe parties are excluded from representation. It's not fully proportional, not

fully representative, because the fringe parties are excluded. Is it good to exclude the fringe parties? That's a debate. If these fringe parties are extremist, and you include them, do you not sully your electoral system? That's one argument, that you can't have them involved in coalitions because they're beyond the pale. The other argument is that if you exclude these people, they're more likely to make trouble and they're more likely to be anti-system in orientation.

- 3.34** And that's also an issue for peace agreements and civil wars, where if you try to exclude the most radical faction—if we take Iraq and you're going to exclude the extreme Shia or the extreme Sunni in the coalition, let's say, maybe their incentive is then to try and torpedo the system and try and engage in insurrectionary activity. The argument can be made both ways.
- 3.35** So just sticking with the party list system, which is a version of proportional representation, which is that you have a list of parties and you simply choose which one represents you. You're putting a mark on just one of the parties or candidates. That translates directly into the legislature. So proportion of votes equals proportion of seats. We have a picture here of the Israeli Knesset and the balance of power between the different political parties. So that's the party list system. Very good in terms of representing people. You have a wide range of parties to choose from. You see yourself represented. Now, how that translates locally, as I mentioned, it may be you've just got one national list, so you don't have local representation. There are no constituencies. You don't have conservative and left-wing constituencies. You just have the national.
- 3.36** Or you can sometimes get, as in Bulgaria, and there's a map here, where you take the proportional breakdown in the national level and you have a fractal or microcosm of that reflected in these constituencies. You don't have a single member who's conservative representing a conservative area. You have representatives of all the parties in proportion to their vote represented in each of these constituencies. The argument there is it at least gives people some local representation. But of course, you've got multiple members there locally. It's not one individual who's responsible for their constituency.
- 3.37** And so the local responsiveness is not as good in this PR system. So its rating is, if we were to compare the first-past-the-post and the PR system, the PR system does worse on local representativeness and responsiveness than the first-past-the-post system, where you have your local MP you can go to. And here you've just got a bunch of MPs, none of which have direct responsibility for their constituency.
- 3.38** We also have a number of systems that are in between the extreme first-past-the-post and the party list PR, fully representative party list PR, in proportion to the population or first-past-the-post system, the two alternatives. You have the alternative vote, the AV. Actually, in this country, some of you may or may not remember, there was a referendum on whether to adopt this system for the country. There may indeed, by

the way, looking ahead, especially if the Liberal Democrats go into government in coalition with Labour. If that's who forms the next government in this country, then the Liberal Democrats are going to be pushing for one of these alternative systems, because if you are a third party, if you're not one of the major parties, you are going to do better, obviously, under a proportional representation system or some system that allows minor parties to have more legislative representation.

- 3.39** One of the questions in this country, anyway, is to what extent the Liberal Democrats would make it a condition of joining with Labour in a coalition government . But one of their conditions would be to change the electoral system in a way that would benefit the small parties like the Liberal Democrats more in the future. With the AV system, which there was a referendum on, is a hybrid. We have, on the one hand, single member, a constituency, so good local responsiveness. There is a ranked system of voting, so you don't just pick one party . You actually have a ranking of all the parties, one to five, let's say, of the parties. You're ranking the different parties under the AV system. So one for your first preference, second for your second, and so on.
- 3.40** And winning candidates must gain 50%. So there's a requirement to meet a 50% threshold in order to form the government. So if no one party reaches 50%, then you have to—what you do is you eliminate from the bottom and transfer votes until you get up to 50, until one candidate has a majority. There's a slight variation of the system under the single transferable vote, where all candidates drop out except the top two. What this is, is it's a more majoritarian system than the list proportional representation. There are still people who are not represented under the AV. All you need is 50% plus to get into government. So that still means you can have almost 50% of the electorate not represented in the legislature.
- 3.41** Whereas under the PR list system, everybody, pretty much, except for the fringe parties that don't meet the threshold , everybody's represented in the legislature. And so this system is better than first-past-the-post , where you could be in, as I say, on 35%. Here you've got to be at least 50%, but it doesn't necessarily mean you have to have much over 50. So it's not as representative as the PR list system. So it's a bit more perhaps like first-past-the-post . There's still a majoritarian element rather than a consensual represent-everybody philosophy behind the system.
- 3.42** Single transferable vote is operating on a similar principle, where you rank the parties, and then if the party that you voted for, number one, doesn't come through, your second preference votes get transferred into a particular party, and eventually, whoever reaches 50 % forms the government. One place we see that is Northern Ireland, where it's a proportional representation. You vote. The electoral system is designed to translate votes into seats, but there's also this second preference, third, fourth preference, votes which get transferred in as well . There is, it's PR with single transferable vote is the system in Northern Ireland .

- 3.43 Now, of course, in Northern Ireland, this is a society which is divided between Protestant and Catholic, where people tend to vote on their ethnic lines. So Protestants vote for unionist parties, whether the DUP or the UUP, and the Catholics would tend to vote for Sinn Féin or SDLP, the Catholic parties. So one of the reasons why Northern Ireland has a proportional representation system is to try and make sure that what happened between 1922 and 1972, where Catholics had no representation in the assembly, that that situation, or they lose every time and they're outvoted every time, that that doesn't happen.
- 3.44 You can have what you want in a system, particularly in a divided society where there's a risk of civil war like Northern Ireland, part of the peace agreement is that you set up a political system that includes everybody, and therefore the government is more consensual and less adversarial than in mainland Britain. That was deliberate because they really worried about groups who felt they were outside of the system, engaging in insurrection and civil war-type activity.
- 3.45 The PR system is more appropriate to designing electoral systems in societies that are post-conflict or have strong ethnic and religious divisions. One of the arguments is that you can't have a first-past-the-post, winner-take-all system in a deeply divided society. It's just going to lead to more conflict and greater risk of civil war. There are other options which blend features of both systems. I'm not going to go into too much detail on them, other than to say there are different options to try and balance out representativeness with effectiveness as well, and local representation. You have also mixed electoral systems. I mentioned the PR, proportional representation, first-past-the-post. Those are the two key ones to bear in mind, and they have different advantages, different pluses and minuses.
- 3.46 You also have mixed systems that blend elements of PR and elements of first-past-the-post. In Germany, for example, you have a proportion of seats filled through the first-past-the-post system, and then the remaining is filled through the party list proportional representation system. You can also blend elements of the two electoral systems as well. I guess this gets us towards a question of, what is going on with elections in terms of voters' heads, and what do elections mean? I just have two charts here which show the results of two 2019 elections in Britain. The first is based upon the European elections. We're going to have European Union elections occurring soon. European Union elections are on a proportional representation basis. That is, the percentage of the vote that you get is the percentage of seats that you get in the European Parliament. So that's the PR system, whereas in Westminster, the national elections are based on first-past-the-post.
- 3.47 Now, the other difference is that the European elections, many people think they don't matter very much because Europe doesn't have much power. It spends only 1% of the total GDP of the European Union. So you could argue it's not that meaningful. People don't see it having a big presence in their everyday life. So they can take a risk and vote

more expressively. They can say, "Well, this is who I am. I'm going to vote for the Brexit Party, and I don't have to worry about if I vote for the Brexit Party, that'll help Labour get in instead of the Tories." That tactical voting consideration is not an issue. It's just pure, "I can express my own preference." Whereas in a Westminster national election scenario, you have to take account of, "Well, if I vote for this minor party, that might help the party I don't like get into office." That's called tactical voting.

3.48 Just comparing these two charts here, roughly around the same time, you can see in the European elections that the Brexit Party is coming out tops here. 29 seats, the Conservatives only 4, Labour 10. Two things are happening. First of all, in terms of vote share, people are voting expressively for minor parties much more in the European elections, like the Liberal Democrats or the Brexit Party. The major parties are getting a very small share of the vote, 14% for Labour, 9% for the Conservatives.

3.49 However, if we look at the Westminster elections, it's the exact opposite. The minor parties are getting very little, and the two main parties are getting almost all of the vote. We have two totally different results, the same country, roughly the same time. This raises the question, can we say that a particular election result is an accurate representation of a population and how it feels about the policies offered by the parties that are running in the election? You would draw a very different conclusion if you looked at these two sets, these two sets of electoral results.

3.50 I think that gets then to this question of the meaning of elections. What does it mean when you have a certain pattern of votes in an election? There are different theories about this. There are those who say, well, we can't necessarily look at a set of results and say that is really representing the way people feel about issues. It may not be. It may reflect a whole range of considerations, including tactical, including local confidence in your local MP, leaders, and so on. So this idea that the people have spoken is not necessarily the case with a certain set of election results. There isn't necessarily a general will here.

3.51 There's a whole range of factors that govern how people vote. And you could see that in the examples that we just looked at with different systems, you can get totally different results. And so you have to be very careful in interpreting results. You have to know which kind of electoral system exists in order to understand what the vote actually means at a deep level. What are voters expressing with their particular pattern of vote? Maybe no system can really perfectly translate the wishes of the people into power. Maybe there's no perfect system, but arguably, we can actually arrive at the least worst system.

3.52 I'm going to step out of the Western context a little bit to look at much of the developing world where many countries use a form of proportional representation. Why would countries opt for this proportional representation system? We've already suggested that a PR system where you have to form a coalition between a bunch of parties to get into power means you have to satisfy a whole range of different interests

and parties, and you have to constantly broker between the leaders of these different parties. And that truly means that it's a more unwieldy, difficult process of legislating. I mean, yes, it is more representative. More people feel that they are represented in government. But on the other hand, decision-making is cumbersome because you have to deal with a bunch of different coalition partners. You're worried that they will threaten to leave your government.

3.53 And of course, if enough parties in your coalition leave and you drop below the threshold, then you're out of power. And so there's always that threat. And sometimes very small parties can be kingmakers. So sometimes in Israel, the ultra-Orthodox parties have been kingmakers, and they can switch between coalitions. Even a small share of the vote, they can say, "We're taking our 2, 3, 4, 5 percent, and we're taking it out of your coalition, making you fall, and giving it to this coalition, putting them above the threshold, making them go into government." So small parties can sometimes hold the balance of power and, therefore, achieve undue influence out of all proportion to their actual vote. So there are different risks in the PR system, but yet that is the system that seems to be adopted in many developing countries.

3.54 Now, one of the reasons is because many developing countries are ethnically divided or voting occurs on ethnic lines. On the chart here, we have Lebanon and showing geographically where the different ethnic and religious groups in the country live. We could take a case like Ethiopia as well, which has different ethno-regions as well. It's just very difficult to imagine forming a government in a society like Lebanon or Ethiopia, where you have a history of violent conflict between groups that are often divided on ethnic and religious lines, and imagine that you can do a Westminster-style first-past-the-post or an American style first-past-the-post system. You have to try and get more buy-in. You want to avoid people feeling they've been excluded from the system because that then gives them an incentive to undermine the system, perhaps through violence.

3.55 There's another map here showing the degree of ethnic diversity, the number of ethnic groups in a country, but also weighted by their proportion—something called ethnic fractionalization. What is the chance that two random individuals drawn from the country are of the same ethnic group? If you take an extremely fractionalized country like Tanzania, the chance that you would have two individuals from the same ethnic group is extremely low. If you take a country with very low fractionalization, very high homogeneity, like Japan, two random citizens, there's a very good chance they'll be of the same ethnic background. That has implications for how you design your electoral system.

3.56 In this map, what you can see is that a large part of the Global South, particularly sub-Saharan Africa, Southeast Asia, parts of West Asia, have high ethnic fractionalization. To some degree, that is associated with more civil conflict. In designing your electoral systems, you don't want to design an electoral system where certain ethnic groups are

always out of power, and they never see themselves in power. This gets to this group rights point versus individual rights. Yes, we have to have one person, one vote, but also the recognition that the society is made up of groups that matter a lot to people, and that shapes politics a lot, means you have to make some accommodation to the idea of representing all of the groups, or most of the groups, within government at least some of the time.

- 3.57** You can't really do that in a first-past-the-post system. I used the example of Northern Ireland, where the Unionist Protestant parties won. They were in office every election for 50 years, and the Catholics were out of power. That can be associated with greater risk of civil war. It's also worth saying that, in terms of political philosophy or political theory, which is another branch of politics, a lot of the political philosophy was developed in places like Britain, France, to some degree the US, which were more ethnically homogenous. There was some diversity there, but by and large, you could almost imagine that you didn't have to take group into account very much in designing a political system.
- 3.58** Whereas in a highly ethnically diverse, fractionalized society like Nigeria or Kenya or Indonesia, it's not as easy to assume that you have this homogenous population. What you have is, yes, you've got a population, but they also have strong group attachments, particularly in the post-colonial countries that were created after decolonization. There are varying degrees of emphasis on so-called group rights or collective rights. So a proportional representation system, which allows a large share of the population to see itself reflected in the legislature, is very important in a society where those group rights are very important. So if people are voting for ethnic parties, they want to see that they get some representation in the legislature. And if they don't get that representation, election after election, you can have problems.
- 3.59** And so this question of how you design an electoral system in a divided society versus a society that is more homogenous, like the US or England. Now, the US, even though it did have different sects of Protestants, it didn't really have these deep ethnic divisions at quite the same level as we're seeing in some of the countries I just talked about. And so there is a tendency then, in these more ethnically divided societies, to move to a PR system rather than a first-past-the-post system. And that's recognizing the group rights principle being somewhat important. That is, it's not enough just to represent one person, one vote. We have to try and get to some representation of groups as well.
- 3.60** The legislature in a first-past-the-post system, as in Northern Ireland, is going to be a pretty good reflection of the share of the population that are members of the unionist and the nationalist community. Or similarly in Lebanon, you're going to get a reasonable representation of Shia, Sunni, Christian, etc. Whereas if it was winner-take-all, you wouldn't get that. So the group rights principle is part of democracy and crafting democracy in divided societies.

- 3.61** The other part of it, by the way, is the executive, the cabinet. The cabinet under a power-sharing system. And when I say power-sharing, I probably have to explain this. You have a principle called federalism, which is a way of recognizing group rights. So in the US case, you have the federal government in Washington, and then you have the states, which you can think of as groups. I mentioned the Senate, two senators per state is a group rights principle. Now, in a society like Lebanon or Northern Ireland, the group rights principle is that a group will have its share reflected in the legislature and in cabinet. The cabinet is not going to function the way it does in the US or British case, where it's all members of the same party. The cabinet will actually have a mix, which is reasonably representative of the parties that the people vote for. So all ethnic groups see themselves in that cabinet, which has power.
- 3.62** Something similar in Northern Ireland as well, where you tend to have a first minister from one community and the deputy from another community. And in Lebanon, where you have the prime minister from one group in the Constitution stipulated that the prime minister is from this group, the president is from that group. And so you have this built-in group rights principle in democracy. Now, some say that's a bad idea, and it entrenches groups, and it entrenches people thinking and voting as members of ethnic groups. That is a risk of this system. But if you go the other direction and you go for a majoritarian system, the risk is groups get frozen out of the system, and therefore, they're more likely to rebel.
- 3.63** You have to think about which is the greater risk in designing your system. Maybe the way to do it is to start out with a system that has high proportionality, like Northern Ireland or Lebanon, and then maybe evolve towards a slightly more majoritarian system with adopting, perhaps, the alternative vote, where you have to have a certain proportion of votes from all groups, but it's not perfectly proportional to all groups. That's kind of like an in-between version of an electoral system. So part one has been about electoral systems, PR versus first-past-the-post, and the conditions under which it's better to use one system or use another system. The strengths and weaknesses of the major forms of electoral system.
- 3.64** Part two, I'm going to talk about parties. Now, there's a relationship because there's a relationship between the electoral system and the party system. If you have a proportional representation electoral system, then you are more likely to have a multi-party party system with many different parties. If you have a first-past-the-post electoral system, you're more likely to have a single or two major parties dominating the system. So what is a party? What is a political party? A party is a group of people organized for the purpose of winning government power. Now, a party is not the same as an interest group, and it is not the same as an ethnic group.
- 3.65** Now, it can be similar, in the sense that if people are voting completely on ethnic lines and all members of an ethnic group are voting for one ethnic party, then yes, the political party is a perfect reflection of the ethnic morphology of a country. It's more

often the case, I would say, that you get, as in Northern Ireland, you get multiple parties within an ethnic block. You get the DUP and the UUP, two Protestant Unionist parties representing the Protestant community. There's still some competition, but it's within-bloc competition. Generally, however, and particularly as we move to societies like Britain or the US that are not divided in this way, in the same way as Lebanon, and particularly in a first-past-the-post system, the parties tend to be coalitions of different factions and interest groups. Uneasy coalitions, perhaps, and that's why you get actually divisions within parties.

- 3.66** If we take the Republican Party, or the Conservative Party here, there is a divide between the more free market, what are known as Liberal Conservatives, and the more populist National Conservatives. So that is a division within the parties because the parties are coalitions of different interests. Now, sometimes parties are also coalitions of different ethnic groups. The Democrats in the US for a long time were a coalition of southern white Protestants and northern white Catholics and Jews. That was the groups that made up the Republican party coalition. You can sometimes have parties that are bringing together a coalition of different ethnic groups, as well as a coalition of different ideological factions.
- 3.67** You have political parties, you have ethnic groups, but you also have other kinds of interest groups that are not based on ethnicity or religion. They may just be based on the miners, the unions, the teachers, the gun owners. You have these different interest groups. Sometimes those interest groups form lobby groups, and those lobby groups are trying to influence the government, especially in between elections, or even during elections, force all of the party, force the party to sign up to my 10 pledges. The National Rifle Association will rate all the candidates by how good they are, their voting record on gun rights, and then send that to the constituents. That's the activity of one interest group. They're trying to influence the direction of policy, typically within one party.
- 3.68** Sometimes you have lobby groups like business interests, which might try and lobby both parties and shape the direction of policy, no matter who's in power. Unions would have less power over the Conservatives, the business interests less power over the left-wing parties like Labour. Now, with a certain degree of convergence, at least on economic policy, businesses are going to be lobbying both parties, and both parties are probably going to be listening as well. Parties, at least in first-past-the-post systems, tend to be coalitions of different factional interests, and perhaps, sometimes different ethnic groups and interest groups.
- 3.69** What are the functions of parties in a liberal democracy? If you go back to the federalist papers in the US, initially, they wanted to avoid parties forming altogether. They were very much against the formation of parties, but others have said this is very integral to the functioning and smooth working of a liberal democratic system. Parties are needed to provide political elites, policy leadership, to offer alternative policy directions to the

electorate. They tend to aggregate interests into larger groups, so aggregating multiple different factions into one group that has to get along. People can't get everything they want. They have to accept that they have to make deals with other factions within the party to prioritize certain policies.

- 3.70** It may be that, in Canada, the Conservative Party, there may be people who will want to see access to abortion restricted, but they will accept that that's not something that's feasible in the Canadian system. That policy preference is not something they're going to be able to insist on, but they may still feel more comfortable with the Conservatives rather than the Liberal party. Parties will amalgamate different interest groups and prioritize which policies they're going to focus on in their administration . They also help to organize government as well.
- 3.71** We have different party systems then arising. I mentioned there was this link to electoral systems, where you have a proportional representation electoral system. You're more likely to get a larger menu of parties because even small parties can get representation. It makes sense for you to vote for those small parties. Then in the next stage, perhaps the party that has the largest votes can try to form a coalition by putting together and negotiating with a bunch of smaller parties. So this process of negotiation and consensus amongst various stripes of opinion.
- 3.72** Again, I wanted to emphasize that, even in a first-past-the-post system, the governing party has to manage differences between factions, and there's negotiation between factions. So it's not true that the first-past-the-post system is resulting in no consensus. There has to be some negotiation between factions, but it's not as much as in a PR system where you really have to negotiate between parties that form over 50% typically of the electorate. So you have to be broader and you really have to scale back the purity of your demands. You have to actually negotiate and scale those back. And so there's more of an emphasis on compromise.
- 3.73** You can, of course, also get an attempt by a series of less large parties to exclude other parties. And this typically happens with the populist right, which there's an attempt in certain European countries to prevent the populist right from getting into government. That gets harder and harder to do when the populist right gets a larger and larger share of votes . Here we've got the 2023 Dutch election where Geert Wilders' PVV came out tops by far with 37 seats, compared to the next share is the PVDA with 25 and the VVD with 24. But there's an attempt by some of the other parties to keep them out of power.
- 3.74** But that will mean you might get an economically left party representing unions with an economically right party representing business. Those parties trying to form a government means that it's going to be very fractious to do anything in terms of policy, when you have such a range of views on the economy within one coalition. Yes, they are both wanting to keep the populists right out, but they don't agree on that much in

policy terms. And so, again, we can get the rise of populism and the attempt to exclude them can lead to a more difficult governing .

3.75 Now, you compare the results from the PR electoral system in the Netherlands on this left chart, where you've got many different parties, and then the American results where it's two main parties, two parties heavily , heavily dominating the vote, a very different party system. So contrasting party systems, we have a multi-party system with a two-party system in the US case . And there is a whole debate about which is better, which is worse. It's worth saying also, and I'll come to this in a minute, there are certain tendencies, socially, politically, that will tend to lead party systems to splinter more or aggregate more. We may be in a time, we may be in a period in which there's more fragmentation and splintering . That's one of the questions we want to ask, is what are the forces that tend to lead party systems to move in different directions?

3.76 What is a party system? It's a relatively stable network of relationships between parties , and it involves the number and size and ideological orientation of parties. I just use that contrast between the Dutch 2023 election results and the US results to see the difference. In terms of the different party systems that may exist, you can sometimes have a one-party system. Japan was like that for a long time, where it was one party that basically dominated and won every election. It's such a dominant party. There are also systems where there is a so-called natural party of government , the party that tends to form the government. The Conservative party in Britain has been one of the most successful parties in its history in forming the government, and I think it's around two-thirds of the time it's been in power. In Canada, the Liberal Party has been the so-called natural party of government.

3.77 I think these things can also shift. You can move from a system. Britain is a two-party system, but with a natural party of government. Canada is roughly a two-party system, similarly with a natural party of government. But those systems can evolve to a system where there is no longer a natural party of government, and it's a more even, finely balanced electorate . That may be what's happening in both Britain and Canada right now. That natural party of government, that's referred to as a dominant party system. Japan has now had an alternative party come into power, but for a long time, it was just one party.

3.78 Now, of course, you have autocracies like China, where clearly the Chinese Communist Party is going to be the only party, or Iran , for example. Those are one-party systems. But you could have a one-party system even in a liberal democracy. It's just that people tend naturally to vote for the establishment. So that could exist, as existed arguably in Japan for many decades. OK. And also the electoral system, as mentioned, is associated with the party system. If you have a more proportional representation electoral system, you're more likely to get a multi-party party system. And likewise, first-past-the-post is associated more with a two-party system .

- 3.79** There are a number of other distinctions we can make here between types of parties that political scientists draw. One is the distinction between cadre parties and mass parties. The cadre parties typically have an elite which tends to guide policy and control the party much more. Perhaps to some degree, the SNP in Scotland might be an example of this, where there is a guiding elite which determines the direction of the party. On the other hand, you might have a mass party movement like Beppe Grillo's Five Star in Italy, which is very much based on bottom-up participation in determining policy to construct a wide electoral base.
- 3.80** So one of the issues here is, how much of the direction of the party and its policy is under the sway of a set of leaders and elites, or how much is the party genuinely a reflection of grassroots behavior? There are also shifts, by the way, over time in the US system, a move away from anointing and appointing who is going to be the candidate for the party. That decision used to be made by party elites in smoke-filled rooms, behind closed doors at party conventions. But increasingly with the primary system, candidates had to compete with each other to win the backing of members of the party in a competition. And that's arguably a more democratic system .
- 3.81** Now, some people would say that's a bad thing because it leads to an emphasis on extremism, that candidates have to appeal to their base, so they have to go extreme in the primaries to win support amongst—so if you're going to become, if you want to lead the Democrats, you want to lead the Republicans, you have to play to your base, and that might take you in an extreme direction. Whereas maybe if the party was deciding on the candidates behind closed doors, they might pick someone who they think can win electorally. So the decision is not, "Who do I like emotionally?" It is, "Who, practically, is likely to fall more in middle?"
- 3.82** And so maybe the less democratic system led to more moderation, and maybe the more democratic system leads to more extremism. But then people would say, yeah, but the more democratic system is more representative, and it represents people better than the elites in smoke-filled rooms deciding on the candidates, which might be a system that actually reflects elite interests rather than popular interests. So the case for the more democratic grassroots mass party is that this is a better reflection of a wider range of interests, not just the interests of an elite.
- 3.83** There are also, it's worth mentioning, parties whose avowed aim is to overthrow the system . And so the Islamists in Iran, the communists in Iran, prior to the Iranian Revolution, their view was that, "Yeah, we're going to take over, and that's the end of democracy ." So you can get these parties that are anti-system and anti-liberal democracy, but they can still run, arguably, in elections, and get a certain amount of the vote. Most parties , of course, are constitutional parties that accept the existing system and would accept defeat and wouldn't just cling on to power after they get in.
- 3.84** I mentioned this distinction between mass and cadre parties, between parties being more democratic and grassroots, and allowing the membership to have more of a say

in the direction of policy, and cadre parties where it's more of an elite that tends to determine policy. One of the critiques of the elite system—this is going back. Now we tend to see more critiques of the popular and the risks of a more populist system. But in the past, you had more critiques of the elitist system. And one of the critiques of elite systems is that there is a tendency for political parties to create oligarchies, which tend to determine the direction of policies, and they can very much determine policies that favor, particularly a donor class or particularly the economic military political elite that tends to be getting its way.

- 3.85** A lot of political science, a number of political science studies, show that elites are more likely to get their policy preferences enacted than, particularly, the working class or sectors of society that are less well represented within the elite. And so earlier in the century, a number of writers like Ostrogorsky or Michels talk about this idea of party machines, and Michels' term "the iron law of oligarchy." This comes from the early part of the 20th century, this iron law of oligarchy, which is about the concentration of power within political parties in the hands of an elite. So the fear in this case is lack of representativeness, lack of responsiveness, to the mass of the population leading to these party oligarchies.
- 3.86** And so there were attempts, I've mentioned the US case, to reform what was seen as previously an oligarchic system of backroom deals and compromises between party bigwigs to determine who was going to run to the primary system, which is more open and more popular. Now we're seeing more criticism of that kind of a system, for introducing extremism into the polity. There's a debate. Again, this is a debate over populism as well. Is populism bringing in voices that have been excluded? Or is it emotionalizing politics, leading to less rational, less moderate, less effective politics?
- 3.87** And so moving forward in the last few slides here and thinking about what's happening in different parts of the world, but let's say the West, to party politics. Is there a crisis of party politics, a withdrawal of trust, withdrawal of legitimacy from the system? On the one hand, populist right parties in Europe have been expanding, and it looks like they are going to do better than ever in the coming European elections. We have an increase in support for populist right parties like the Alternative for Germany, the Rassemblement National in France, the Freedom Party in Austria, Wilders in the Netherlands, and so on. Even in Britain now, we're seeing somewhat higher share of the vote for a third party-like reform than we would have even a couple of years ago.
- 3.88** What's going on in party politics in the West? Is it in crisis? When they say a crisis of party politics, of course, what they mean is that the main parties are losing support. The Christian Democrats and Social Democrats across Europe are losing support. And parties at the fringes, it could be the left fringe, Greens, or far left, or it could be the right fringe with populist right, are gaining greater and greater support. And the mainstream establishment is losing support. So what is causing this shift, this fragmentation? More and more parties, and voters are moving between parties more

and more. There's more floating in the proportional representation continental European system. There's a lot more movement now, and certain Farmers' Party in the Netherlands expands, then disappears. Votes move wildly from one election to the other.

- 3.89** How can this be explained? One argument is that, really, the parties, the cadre-type elite parties, were not responsive to the mass of the population, didn't reflect their interests. And so it's healthy and natural that they actually are taught a lesson and people move to other parties and other options that better represent who they are. It could be that those parties were dominated by an oligarchy of political insiders and had become complacent. And this is a natural renewal of democracy. And once the big parties get the message, they can adapt and be more representative of the population, and they'll get their votes back. You can see this to some degree, where in Britain, for example, the conservative Party did adopt some of the views of people who voted UKIP and were able to get their vote in the 2019 election.
- 3.90** We've seen this in Nordic countries as well, where the Social Democrats adopted some of the positions of the populist right in countries like Norway and Denmark and have done better as a result. Maybe this is just about the system, the system correcting itself in a way and adapting to change. OK, and so just to conclude, we had really two parts to this lecture. The first was about electoral systems, where we talked about majoritarian on the one hand, first-past-the-post, in particular, and then more consensual or representative systems like proportional representation. We looked a little bit more at proportional representation as applied to deeply divided societies in the developing world, in large measure, not only in the developing world, but ethnically, religiously divided societies, that in some of these societies, the PR system is more appropriate because it is able to deal with problems of groups that feel that they're excluded from the system, and that in those societies, we may even see executive power shared within a power-sharing cabinet.
- 3.91** How you design your system, therefore, can be related to a whole series of factors, including how ethnically homogenous, politically homogenous, the society is, how much of a history of violent conflict it has had over time. Looking at the mainstream Western societies, you can see that, particularly in first-past-the-post systems like Britain or the US, parties serve to aggregate different interests into larger holes. So they have to deal with different factions, they have to form a government, and they have to negotiate between those factions. But in the proportional representation system, there is a broader range of representation and broader range of groups that you have to negotiate between to form a government. And so there are plus and minuses. Again, it seems like there's a tension between better representation and more efficiency, and the first-past-the-post is arguably more efficient. PR is arguably more representative.

- 3.92** We've seen that these party systems can shift and change over time . Moving from electoral systems to party systems, you can see that party systems can move from one party to two parties to multi-party. That seems to be the direction of travel in the West, in the PR systems of Western Europe. We're seeing moves towards the flanks. What is going on? Is this—some would say it's a good thing. It's democracy-adapting. It's allowing more voices into the system. Others would claim that this is actually caused by a crisis in the system where people are withdrawing trust in the establishment and that that is a dangerous or, perhaps, portends instability.
- 3.93** There's a debate that we can have about that, but just to say that it's always important to bear in mind that the design of an electoral system tends to influence the party system. When thinking about the design of an electoral system, one must bear in mind what the history is of a particular country and what the morphology of different groups is in a particular country. Thank you.

Lecture 4: Electoral Studies

At a glance — Electoral studies.

- 4.1 In this lecture, what I'm going to be addressing is electoral studies and voting. The first three topics that we've considered are largely either about theories of politics or about comparative political institutions. We looked at presidential and parliamentary systems. We looked at first-past-the-post versus proportional representation electoral systems. We looked at two-party versus multi-party party systems. These are very much about the institutions of government. What I'm going to be now moving into is looking at political behavior, the behavior of individuals and groups in politics, and trying to explain that behavior.
- 4.2 All of these lectures that we've heard so far are within the empirical side, the political science side. They're not about how the world ought to be. They're trying to explain the world as it is, but just different dimensions of that political world. In terms of voting, we're trying to account for the behavior of individual voters and groups of voters in the electorate over time. We have different theories of why people vote the way they do, why elections go the way they do, and why certain coalitions form and other coalitions decline over time. So these are some of the questions that we'll be looking into in this lecture.
- 4.3 There is a venerable science of voting, and the term psephology, or psephologist, you may or may not be familiar with that term, which is really characterizing an individual who's interested in the study of elections and electoral behavior, a psephologist. So this is really going to be a lecture on psephology, the science of electoral behavior. And there's a well developed literature on electoral studies, and it has its own journals and its own sections at political science conferences.
- 4.4 I'm going to begin with a simple model, perhaps the building block, which is the social model of voting, sometimes known as the Columbia model, which comes from Columbia University, 1940s, original in American political science. Political science, really, has an older history in the US as a formal discipline. I think the American Political Science Association, I think it goes back to the beginning of the 20th century. There's a long history there. But focusing on the Columbia model, really, this was saying, if we want to explain election results and voting and how people vote, we have to understand which groups they belong to. Older voters, younger voters, female /male, white/black, Protestant/Catholic, which region, southern US versus the West versus the Midwest, urban/rural, income, again, socioeconomic class —these sorts of variables.
- 4.5 These are characteristics of an individual. And so the theory here is, if we know an individual, older, wealthier, let's say, Protestant, white, rural, southern, we might be able to say they're a Republican voter. That would be the way this model would work. It's based on group memberships predicting vote. And one of the questions we would

ask as a political scientist who studies elections is, how accurate is that model based on these group characteristics in predicting a vote? If I were a betting man and I had to bet money, what is the chance that, if I knew these characteristics, I'd be able to predict precisely how someone would vote?

- 4.6 Now, if it was just a coin toss, it would be 50%. I'd get it right half the time. Maybe if I know age and race and religion and gender and region and occupation, do I get up to 80%, 90% or just 55%? These are questions about how good a model is the social group model, the Columbia model, in predicting elections. As we'll see, it's not as good as you might imagine, actually. Although it can be stronger in certain periods than in other periods and in certain societies than in other societies. I don't want to blanket say that it isn't a good model.
- 4.7 I'm mainly going to be looking at electoral politics in the US, Britain, and to some extent, other Western democracies here. But we can apply many of these insights to other countries as well. I want to say something also about the coalitions of voters, the coalitions of groups that make up the voting for a party. When we talk about the Democratic coalition or the Republican coalition, usually what that is, is it's a mixture of the different groups that have aggregated together to support the party. It might be in the case of the New Deal Democrats under Franklin Delano Roosevelt in 1932 to 1945. But extending the New Deal coalition arguably extends into the late 1960s, was a coalition of southern white Protestants, northern so-called white ethnics who were Catholic and Jewish. That was the coalition of groups that came together to support the Democrats, and they all voted heavily Democrats. So that was who largely supported the Democratic Party.
- 4.8 The term alignment, if we say the democratic alignment of 1932 to 1968, or perhaps the conservative alignment in Britain between 1979 and 1995—these are long stretches of time where one party is in office, and that puts the party in a majority position. So if you are able to tap into a magical alignment where you get the southern white Protestants and the northern white Catholics and Jews to be voting for you, election after election, at a high rate, then that is an alignment between certain groups of voters and a certain party. Southern white Protestants align to the Democrats, northern white Catholics and Jews align to the Democrats. That is stable, and it was enough to put the party in office over a significant proportion of this period.
- 4.9 In the UK case, it would have been the wealthier part of the population, but also certain parts of the working class that supported the Conservative party under Thatcher, for the most part. Between 1979 and 1995, more recently, New Labour was a coalition of well-educated, high-income, progressive voters and working-class voters. That was the New Labour Coalition. One of the things that we're going to look into is whether these coalitions last, what causes them to break up? What caused, to some degree, the white working class to drift away from the Labour Party, ending the New Labour Coalition? What led white southern Protestants and northern white Catholics to leave the

Democratic Party, causing a collapse of the New Deal coalition, which was the New Deal alignment of that period?

- 4.10** So these alignments can be very important when certain groups are oriented to vote for certain parties for a significant stretch of time. Then those parties can dominate in power for much of these periods. But there are periods in which things change, and there are two charts here. The one on the left shows what happened to white Catholics in America between 1952 and 2019. In 1960, approximately 85% of white Catholics voted for the Democrats, voted for John F. Kennedy in 1960. So Kennedy wins like 86% of the white Catholic vote. Now, Kennedy is the first Catholic President of the United States. That's clearly going to be important as well. But it's not, by all means, it's not the main part of the story.
- 4.11** And what this graph shows, if you look at the blue line, as it drops from 86% down to, by the time we get to 2019, that 86 has turned into less than 30%. Meanwhile, the white Catholic share of the vote captured by the Republicans, which is only around 20% or thereabouts, right into about 1980, and then after 1980, Ronald Reagan starts to win the so-called Reagan Democrats, white Catholic Democrats. By the time we get to 2019, the Republican number is pushing 55% up from 20%, even as late as 1980. There's been a real shift. White Catholics have defected from the Democratic Party, and they've moved into the Republican column. That's obviously going to have a big impact on any alignment. So the New Deal coalition falls apart. And now I could have done southern white Protestants. It's even more dramatic. Shift away from the Democrats to the Republicans over time.
- 4.12** We can ask if a similar process is occurring now. The graph on the right is the party identification of non-white Americans — Hispanic, Asian, black Americans—between 1980 and 2019. What that shows is that when Barack Obama was elected in 2008, first black President, so it's similar perhaps to Kennedy, first Catholic President, Obama now had and seems to have had an impact. So 75% of non-white Americans who are a growing share of the US population are identifying as Democrats in 2008. If you look at that blue line, by 2019, that's fallen to just 51%, from 75 to 51. It seems to be falling every election.
- 4.13** Now, the Republican share of the minority vote is relatively flat. It's not rising, but the independent, the share of people who say, "I'm not Republican or Democrat," amongst non-white Americans, has been going up. What that means, however, is that, come election time, the Democrats cannot be as—they are not able to rely as much on the minority vote to keep them in power. Not that the minority vote is a large part of the electorate, but it is significant and it is important, particularly in certain swing states, places like Nevada and Arizona. One of the worries for the Democrats is that if this trend continues, that shift in the minority vote will cost them a number of key swing states in the coming election.

- 4.14 But this is an example of what we call dealignment. The links between white Catholics and the Democratic Party get weaker over time. That's a dealigning process. Where those links are strong, that's an aligning process. And actually, a shift in loyalties, moving the white Catholics, moving away from the Democrats to the Republicans, is what's called a realignment. In this country, one of the arguments is that the white working class have been in a process of realignment away from the Labour party. And this is true also in continental Europe, that the white working class has moved away from the social democratic and, to some degree, communist parties towards the populist right in particular.
- 4.15 Why groups of voters decide to move away from the parties their group has traditionally voted for towards other parties is a question that many electoral studies scholars ask themselves. What's driving this realignment? But seemingly, at the same time, what you've had is well-educated, wealthy voters aligning away from conservative parties towards left-wing parties. And so now in Britain, for example, the Conservative vote in 2019 was slightly more working-class than the Labour vote. That would have been unthinkable, even as late as 1997. What's causing this realignment? Highly educated, well-off voters moving to the left and relatively less well-off working-class voters moving to the right.
- 4.16 That's a lot about social groups and the Columbia model of how social groups fit into election results. Which type of person tends to vote for which type of party based on their social group. There's a lot of discussion about minorities or Catholics or other social groups, young people, rich people, educated people. What the Michigan model, which emerges in 1960, does is, it says, well, actually, these models based on group identity and membership, they may give us reasonable predictive power, but they can only get the answer right maybe 60% of the time, which is better than 50%, which is chance, but it's not that good. That we can do better than that by understanding a person's party identification.
- 4.17 Which party do you identify with? Now, that's distinct from, which party do you vote for? You can be a Democrat in your party identification, but maybe because you don't like Joe Biden, for whatever reason, you're not going to vote Democrat this time. You might even vote for Donald Trump or the reverse. Maybe you're a Republican, but you're maybe a free-market Republican, and you don't like Trump, so you might vote for Biden. The Michigan model, it says that, yes, your group membership does influence your party identification. If you're African-American, you're very likely to be a Democrat. But there are other influences. Your family, who they've tended to vote for, can also influence who you vote for.
- 4.18 The point about your party identification is their view—the view has developed in this famous book called *The American Voter*, came out in 1960. Angus Campbell, Philip Converse, Warren Miller, and Donald Stokes. This is a classic in the electoral studies field that everybody has to study. It puts out this model of party identification as being

central to explaining vote choice. Your party identification will tend to mean that, if your party takes a particular view on a particular issue, you will shift your attitudes on particular issues to line up with the attitudes that you're supposed to take as a member of this party. That's a pretty radical claim.

- 4.19 The claim is that you don't have issue preferences on your own about tax and abortion and immigration. You're going to follow the lead of the party that you identify with. If they say you should support high immigration, low tax, whatever, you will move with whatever the party cues you to believe in. Their argument as party identification is very important, and it comes from identities that are acquired in early adulthood. Just as you would identify with a religion or an ethnic group, you identify with a party. It becomes part of your personal identity of who you are. The argument is that these party identities, once acquired, are relatively fixed throughout the life course.
- 4.20 They are not the same thing as ideology. In 1960, the median American voter was conservative. When you asked them, "Where are you on a 7-point or 5-point scale, between very liberal and very conservative?", they would tend to fall on the conservative side. But on party identification, they would tend to be Democrats. So how strongly are you Democrat versus a Republican? They would fall on the Democrat side. So the median voter would be a conservative Democrat. Now, you might say, well, aren't the Democrats supposed to be the Liberals and the Republicans, the conservatives? It doesn't make sense from that level of analysis, from a sort of alignment between what the party elite stand for.
- 4.21 So the elite Democrats and the elite Republicans wouldn't get this wrong. But most voters, they were quite comfortable to say, "I'm a conservative, I'm a Democrat," or "I'm a liberal and I'm a Republican." These two things weren't as fixed as they have become. It's another story which I'm going to get to. And so this shows you the independence of party identity from ideology. So you can be a conservative, but you're a Democrat, because Democrat is almost like an ethnic or religious identification. It's part of your identity, and it's separate from your views on issues and ideology.
- 4.22 There have been a number of studies in political science. A lot of political science takes place in articles rather than books. There have been a number of studies that will ask people about their views on a particular issue, and they'll ask half the people their views on an issue, and then the other half, they'll say, "Well, this is what the leader of the Democrats believes. What is your view on the issue?" You can see that half of the people are seeing that the party is endorsing a particular belief, and the other half are only just seeing, "What's your view on this particular belief?" Those studies consistently find that, when you indicate that that's the view of the party that a person is identifying with, they are more likely to endorse that particular issue belief.
- 4.23 So that is proof of this idea that people will follow the party line on particular issues. If Donald Trump says, "Yeah, Russia is our friend," then Republicans who would have thought of Russia as the enemy, now a significant number of them will switch and think

of Russia as a friendly country . I'm not saying that that's Trump's view, or free trade. There's been a shift on free trade, let's say, between Reagan, perhaps, and between Trump. That's called party cueing. So this idea is that the party which you identify with prompts you, tells you that, on this issue, you should have this position. And so you take that position. That is suggesting that party comes first and issue comes second .

- 4.24 The opposite view is that, no, you can't. If Trump came up and said, "We should have open borders," no, actually, he would lose support because people have deeply held policy beliefs, and you can't just manipulate those. Whereas the Michigan model, which tends to prioritize party identity, would give more leeway to political leaders and opinion-formers to shape public opinion, rather than just reflecting public opinion. Now, there are others who say, well, a leader can affect issues that don't matter to people as much, like free trade or foreign policy. But they can't really move issues that really matter to people, like maybe on abortion, low tax, immigration. They have more sway to move people's beliefs that are lightly held than the deeply held beliefs.
- 4.25 But in any case, the view that says party identity is central, that Michigan model view, and that parties can essentially manipulate public opinion and prime people to take their view on a particular issue, that is contested by the rational voter model, which is a rational choice theory model, which says, no, people have very clear interests. They have very clear ideas and preferences, and parties have to minister to those ideas and preferences. So the individual comes prepackaged with a set of policy beliefs and interests. And party identification is not something you get with your mother's milk, or it's not something that you're deeply attached to from early adulthood. It's not an identity. It is actually just a running tally of how well parties are catering to your particular mix of attitudes and interests.
- 4.26 So this is the so-called running tally idea of Morris Fiorina, and that goes very counter to the Michigan model. And this is the idea that people are quite fluid. They can shift their party identification based on how well the party is satisfying their needs and addressing their interests. This is also buffeted by events such as inflation or a poor economy, and that can shift people from one party to the other. If we look at this chart, however, you can see there is some movement. There is a certain range to which party identification goes up and down, but within reasonably narrow bounds. Other studies show that people's party identifications are actually reasonably sticky throughout the lifetime. But there's a debate. Fiorina's claim is that they're not as durable and sticky as those who hold to the Michigan model claim.
- 4.27 There are also other considerations like tactical voting, which might mean that you may really like the libertarians, but when it comes down to it, you'd probably dislike the Republicans less than the Democrats. So you'll tactically vote Republican to keep the Democrats out of office. There's tactical voting, which is another rational way to behave. You're calculating your interests, looking at which party best satisfies your basket of interests. The party identity doesn't really determine where you go, and it's

not particularly derived from identity. The party identification is just a tally of how well the parties are ministering to your interests and beliefs.

- 4.28** I'm going to go through a whole set, and this is really only going to be an overview, a whole set of debates within electoral studies, to just give you a flavor of the kinds of debates that are taking place in political science journals and some books, trying to explain why people vote the way they do. So one question is, how important is the economy? To what extent is it the case that, when the economy is doing badly, people vote against the party in office? That's one theory.
- 4.29** This is a chart that's here looking at gas prices, or in this country, petroleum, petrol prices, and the popularity of a president between 1977 and 2022. You can see there is some relationship there, that when gas prices are high, presidential approval falls. We could look at inflation as well. When inflation is high, perhaps approval of the government tends to fall. How much is this about individuals feeling the pinch and the pain, their money not going as far, and personally thinking, "Oh, I'm hurting, and therefore, I'm no longer a believer in whoever's running the government"? That's called egotropic voting. You're voting based on your own self-interest. Or how much are you worried, not about yourself, you're doing fine, but you're worried about other people? They're not doing as well, or relatives, or friends, or so on. So you're actually more concerned about the economy as a whole and how it's affecting society. That's called sociotropic. It's more altruistic.
- 4.30** We can actually apply this egotropic, sociotropic divide to non-economic issues as well as economic issues. I'm just using an example here of an economic issue. To what extent are people voting on the basis of themselves personally and their personal success or the pain they're feeling? Or to what extent are they voting based on how they think the government is affecting society as a whole? Another debate is between prospective versus retrospective voting. That means, are people voting against the current government because of how they've performed in the past, punishing them? It's a retrospective vote if you're talking about the performance of a party in the past. A vote is an evaluation of how a party performed during its period in office. That's Fiorina's argument. That is a retrospective voting model.
- 4.31** Another argument, however, is that people know that people are thinking about how a party will govern in the future. They vote for, rather than voting against. So they really are inspired to vote for a particular party because of its vision and because they think they will do well. You have these two theories, one that it's about, you're voting against a party in power for how they've performed, or that you vote for a party in power. I've got some poll results here from the UK which show evaluations of leaders. You can see that actually both Rishi Sunak, Boris Johnson, and Liz Truss, these are conservative leaders. Their popularity declines over time. This goes from 2020 through to January of '24.

- 4.32 But even the Labour leader Kier Starmer's popularity declines over time in this series. You might say, in the case of Britain in 2024, that the reason that the conservatives are 20 points back in the polls is not necessarily going to be because people are fired up about Kier Starmer and think that he's going to do an excellent job. So this much more looks like a vote against the conservatives . And so that would tend to back the retrospective model of voting more than the prospective model of voting. But maybe the vote for Tony Blair, perhaps, might have been more of a prospective vote for people who are maybe excited, to some degree, about New Labour, something fresh and new, possibly.
- 4.33 Again, these things have to be studied through survey analysis. Surveys are the main method that is used in electoral studies, by the way. We've talked about egotropic, sociotropic voting. We've talked now about prospective versus retrospective voting. There is also a distinction between what's called positional and valence issues. Positional issues are issues where people disagree strongly . It's more connected to ideology, whereas valence issues are issues everybody agrees about. If you think about a strong economy, short waiting times for the health service, low unemployment, there's very few people that want high unemployment and long health care waiting times to see their doctor or to get an operation . Those are issues that pretty much everybody agrees on. So they're competence issues.
- 4.34 And it's just about parties competing over who's going to be more competent in managing these issues. But then you have other issues—Brexit, abortion, immigration, affirmative action—that are much more ideological. These are positional issues. And the positional issues, here it very much divides people by politics. One of the questions is, which of these issues is more important? Is it more important how a party is seen to be performing on the valence and competency issues, essentially, or is it more important whether a party is representing the issues, stances that you care about, on immigration, affirmative action, Brexit, etc.?
- 4.35 It seems like, if we were to go back 10 years , 15 years, it seems that the talk was more around, oh, politics is becoming more managerial. It's about how well parties are seen to be managing the economy. It was a time when socialism was increasingly off the agenda and pure free market was off the agenda, and it seemed like there was a mushy middle on the economy. A lot of the parties were coming together, at least in their economic outlook. They were becoming more similar. Labour wasn't the party of trade unions and socialism, and the Conservatives, the free market and business. Actually, Labour under Blair was more business-friendly and less union-friendly and didn't look as different. And the Tories, to some degree, have moved to the left on some economic issues.
- 4.36 And so, in that situation, a lot of the discussion was around managerialism and the importance of valence issues for voting. People vote on competency grounds. Now, certainly post-Brexit, but even slightly before Brexit in this country, the view started to

shift to say, well, actually, there are these positional issues which are starting to matter, and particularly post-2014, the rise of the populist right across Europe, and with the rise of Trump in the US, there's more of a focus now on positional issues helping to explain how people vote.

4.37 There are also, by the way, certain issues like illegal immigration, which some people argue are competency issues, others argue are positional issues. Another set of debates revolves around how important economic considerations are versus, broadly speaking, cultural considerations. Do people vote—are they pocketbook voters, voting based on whether they think they're doing well economically or whether they think the country is doing well economically? Are they voting on economic issues or are they voting on more cultural issues? I mentioned immigration, but also culture wars issues around freedom of speech, for example, or around the treatment of history, so critical race approaches to history, for example, or gender. To what extent are these cultural issues important? Religion and abortion are arguably more cultural as well.

4.38 One of the arguments is that we are shifting from a post-war Western electorate that was more economic in its voting, where the economic left versus right, free market versus tax-and-spend, that that was the dominant dimension after the war for many decades. But we're now moving into a situation where the cultural divide between the so-called globalist and nationalist, or multiculturalist versus nationalist, or open-closed, which is another, perhaps, way of characterizing this dimension, that this cultural dimension is becoming more important.

4.39 One of the more important theorists of this shift is Ronald Inglehart, who passed away a few years ago, and his co-author, Pippa Norris, of Harvard University. They have written a lot about this cultural revolution and the realignment, that the cultural issues are being mentioned more and more and more in party manifestos, and the economic issues are not being mentioned as much, or at least they're not being mentioned more. The cultural issues seem to be having more and more prominence. Immigration is one example of a kind of issue that has gained, seems to have gained, prominence in election contests.

4.40 There's a graph on here that just shows the way this has played out in terms of people's income. You would expect if economic divides were important, that the richer part of the population would vote for the conservative parties and the poorer part of the population for the more left-wing parties. That is how it looked. If we start in the post-war period, you can see in all of these graphs going from the 1940s through to 2020, or as we move towards 2019, that the graphs go upward at the end. The richer people are voting more for the parties of the right, and the poorer people, parties of the left.

4.41 That seems to hold all the way until we reach the 2010s. Then in the 2010s, you can see those lines flattening out and even reversing themselves. So the richer people are actually voting more for the left than the poorer people. There seems to be something that's going on with Western electorates. Now, that graph is from the US case, but we

can see something similar in other Western countries. The realignment away from the left-right cleavage, and this term cleavage is used in political science. What is the main cleavage in the electorate? Is it economic or is it cultural? And which kind of cultural cleavage? Is it religious, religious conservatism versus secularism? Or is it this multiculturalism, globalism versus nationalism, the more national populist dimension? That one seems to be the most important right now.

- 4.42 Another example of this, a way that we might test the relative power of cultural and economic explanation for voting. And this chart looks at Americans' preferred immigration level from reduce a lot to increase a lot, against the probability of voting for Donald Trump in 2016. Amongst the people who say they want immigration reduced a lot, and this is only restricted to white Americans, there's a greater than 8 in 10 chance that they are going to vote for Donald Trump. Whereas amongst those who say they want immigration to increase a lot amongst white Americans, it's only about 1 in 10. So 1 in 10 versus 8 in 10. That's a huge 70-point gap between people who want immigration increased a lot and reduced a lot.
- 4.43 Against that, we have the different colored lines here, which are person's income from very rich, earning over \$150,000, to very poor in dark blue, earning less than \$15,000. There's almost no gap between the dark blue line and the purple line between the poorest and the richest in their propensity to vote for Donald Trump. What that tells us there is a reasonably cultural issue like immigration—now, it's not exclusively cultural, and we can have that debate, but it seems to be the case that immigration attitudes are far, far more important than income, which is an economic, personal economic status in predicting who you're going to vote for. That would tend to incline us to think the cultural theories seem to be more important when we're thinking about voting for Donald Trump. Now, this, of course, is not the whole story. Some would say, well, actually, immigration is also an economic issue. One can have that debate.
- 4.44 There's also a question about how group identities—I want to return to these group identities which the Columbia model talked about. How do those group identities affect issues? We have identities, we have issue positions, we have party identification and voting. They're separate things, but they are related in certain ways. Here in Britain, we can look at how different ethnic groups in the population think about the immigration issue. This is an older set of data from 2009 to 2011, based on the citizenship surveys which have a large sample of non-white British people.
- 4.45 You can see that there's a difference between the foreign-born and the UK-born within all ethnic groups, even the white British. White Britons who are born in Australia or the United States, for example, are actually less likely to say that immigration should be reduced than white Britons born in Britain. Gap is around 10 points, between about 80 and 70, something like that. Similarly, amongst Britons of Indian heritage, the UK-born Indians, it's almost 70% say immigration should be reduced, but the Indians born in India, it's only about 60% who are in favor of a reduction. There's a 10-point gap.

- 4.46 You can see there are differences between groups. So Bangladeshis are less anti-immigration than Indians. If we were to have Afro-Caribbeans, they're even more pro-immigration than the Asian groups. There are differences between groups in their issue positions. Groups can have different positions on issues. Also, some groups are just wealthier or poorer. That might affect who they're going to vote for. Some are more religious, some are more secular. You have these different ways in which group identities influence issue positions.
- 4.47 There's also another concept which is important in intellectual studies called salience, and that refers to the priority of an issue to you as an individual. So you may say, "Yeah, I'd like immigration reduced." If I say to you, "What are the most important issues facing Britain? Give me your top three," and you say, "The economy, health care, and green issues." Oh, no, not green issues. That's probably not a good one. Let's say foreign policy. So economy, health care, and foreign policy are your top three issues. But if I ask you your attitude to immigration, you say, "Yeah, I want it reduced." But it's clearly not that important an issue to you if it doesn't make your top three.
- 4.48 If, however, immigration is your top issue, or your top-two issue, then it has high salience for you. One of the things that we notice, certainly in the last 10 years, is that with larger inflows of immigration, you tend to get a rise in the salience of immigration—the proportion of people saying immigration is one of the leading issues facing Britain or the US or the European Union. And so this chart, for example, from the Eurobarometer survey, if you look at that black line from 2010, immigration goes from about 10 % of people saying it's one of the top three issues facing the European Union to almost 60 % by 2015 during the migrant crisis. It comes down a little bit. It's recently come back up again.
- 4.49 Now, what that is, is that people who say, "I want immigration reduced, but immigration is my number 5, 6 issue," it's now risen from 5, 6 up to 2 or 3, or even 1. That rising salience changes the electoral calculation. It's heavily linked to populist right voting. It's not so much that people's attitudes shift from wanting immigration increased to wanting it decreased. That shift is much less. There's very little movement there. It's more tied to ideology. But the priority of immigration for people rises from a low-priority issue to a high-priority issue. This is now a high-priority issue for right-wing voters across the West in Britain, in the United States, in Europe. This is an example of rising salience from which we should probably expect improved support for the populist right. It's not an iron law, but that's what we would expect.
- 4.50 I want to turn now to ideology. That is liberal and conservative or, in this country, left and right ideology. What is the relationship between ideology and voting? Ideologies are packages of issue positions. Maybe the conservative ideology might involve you in the US being pro-gun, anti-abortion, low-tax, maybe being in favor of not being as involved in foreign conflicts. That might be the package that has been created. We can

ask the question of why those issue attitudes are bundled together. Is there something philosophically that naturally means that those positions should be bundled together?

- 4.51** Some would argue, actually, it's pretty accidental and not necessarily based on a consistent philosophy. For example, a consistent liberal individualist philosophy might be low-tax, weak state, don't tell us what to do in the bedroom. That libertarian attitude would actually be against the government legislating on abortion, for example. There are a number of different contradictions. We can see, for example, free trade could be seen as part of a consistent package with low tax. Free market, free trade. Why is it that an opposition to free trade is now part of conservative ideology in the US, although not in Britain, but in the US it is?
- 4.52** The first point to make is, it is not necessarily the case that ideologies are consistent, philosophically. Also, most people may not necessarily know what fits in with the conservative ideology or the right-wing ideology in the left. If you were to give them a quiz, "Is taking this position on free trade a right-wing or a left-wing position?", many people wouldn't necessarily know. At least that was certainly more the case in the past. It's partly the case that people don't think ideologically as much as elites and pundits might think they do. They have preferences on issues, but that may not be consistent with an ideology.
- 4.53** It's partly about how issues are packaged in different countries. In Eastern Europe, for example, there tends to be a connection between being very redistributionist on economics and being culturally very conservative, so almost being a socialist or a communist on economics and being culturally very conservative. That package goes together in Eastern Europe, whereas in the West, actually, if you're on the left, you tend to be very culturally liberal and socialist on economics, whereas in Eastern Europe, it's a different relationship. So that speaks to the fact that parties and history have led different issues to be packaged in different ways in different countries. So ideologies are not this iron-consistent thing. They are political parties and intellectuals put together to allow people to simplify reality.
- 4.54** There are two issues here. One is the degree to which people package issues into ideologies. As a voter, if I have a certain view on abortion and a certain view on taxation, am I able to correctly match that to a particular ideology and identify the right way I should be identifying? That's called issue constraint. To what extent are people constrained by an ideology, such as being a liberal or a conservative, constrained to having the "right", the right views on the issues that match their ideology? There's constraint, which is one issue, and the second issue is the alignment or the sorting. There's constraint versus sorting.
- 4.55** Sorting is, to what extent are conservatives voting for the Republicans and Liberals voting for the Democrats? I mentioned, in the Michigan model, 1960, the average American voter was a conservative Democrat. So you had weak sorting in 1960. The chart here, if you look at the left, there are two scatterplots out of Alan Abramowitz's

book, *The Great Alignment*, which is about explaining polarization in America. And what he's doing here is, he's plotting the average ideology in a state along the bottom. That is the share that is liberal minus the share that is conservative. Then up the top is party identification, the share that is Democrat minus the share that is Republican.

- 4.56 In the period 1974 to 1982, you can see there's no statistical relationship. There's no relationship, no pattern in those dots. It's just a spread of dots. So even if your state is really conservative, like Mississippi, it may not be particularly Republican. It doesn't seem to be related. And likewise with the more liberal states, they're not necessarily more democratic in this period, 1974 to '82. So there's no real relationship between ideology and political identity, party identity, in this earlier period. But if we go ahead to 2012, all of a sudden, you can see those dots are clustered around this line that's sloping upwards. And that's showing you that what's occurred between the '70s and '80s and the 2010s is a sorting of the electorate by ideology into the right party.
- 4.57 Now the conservative states like Idaho and Mississippi are heavily Republican, and the liberal states like Massachusetts and Vermont and New York are heavily Democrat as of 2012. Why do we see this shift? Why is it that all the liberals started voting for the Democrats and all the Conservatives started voting for the Republicans between the 1970s and the 2010s? Why this sorting of the electorate? And that is one of the issues in the study of polarization. Now, one explanation could be, well, the education level is rising. More people with university degrees. Higher education means more people are able to understand that being conservative goes with being a Republican and being liberal goes with being a Democrat. People got better educated. They were better able to pin the tail of ideology on the donkey of party, and that's what explains this.
- 4.58 But of course, we don't see this in every country. It seems to be really particularly acute in the US. It can't just be a story of rising education. There are also some other wrinkles. This has happened, especially amongst white Americans, much less amongst non-white, and especially much less amongst Black Americans, who remain—their sorting of ideology into party remains much less acute than in the white population. So there's something going on with this polarization.
- 4.59 Studies of voting are also increasingly focusing on two dimensions, two cleavages, within the electorate. One is the economic left-right, tax-and-spend versus free market. The other is the cultural, open-closed or liberal-conservative dimension between, for example, views on immigration, abortion. That distinction, the cultural distinction, in some ways, cross-cuts the economic one. A lot of white working-class voters in the West, economically, they want more tax-and-spend, better public services, more taxation of the rich. There are two dimensions to Western electorates now.
- 4.60 Combined with the Norris-Ingelhart argument about the rising importance, the realignment away from the economy towards the cultural cleavage, that helps to explain results like the one that I've put up here, which shows this two-dimensional space and dots for each voter. You can see the red dots for Republicans are clustering

heavily around the center line on the left-right economic dimension. So the typical Republican voter is in the middle on economic issues. They're not to the right. However, almost every red dot is in the top half of that chart, which means that, culturally, they're conservative. That chart is telling us, therefore, that when it comes to explaining the Republican vote, culture seems to be more important than economics. Whereas for the Democrat vote, actually, most of those blue dots are in the bottom left quadrant, which means people are left-wing on economics and culturally liberal or more globalist or multiculturalist.

- 4.61 Now, in addition to ideology, issue, group, we also have evaluations of a leader. So it may be that you identify with the Democratic party, you take the Democrat position on issues, you're a liberal, but you look at Joe Biden and you say, "I really don't approve of how he's doing his job, and I don't like Joe Biden." Leader evaluations can be an independent effect on voting. You can strongly identify with a party, but really not like the leader, and that could just possibly sway you either to not vote, stay at home, or to vote for the other party. Evaluations of a leader can matter independently. This can be sometimes hard to understand. Surely it's the case that if you like the Democrats, you're going to like Biden. But it's not an automatic. It could be that you do like the Democrats, but you're not that thrilled with Biden. And that then can have an impact on the election.
- 4.62 So if we're thinking about, again, we're getting back to that idea of, we want to improve on the coin toss in terms of predicting who's going to win an election, we need to take into account not just party identification, but we also have to take into account leader evaluations. There are other factors as well in predicting elections. One is the importance of incumbency, which is somebody who is in office running for election again. Biden is an incumbent. Incumbency can be an advantage in that you're well known, but it's perhaps more of an advantage locally, where you're known locally. It can be a disadvantage as voters grow somewhat tired of a particular party that's been in office. The longer a party is in office, the harder it is to stay in office. It's a double-edged sword, this idea.
- 4.63 Maybe France is tiring of Emmanuel Macron, and maybe that means that Marine Le Pen is going to win the next presidential election, or maybe not, but maybe the fact that the longer Macron's in, perhaps that tells against him in winning an election. Maybe the conservative party being in office for 14 years or thereabouts is something that is also making it harder for them to win. It's harder to get enthusiastic about a party that has been in office for so long.
- 4.64 Just stepping back and thinking about this theoretically, this term "funnel of causality" has been used by scholars, essentially by intellectual studies, as a way of thinking about all of these factors that we've talked about—group memberships, socio-demographics like race, religion, education, age, party identification, issues, your position on different issues, and leader evaluations, how much you like particular leaders. The way this

funnel is constructed in this model is we have the longer term, more stable dimensions at the top, funneling down to the more short-term and variable dimensions as we get closer to the vote.

- 4.65 Also, the argument here is that your leader evaluation is going to be a much better predictor. If I want to know who you're going to vote for in the next US election, maybe the most important thing I need to know is what you think of Joe Biden and Donald Trump. That's probably the best predictor of how you're going to vote. I'm not saying it's going to tell me exactly how you're going to vote, but it's probably the best predictor. On the one hand, the more we go down this funnel, the stronger the predictive power. So socio-demographics have the weakest predictive power. They may only improve us from 50% coin toss accuracy to 60%. The more we go towards issues, and particularly candidate images, leader evaluations, if we know what people think of the party leaders, that's probably going to get us above 70% predictive power, 80% thereabouts.
- 4.66 The other thing is that the more you go down this funnel of causality, the more there is a flexibility and short-term variability in the particular characteristic. Whereas your socio-demographics, that's pretty fixed. Your education, your income, OK, it can move around a little bit. Your ethnicity or religion is generally relatively fixed. So one of the questions is, how much are the relatively fixed conditioning factors going to be important in elections versus the shorter-term factors, issues, events, and leadership evaluations? And what I'm going to do in the next few slides is just give you an example of the research that a lot of electoral studies scholars do.
- 4.67 And what they will do is, they will look at a large data set like the American National Election Study, which is what I'm looking at here. That is several thousand people that are interviewed every few years, every two years, for example. Maybe 4,000 or 5,000 people are interviewed. Maybe we give them a questionnaire with 100, 200 questions on it. We know their demographics, age, male-female, LGBT versus heterosexual, race, marital status, income, education level. We know the socio-demographics. We will then move on to look at their issue positions, and then we'll move on to look at their leader evaluations. We're going to look at how the predictive power of this model changes.
- 4.68 What this particular slide shows is that the so-called R^2 of the model, which is the proportion of the variation explained in voting between Republicans and Democrats, is about 0.12, 12%, of the variation. So all of those demographics, even if we know people's income, education, marital status, race, sexual orientation, gender and age, knowing all of that only gives us really only 10%, 12%, of the total variation in whether people vote Republican and Democrat. You could say it's not that big an improvement over a coin toss. It is an improvement. Don't get me wrong, it is an improvement, but it's not a huge improvement.
- 4.69 Most of the variation, whether people are going to vote Republican or Democrat, is within group, within people who are gay, within people who are male or female, within

old people . It's not captured just by those Columbia model variables. Of those variables, we can see that race, on a three-category white-black-other scale, is the most important in this model with a beta coefficient, which is a measure of the effect size of 0.24. Race is the most important predictor of whether you vote Democrat or Republican. African-Americans, for example, vote almost 90% Democrat, and so race is our best predictor.

- 4.70** But even though African-Americans vote almost 90% Democrat, amongst white Americans, maybe it's 60-40 or less than 60-40. Since white Americans are most of the US electorate, even knowing that 90% of African-Americans vote Democrat doesn't tell you very much about the entire population of voters . We can know even that 100%, even if African-Americans were 100% Democrats, that's not going to tell us that much when they're only 12 or 13% of the total sample. Actually, race is not that powerful in bringing that R^2 up and improving the predictive power of the model.
- 4.71** Now, after race, we see the sexual orientation and marital status are next, at about 0.12, about half the power, predictive power, of race in the model. What I'm now going to do is introduce four long-standing issue attitudes that have been running on the American National Election Study since the 1970s, or maybe even earlier. Attitudes to government waste, attitudes to aid to black Americans, views on health care, and views on abortion. The abortion views are more recent, from the 1980s. Now what you see is this model has jumped from 0.12 to 0.52. We've gone from only explaining 12% of the variation to explaining over half the variation in votes between Republicans and Democrats.
- 4.72** So that's telling us that adding people's views on these issues to the model has an enormous effect in improving the predictive power of the model. It's much more important for us to know people's attitudes on those issues than it is for us to know their age and education and other things. Age and education and these other things are much less important than people's views on these issues. So issues, they're further down that funnel of causality. We started with demographics. We've moved down the funnel to issues which are lower and therefore closer to the vote. The explanatory power of this model is much greater.
- 4.73** Next slide really shows us what happens when we introduce two new characteristics — party identification as Republican, independent, or Democrat, and liberal versus conservative ideology. The model goes from explaining 52% roughly of the variation to 73%. So clearly, ideology and party identification are stronger predictors. Now, actually, that's not entirely correct. If you look at this model, you can see that the effect size on party identification, the PID3, is 0.60, which dwarfs anything else on that chart . So knowing a person's party identification, vastly more important than knowing even where they stand on particular issues.
- 4.74** Now, it is also the case, yes, that where people stand on government waste and health care is going to be heavily correlated with whether they're a Democrat or Republican,

and that's important. But if I were to choose, if I was a betting man and I were to choose on who's going to win, or how an individual is going to vote, I would much rather know a person's party identification than their views on issues, and certainly than their demographics.

- 4.75 Now, actually, what this shows is actually the ideology. Once you control for party identification, ideology doesn't matter that much. So amongst people who identify as Republicans, knowing whether they're conservative Republicans or liberal Republicans, or Democrats are liberal or conservative Democrats, it doesn't matter. It matters a bit, but it doesn't matter all that much. And in fact, views on aid to African-Americans is still more important than people's ideology once you take account of a person's party identification.
- 4.76 I'm speaking again about that funnel of causality. Party identity is really far down the funnel of causality. It's much closer to the vote than, certainly, than demographics. We're seeing that party identification is important. Now, what I'm going to do is put in your evaluation of the Republican and the Democratic candidate. All of a sudden, now, the predictive power goes up to 0.77 from about 0.72 or thereabouts. It's somewhat of an improvement. Leader evaluations, which, again, in that funnel of causality, are really close to voting behavior, that's really the most important factor, is knowing the evaluation of a Republican and Democratic candidate. That's going to get us very close to your vote, but it still doesn't give us 100% predictive power. There are still other idiosyncratic factors that play a role here.
- 4.77 Just a few other points to note. One is there is also a literature on non-voting, and one argument is that turnout in Western democracies at elections has been declining. Chart on the right here just looks at Sweden between 1956 and 1996, showing a drop in the degree of turnout in that electorate. And the chart on the left is looking at 13 countries, and you can see there's a downward sloping line over time in most, but not all, of those countries. So there's been a rise in non-voting. Now, we can see there's, to some degree, a fragmentation of the vote to the far left and to the far right. But there's also a rise in non-voting that's going on. And that links up to the discussion we just had about some of the fragmentation in party systems that's occurring, particularly in continental Europe.
- 4.78 Another phenomenon that political scientists have been studying is, in particular, the younger generation. The younger generation's political participation level has been dropping faster than other generations. And this chart from the FT showing that the 18 to 24s, who voted at a level of something around 70% in the 1970s, by the time we get into the 2000s, that's bouncing around 40 to 50%. So we're seeing a significant drop-off in participation in elections amongst younger people.
- 4.79 What's behind the younger generation? Are they tuning out of politics? Why are they less interested in politics? And there are a number of theories, one of which is that younger people are more atomized and less connected to, for example, their local

party. People used to be members of the Labour Party or the Conservative Party in large numbers. In this country, those both had millions of members, and they're now down to the tens of thousands in many cases. So the mass membership party has declined. People are less connected to parties.

4.80 Also, the idea that it's a social obligation, a moral obligation, to vote, that also seems to be going by the wayside. So people don't feel bad when they don't vote. They haven't necessarily been taught that that's a civic obligation. There are others, however, who say, well, it's partly about the offer, is that the parties have come together on economics, so there's maybe less to distinguish the parties. So it doesn't matter as much who gets in. And so the party offer is less interesting. If you improve the choice and the distinctiveness of the parties, you're going to improved electoral turnout.

4.81 Actually, we see here for the Brexit referendum that the turnout amongst young people did jump up to just above, well, around 65%, compared to the general election turnout around 45. Maybe if you have more interesting people to vote for, you will get more turnout. That seems to be the case. Sweden has seen an increase in turnout as well, is the fact that you're getting a fragmenting of the continental European electorate. Maybe giving people more choice, and might that revive turnout in Western democracies?

4.82 So that point about fragmentation, voters floating and fragmenting, so they're no longer loyal. It's not that the working class doesn't just vote for the Social Democrats and the middle class for the Christian Democrats. It's now a case where people are exploring other parties, Green parties, populist right parties, Farmers' parties, and moving around, their vote moves around a lot. So they're floating, they're switching, and that fragmentation process is something that we notice in the European electorate. New parties like Five Star popping up, the Farmers' Party popping up.

4.83 The ties of individual citizens to those established institutions — church, union, party— that used to anchor a lot of these Western societies have frayed. Perhaps that declining connectedness to those established institutions has also, according to some political scientists like Robert Putnam, has led to a drop in trust in fellow citizens and in political institutions more generally. So that growing atomization of the population is behind perhaps some of this decline in trust, the rise in anti-system and anti-establishment sentiment, and the decline of major parties that move away from the two-party to the multi-party system, and the rise of new options like Green and the populist right, or in some cases, floating voters. So that's often linked to growing individualism and less social cohesion in a society.

4.84 We're getting towards the end here, and I just want to say something about the phenomenon of polarization. If we look at the United States, the graph on the right here is the degree to which, the difference between how Republicans and Democrats evaluate a Republican President or a Democratic President. What we see is that, over time, there's a growing gap. That when the Democrat is President, Republicans almost

entirely think that the person is doing a bad job. Only about 10%, 10 to 14% approval rating. Whereas the Democrats, it's sky-high approval rating. When the Republican is in office, the Democrats say, "Oh, doing a terrible job." Only about 10% or thereabouts are approving of the Republican.

- 4.85 You're getting these big gaps in people's approval of the leader when the leader is from the opposing party. There are a number of different ways in which we can measure this growth and polarization. It's also related to the graph I showed from Abramowitz. People are matching issues into ideologies, and they're matching ideologies into parties much more. Everything is stacking. Some even argue that even consumer choices, which car to drive, which food to eat, is now being structured by ideology and party identification. This is so-called—Ezra Klein, and also Marc Hetherington and Jonathan Weiler have written about this.
- 4.86 Is it now the case that everything's political, even what you buy, even who you marry, where you choose to live, all of these things? There was a book that talked about people sorting geographically into more Republican and more Democrat areas, and fewer areas switching parties, election to election, more areas becoming just one party . Why is this happening? Not only that people are supporting one party every election instead of switching, but that they actively dislike members of the other party . This is what's called affective polarization. And so people feel really cold towards the opposing party. That's also something that's become more and more intense over time. So we have this growing polarization.
- 4.87 Now, it seemed to start with polarization in the legislature, in Congress. Newt Gingrich, Contract with America. We're going back to the 1980s. The public was still more moderate or more agnostic, and then gradually the public, perhaps they're following the cues of party leaders, but the public starts to sort. Then we get this phenomenon of identity stacking with ideologies, stacking with partisanship.
- 4.88 To conclude, I've taken you through a lot, and I've taken you through a lot of distinctions, and you'll have time to look at all of these little issues in electoral studies. We've talked about electoral studies, the study of voting, competing arguments, the Michigan model, focusing on party identity, and the more rational voter model, focusing on people identifying with parties because they think it represents more of their interests. We've also talked about the ways in which group identities fit in with issues, which fit in with ideology, which fit in with party identity, which fits in with leader evaluation. So that funnel of causality, where we start with the more stable group identities and memberships and move to the more fluid variables around leader evaluation, and how they're related to voting.
- 4.89 Then finally, we've talked about a couple of trends. One is realignment from economic issues to cultural issues, fragmentation of electorates, partly caused by individualism and a breaking of ties between established institutions like churches and unions. There's growing fragmentation in Europe; and in the United States, there's growing

polarization, which is a different trend from the European fragmentation. In the US, we see this polarization where people are essentially feeling very negative about the other party, voting for the same party every election, so there's very little switching going on. Also, they were organizing their views on issues with a particular ideology, and ideology is sorting very heavily into party . That's it. Thank you.

4.90 There's a tendency for independent politicians in the US not to do very well. I wanted to ask you if this is the way that the system is structured, it's not incentivized, or is it that these identity politics, the way that you identify with a party, rule out someone who identifies as neither? And in the fact that, in this 2024 election coming up, and RFK identifying as independent, is it almost ruled out that he has any chance on winning because of the system, or is it much more related with the identity of the voters?

4.91 Yeah, that's a good question. I would say that the trend has not necessarily been towards the decline of independents. This idea that people are no longer identifying more as either Republican or a Democrat—the evidence for that is not that strong. It's just that there are people who may say they're an independent, but they lean to the Democrats, or lean to the Republicans, and that will make them tend to vote for that party. But they're not fired up necessarily by party identification.

4.92 So my view on this is that it's the system which penalizes third parties . It makes it very hard for them to get into office. If it's first-past-the-post , if they're not winning, then they're out of power. And so if you are a voter and you really want to have an impact, you have to think, who do I prefer more of the two main parties? And then that will drive the vote. So I think if I were to say, I think it's the design of the system that is the main factor in militating against the success of third parties. Thanks.

4.93 My question is, could it be fair to make the link between the lack of party membership, specifically within younger people, to the rise of cancel culture and not wanting to be identified with something that's not very popular? And second part of the question, what kind of influence could party membership have on reformation within the party, for example, out of power or within power? What do you think would be possible to change within that party, if you are a member?

4.94 Yeah, interesting. I mean, is there a relationship with cancel culture? I suppose, I think there's not a strong relationship, but you could say that there is this alienation, perhaps, from the established order in society, which would prompt you to be anti-system, anti the established parties, and maybe prompt you to be against the history, the national identity of your country, be less patriotic. I think there is probably a common route to some degree in this kind of expressive individualism, which is about breaking ties to groups such as nation, church , union.

4.95 I think there's probably something there, although I think most of the cancel culture phenomenon, I would say, is not strictly to do with this growing atomization and is more to do with the spread of certain cultural outlooks from certain departments and

universities suddenly into the media in the 2010s . I would say that's much more the dynamic, rather than just people being somewhat alienated and detached from their society. Because the detachment from society is something that's built up gradually since 1960. It's been rising over time pretty steadily, but this cancel culture was there, but it increased in amplitude very sharply in the 2010s. That's, I think, mainly to do with the changes in media and the rise of social media, allowing these ideas to spread beyond the campus. I think it's largely separate , but I think there are arguably certain commonalities. What was the second part of the question, was how to reform existing parties?

4.96 How much influence does being a party member have on perhaps reform in the party?

4.97 Yeah. This, I guess, gets to a question we dealt with in the last lecture. To what extent are parties run by an elite, or to what extent are they open to participation, and can they be changed? That's a tough question. I would say perhaps you've got more of a chance to some degree in a situation like the US, where you have a primary system and you can vote for candidates, that maybe there's more input from the public, from the citizenry, than in the UK case, where it's party headquarters that has a greater hand in selecting candidates.

4.98 It's interesting to look at Labour and the way momentum, Jeremy Corbyn's momentum has been [inaudible] by the leadership. Now, it may be that, down the road , a year, two years into a Labour administration, that that suddenly becomes a powerful enough force to threaten Keir Starmer. It's not that there's no input, but I think it's probably easier to—perhaps it's easier for elites to stitch up backroom deals in a more elite-based system like the UK's than in the US primary system, where it's a little bit more grassroots. But that's not to say that, obviously, big money , you have to raise a lot of money in the US system. And so that does advantage those who have have links to donors and fundraising potential. I don't want to pretend that it's easy to influence the US system, but perhaps, on balance, maybe slightly easier for an individual to change the direction of their party.

4.99 I was curious what we know—I doubt much research has been done, but I was curious what we know about predictability and manipulation from when you go from, I don't know, 20 data points with ideology, everything I spoke about, to say, 20,000 gathered by technology companies and et cetera.

4.100 Yeah, really interesting. Nice technical question , political science question. Yeah, it's surprising how little accuracy you gain from going from, let's say, 1,500 to 15,000 to 150,000. The margin of error, which is, there's a mathematical calculation called margin of error. You might decrease the margin of error from 3% to 2% by expanding from 15,000 to 150,000. There's a formula and there's a way of working it out, but it's surprising that even a survey of 1,500 can give you a pretty accurate projection within a certain margin of error. Just expanding the sample size isn't going to give you that much more.

- 4.101** Now, having said that, what's maybe more important is that you are sampling evenly across the population. You're not just sampling people who like to take surveys. That's increasingly been a problem. It's very hard to survey young people. That's the other—particularly young non-university people are very slippery. To some degree, the problem is not so much sample size. It's to what extent are we able to get a real representation of the population. Now, you can weight a survey. If you're not getting enough people without university degrees, you can take the sample of people without university degrees and inflate it by a certain number, which is what the pollsters do.
- 4.102** But even that can capture some of the problem, but it might not capture all or even much of the problem if it's really about a psychological disposition of the kind of person who doesn't trust and doesn't answer surveys, which might not necessarily be captured by whether you have a degree or don't have a degree. If you're missing that, low-trust people are systematically not answering surveys, and low-trust people are systematically more likely to vote populist right, for example. I'm just taking one example. Well, then you're going to undercount the populist right vote if you're not capturing a representative sample on that dimension. I think that's the bigger problem that the pollsters are having right now. There's all kinds of discussion about how to improve sampling in polling.

Lecture 5: Politics and Conflict

At a glance — Politics and conflict.

- 5.1 All right, so today I want to speak to you about war and different views on the causes of war. This topic really engages two major parts of political science, the first being international relations. When we're talking about war between states, since it involves states interacting with each other, that's international relations. But we're also going to be looking at civil war, war within states. There, what we're doing is we're actually comparing patterns across different states, but internal to those states. So that would be falling under comparative politics. And a lot of what you're going to hear today is probably best categorized as comparative politics.
- 5.2 I want to begin theoretically with an important work, somewhat controversial, but very interesting work by Steven Pinker of Harvard University, a book called *The Better Angels of Our Nature: Why Violence Has Declined in Human History*. So he's trying to make the optimistic case that, if you actually look at the broad sweep of human history, we are a lot less violent than we used to be. And his argument is that there are reasons for that. This would suggest that society has and may continue to become less violent over time.
- 5.3 He argues not just to think about big conflicts, like World War II and millions being killed, but really to put warfare in the context of the denominator. So the number of killed over the denominator, which is the total population that existed at the time. And if you divide the number killed by the total population, what you see is that the chance of dying violently in premodern societies was vastly higher than it is today. So just to give you some numbers out of Pinker's book, in hunter-gatherer societies, these are societies that are sometimes idealized as being peaceful and harmonious, the reality is that they were extremely violent—15% chance, on average, of dying violently in a hunter-gatherer society.
- 5.4 And that compares, just for context, if you take the so-called bloody 20th century in Europe, your chance of dying violently in war was about 1%. So it's 15 times lower, even in the bloody 20th century in Europe. Fast forward to the United States of 2005, which he had data for at the time, your chance of dying violently in war was only four one-hundredths of 1%, 0.004%. So that is many orders of magnitude lower, hundreds, even thousands of times lower, than you would experience in a hunter-gatherer society, so incredibly peaceful.
- 5.5 We live, at least in the developed world, but even anywhere, almost anywhere in the world is incredibly peaceful by comparison to the lives lived by our ancestors. The phrase, "Life being nasty, brutish, and short," there's quite a bit of truth to that, according to Pinker, and we sometimes forget that. How did we get then from those extremely bloody and violent hunter-gatherer societies to the very peaceful societies of

today? And Pinker walks through five, really several major transitions, really the transition perhaps the most important from hunter-gathering to agricultural states, where there's more centralized authority, which can control anarchic violence.

5.6 And then we have a second stage, which is more in the Middle Ages, where violence came to be seen as uncivilized to some degree, and that reduced violence a little bit more. Then we get to more recent periods in the 18th and 19th century where Enlightenment ideas, humanitarian ideas, start to make an impact. In terms of some patterns, post-1945, we see a near end of all interstate war, war between states. Now, I know Russia invaded Ukraine. That is an interstate war, but those are extremely rare. I mean, there are only a few instances, Saddam Hussein's Iraq invading Kuwait would be another example of this. But you can count. Perhaps there are only two or three examples in the post-1945 period of one state invading another. So that trend of near end to interstate war is something to know. That's very unusual if we take the big sweep of human history.

5.7 Now, at the end of Pinker's book, he makes an observation, not necessarily prediction. He makes an observation that since 1989, there has been a reduction in the number of civil wars in the world. Since that book was written, that has been reversed, so we are going to have to address that critique. I'm going to get to that later in the presentation. In terms of Pinker's argument, then, he cites five major reasons why we see a decline of violence. The beginning of the trend is a shift from those hunter-gatherer societies to agricultural empires and states. These states impose order on private violence. This idea of Leviathan from Thomas Hobbes, this idea that you—essentially, people give up the right to private violence, and the state acquires a monopoly on the use of violence. And so the state is able to police private violence, and that move from anarchy to state control really drops the level of violence.

5.8 There's also commerce, interdependence, so trading rather than fighting with another state. This term feminization, which is linked to civilization, and I'm going to talk about all of these in more depth. Some of this comes from a book by Norbert Elias called *The Civilizing Process*, and the impact that has on violence moving through the Middle Ages into the early modern period. Then cosmopolitanism and reason are the last forces that he talks about. These are more ideological and linked to the Enlightenment. Pinker begins in hunter-gatherer society. He first takes observations from animal societies, particularly chimpanzees, who share well over 99% of their genes with us. They're our closest relative. If you observe chimpanzee societies, we see raiding, raping of females, attacking and eating children, ganging up, murdering, all kinds of things are going on. It's an extremely violent society. Chimpanzee politics is extremely violent.

5.9 Likewise, if we move then to hunter-gatherer societies and anthropologists who studied hunter-gatherer societies, we can see extreme violence. Death rates, essentially 15% on average risk of dying violently in conflict. For example, Europe's last hunter-gatherer society, the Montenegrins, they had a 25% death rate from violence.

The evidence base for this is either the observation of current—there are a few left, hunter-gatherer societies, or paleontological evidence looking at skulls and skeletons and seeing how, if there's evidence of violent injury to those skeletons. So that's how anthropologists and paleontologists have pieced together roughly what the death rate is in pre-modern hunter-gatherer societies.

- 5.10** Here are just some statistics on this chart where we see anything from almost 60% chance of dying violently amongst the Jivaro to the Gebusi at around 10%. But in any of these cases, we see extremely high rates of risk of dying violently. The Yanomamo in the Amazon, for example, is about 25% chance of dying violently, if you're a Yanomamo. So the idea of the noble savage, peaceful primitive, is really not borne out by the evidence. And that's a point that Pinker really goes into in-depth, just to argue that we really have to be real about the way societies were. These were not idyllic societies.
- 5.11** Now, we have this idyllic view of hunter-gatherers, and at the same time, we have this view of empires as being bloodthirsty, awful places to live. Rome, for example. But the reality is actually empires, by bringing social order, yes, it was very unequal. There was a lot of dominance. There was still a lot of violence. But what these empires did is they put an end to private violence and instituted a central authority. And just that idea of stamping out private violence vendettas really helps to reduce violence. So at the core, Pinker would argue, this idea of anarchy is very closely linked to the level of violence in society. In fact, Pinker, who's a psychologist, even argues that living in an anarchic context has an interaction with different regions of the brain that are wired in a certain way. And the interaction between a very insecure, chaotic environment in our brain interacts to produce a greater likelihood of resorting to violence. And so there are a whole bunch of these interactions going on in an anarchic context.
- 5.12** So moving away from anarchy to state control is absolutely central to having an enormous impact on dropping the level of violence, by far the most important force in human history. And so, yes, empires were barbaric in many ways. They conquered, but they brought order, and that order is central to reducing the level of violence in society. So your chance of dying violently drops maybe 15-fold. Well, maybe not 15-fold, maybe seven, eight, nine-fold. Preemptive violence is no longer necessary. So sometimes in an anarchic situation, you have to demonstrate how violent you are in order to ward off violence from others. So you get this security dilemma of one side preempting in order to avoid being attacked by the other. This leads to all kinds of anarchic levels of conflict.
- 5.13** Even though the empires then reduce, these agricultural civilizations and empires reduce the level of violence, there is still a significant amount of cruelty and violence in the society. These are the images we know about the Christians being thrown to the lions and the gladiators and all of that, slavery, all of that. There's no question that these empires were still very barbaric and cruel, and there was a lot of violence in them. What is the next step then in moving, according to Pinker, in moving down this

chain towards reduced violence? Pinker talks a lot about the so-called civilizing process, which Norbert Elias, a sociologist, wrote about. This is occurring between the Dark Ages as we moved into the Middle Ages in the 1300, 1400, 1500, moving towards 1700.

5.14 We have this shift in courtly mores, in the courts of the kings, moving away from demonstrations of violence towards, for example, table manners. It used to be the case that people would defecate and urinate at the table. They would blow their nose in the tablecloth. That was all happening. And eventually, the mores of the courts stamped that out. Part of this is also attacking each other violently and eventually dueling. All of these things were eventually phased out as part of this civilizing process, which is—some people, Norbert Elias talks about feminization, that this is a feminization of manners. Whether we want to call it feminization, civilization, I think it's a tricky area. But I think, either way, this move towards manners and table manners is linked to the idea that violence is in some ways uncivilized and not something you do as an elite.

5.15 And so that civilizing process helps to reduce, to some degree, the degree of violence and cruelty. You see a phasing-out of cruel punishments such as breaking somebody on the rack or burning them alive. These kinds of punishments are phased out in this period in the Middle Ages, moving towards the early modern period. You see evidence, certainly if you look at the Old Testament, if you look at nursery rhymes that have a long provenance, there is a lot of violence in those stories, which reflects the mores that existed at the time, where violence was in some ways part of life. Cruelty, cruel punishments, was part of—it wasn't seen that there was anything wrong with those cruel punishments.

5.16 So during this period in the Middle Ages to the early modern period, moving towards the 1700s, we see this, the evolution of manners, and that partly entails reducing violence. And so the idea here was that engaging in violence was in some ways being primitive, not having control, and therefore being something that was seen as associated with the lower orders. So you have this introduction then of manners encompassing not engaging in spontaneous violence.

5.17 Also, in terms of militaries, which once were expected to engage in looting and raping, and that was seen as part of the payoff for being in the military, and that's also curbed as we move into the 16th and 17th century with the professionalization and discipline of militaries. That's another shift that we see, which also helps to reduce levels of violence overall. And eventually, rule of law, the strengthening of the rule of law, and that's then moving into the 1700s, 1800s, with the rise of a rights-based, Enlightenment-based culture.

5.18 The third major factor after state control and the civilizing process, the third major factor that Pinker talks about is the pacifying role of commerce. This was Immanuel Kant and Adam Smith and others talked about commerce as being very important to trade, being very important in leading to a more peaceful world. So the idea that you can gain more by trading with a country than invading a country. And if you think about

it today for, let's say, Britain to invade France, it would cost Britain an enormous amount of money, and it isn't very clear what the benefits would be. And so the calculation, if you're purely motivated by calculation and you think that you're going to get more resources by invading somebody, that calculation actually doesn't really pay off. Increasingly, it doesn't pay off.

- 5.19** In fact, it's much more advantageous to trade wool from Britain for wine from France, for example, and you get more wool and more, everyone gets more. So the realization that free trade is something that benefits all, and interdependency benefits all, rather than invasion—that was part of the dynamic that leads us towards reduced warfare. So it's almost a rational argument, a self-interested rational argument, that actually we'd be better off just trading rather than engaging in warfare.
- 5.20** At the extreme we get, in international relations, this democratic peace theory, and also a theory that is more about capitalist peace, which is that no two countries with a McDonald's have gone to war with each other. Now, that's not entirely the case after the Yugoslov war, where Serbia did have McDonald's. But the point there is really that interdependency in commerce is, in some way, pacifying. And so that is the third prong of the Pinker argument.
- 5.21** And then we get to the Enlightenment and humanitarianism. This is something that's more ideological. And Pinker talks about the evolution of humanitarian rights-based thinking from Erasmus and Bacon. So moving from the 1600s through to Mill and Jefferson in the—now , towards the 19th century with Mill. And so this idea of the Enlightenment and these ideas of human rights developing over time, that also eventually has an impact. So this is much more about ideology and political philosophy.
- 5.22** And what these ideas are doing is they're broadening people's circle of empathy, not just from their clan or their family, empathy to clan members or family members, but to larger units, entire nations, and then beyond the nation, even to extending to other nations, and even extending to animals. So you see the rise of animal rights, which started with protection for horses and then extends to cats and dogs. So you have that greater circle of empathy.
- 5.23** Now, what's causing that to some degree is the spread of these Enlightenment humanitarian ideologies, but also the novel emerges in the 19th century. More people can read. So literacy spreads, and there is, with the novel, you get a spread, at least you take the position of the main character. The argument here is that those novels can help to spread empathy with those who are different from you, and that enlarges the circle of empathy. And that means you're perhaps a little more reluctant to engage in dehumanization of the other, including perhaps criminals, so you may not engage in very cruel punishment of criminals either.
- 5.24** In terms of the master trend, just looking over time, this graph here just shows Western and Eastern Europe, and it plots the number of wars each year between 1400 and

2000. What you can see is a gradual decline from about one and a half or two conflicts a year in 1400 to what looks like roughly 0.2 or 0.3 by 2000. Very low decline. Now, it's up and down. There's a lot of blips, and clearly, 1939 to '45, there was a spike in Europe. But the general trend, if you look at the graph, seems to be, in both Western and Eastern Europe, a decline. That would fit in with some of the theories that Pinker is propounding, such as the civilizing process, followed by commerce and the Enlightenment, these things bringing the level of violence down in the world.

- 5.25** Now, we can argue, some people, the rational choice people would say, this is all about, it's all about calculation and the fact that people could get wealthier by trading than going to war, and all the Enlightenment stuff doesn't matter at all. Other people would say, no, the ideas, the civilizing process, and the humanitarian ideas are very important, and the reading publics and all this cultural stuff is important. There's a debate between the rational choice, who focus a lot on self-interest and material motivations, and those who focus more on the cultural motivations around ideology, for example.
- 5.26** Moving more into the more recent period, it's worth saying that war tends to come in waves, and it tends to be linked to shifts in the number of states. So whenever you see the expansion of empires, there are wars of conquest. The breakup of empires, we see secessionist wars. And whenever you have instability, you have more violence. That's a lesson that Pinker draws from his long historical tour, is that anarchy is really the breeding ground for violence. And that's also one reason why, in the UN and in international law, there's such an emphasis on state sovereignty. Even if a state is abusing its own citizens, very reluctant to allow others to intervene in a state, and very reluctant to allow secessions, too.
- 5.27** How difficult it is to recognize, for example, the Kurds, Taiwan, Somaliland, and these other places, Kosovo, a lot of resistance to recognizing new states. And this is because of, one reason is because of the fear of anarchy. I mean, another reason is that most states don't want to have secessionist challenges within their borders. So you have these waves then of war. One wave occurred with a breakup of the Ottoman Empire and the Austro-Hungarian Empire after World War I. Another wave was with decolonization. And decolonization leads to the emergence of these independent postcolonial states. But those postcolonial states, instead of fighting against the colonizer, you now have fighting within, between ethnic groups for control of the states.
- 5.28** Anytime you have a change in the state order and a breakup of empire, there's a risk of more violence. And that's one of the reasons there's emphasis on state stability. Stability in the international system. There's a concept within international relations called the democratic peace theory, which is the idea that democracies have not gone to war against each other. Again, not fully true. Obviously, democracies go to war against non-democracies. If you just think of the Iraq war, it's one example of that. But

there is an argument that says that, in democracies, because the act of war has to be supported by the population, there's more deliberation and there's more thinking that goes into whether you go to war. The idea of somebody just saying, "We're going to go off to war because I want to make myself great," that's harder to achieve in a democracy.

- 5.29** Now, there are others who say democracy actually increases the chances of war. So there are skeptics of this position. There are some who say, well, in a democracy, the public can sometimes clamor for war, and you can get whipped up by the press. And so there are also risks with democratization that might increase the chances of war. But in general, this democratic peace theory has some currency and some popularity in international relations.
- 5.30** Now, in terms of some of the empirical analysis, some comparativists contend that, actually, the greatest risk of war is not in an authoritarian regime or in a democracy, but actually in a semi-democracy, what are known as anocracies. And those are the least stable and the most likely to be associated with war. Now, most of that war, by the way, today, those semi-democracies, the war is civil war, not war between states.
- 5.31** I now want to shift gears to talk about the post-1945 period and some of the trends that have taken place in the world since then in terms of war. And the first is that interstate war, war between states, which is one of the major subjects in international relations, has declined dramatically so that there have arguably only been several, perhaps two only since 1945, or maybe three. The separation of Bangladesh from Pakistan could be counted as a war, but also the invasion of Kuwait by Saddam, and more recently, of course, the invasion of Ukraine. But almost all of the wars in the world today are civil wars, are intra-state wars.
- 5.32** One of the questions we might ask is, what's the trend then in civil wars between 1945 and the present? So what this chart actually shows is the trend in total war and the breakdown of the different types of wars. The blue bars, the blue is the interstate, and that is extremely low. You can see throughout this period, barely any of it going on. Almost everything else is war within states.
- 5.33** Now, it could be that it's a situation like Syria, where you have a war within Syria, but you have international players involved. Iran and Russia, on the Assad, behind the Assad regime, for example, would be an example of that. You can have internationalized intra-state war, and that's quite prominent today. If you look at Yemen, Iran and Saudi Arabia are on different sides in that conflict. You have an international dimension, but the war is still fought by groups within a country. So it is still basically a civil war conflict.
- 5.34** The other trend that we see here is, you can see the increase in war between 1945 and 1989, which was when the Berlin Wall came down. So the proxy wars during the Cold War seem to have contributed to greater civil war and violence in the world. After

1989, we see a drop in the number of civil wars until about 2006-07. 2006-07, and then we start to see more conflict, particularly in the Middle East, after the Arab Spring. In places like Libya, we have some conflict. Yemen also, we see a rise starting in about 2007. Back up to the level it was in 1989. So all of the decline in civil war between 1989 and 2006 had been reversed already by about 2012.

5.35 Now, what does that mean? Does that mean that the world is becoming less stable and more violent? And we can ask why that might or might not be the case. One factor seems to be the aftermath of the Arab Spring, the growing conflict between Shia and Sunni in the Middle East, seems to be one factor behind some of these wars. But of course, that's not going to explain what's happening in Ethiopia, for example, or what's certainly not what's happening in Russia, Ukraine. That is the trend in terms of total number of conflicts.

5.36 In terms of number of deaths, we see somewhat of a similar pattern. Since 1989, you see a drop in the number of people dying in armed conflicts until the 2010s, and then an increase, a little bit of a drop, and then a rise again in 2022. It seems like the world got more peaceful for a long time, and certainly after 1989, there was a drop in civil wars. But we've seen an increase more recently. Just to look in this next slide at falling violence around the end of the Cold War, the number of wars ongoing dropped from about 40 in 1989 to around just above 20 by 2000, 2002.

5.37 So why do we see that drop in the number of wars? And there are a number of reasons why we see that drop. One is that one side wins a war. So, the Sri Lankan regime won the war against the Tamils. Now, you could say that that conflict will burst into flames sometime in the future because the grievances haven't been addressed. And that, I think, is a reasonable supposition. But one example could be that, or in Syria, where the Assad regime has defeated the largely Sunni opposition. So when you have a kind of, one side winning, that's one major way that wars end, that violence drops. Another, however, possibility is that peace agreements and international interventions have played a part as well in reducing the level of violence in the world and the number of civil wars.

5.38 There was also a lot of optimism because we saw a rise in the number of democracies after 1989, the end of communism, clearly the breakup of the Soviet Union, former Yugoslavia, the rise of new democracies. That was quite exciting and may or may not be related to the decline of violence. Here's another chart just showing different types of war. After 1989, we saw a drop in the number of ethnic wars and the number of revolutionary wars, which are more class-based. If you think about Latin America, the Zapatistas and groups like FARC in Colombia, they're not really ethnic. I mean, they may have an indigenous element to them in some cases, but basically, they are revolutionary rather than ethnic.

5.39 We also have religious wars, which you could argue, in the Middle East, in a place like Syria, I mean, yes, it's partly ethnic, but it's also partly religious between, say, Shia and

Sunni, or between Islamists and essentially Arab nationalists . But there's been a drop since 1989 in this graph, but then a flattening out and then subsequently a rise. If we look in the different regions of the world in this graph , we can see that Africa is a very important site for civil war. In many years, it dominates. It's a majority of civil wars are taking place on the African continent. But Latin America, where it's more to do with gang violence and drug violence, that's also significant.

- 5.40 So I want to look now spatially at some patterns. And there's almost a conflict zone in the world, which is we sometimes call the Global South. It's between the tropics. And this is a fine-grained map of grid-level violence from the Peace Institute, PRIO. And this shows you that almost all of the violent conflict is taking place in that tropical belt. With the exception of Ukraine, almost everything that's going on is happening within that belt. And there are many regions, Myanmar, Yemen, Ethiopia, Congo , but also in Central America and the Golden Triangle, we're seeing drug-related or regime-related violence there.
- 5.41 This is a map of global wars. Again, it's almost all the violence is concentrated pretty much in that tropical belt, with the exception of Ukraine, Russia. The picture looked very similar about five years ago. There aren't really—it may be that certain countries are lighting up. It might have been Yemen was violent. Well, that's come to an end, again, because of stalemates or defeats , but now Ethiopia. It just seems that this is the zone where we're seeing a lot of violence.
- 5.42 One of the questions we might ask is, why is so much of the violence occurring in that zone? And this is where comparative politics comes in. And what comparative politics would do is, it would say, OK, we're going to look at all of the countries in the world. What are all their characteristics? And what are the characteristics of a country that predicts whether it will experience civil war within its borders? So what is it that predicts civil war? That's an important topic. So I will go through a number of potential causes, and we'll then look at a paper , which is one of the most highly cited papers in political science, which tries to explain the causes of civil war.
- 5.43 So one argument could be that this is about democracy, the democratic peace theory. Now, democratic peace theory is about war between states, no two democracies going to war with each other. But you could make the argument that also a democracy might lead to less violence within a state. And we can see, from this map, that there are a lot of authoritarian regimes in that Global South tropical region, but not all of them are authoritarian, actually . You've also got authoritarianism outside that tropical belt in places like China, North Korea, and Russia.
- 5.44 What about poverty and low income? This seems to be perhaps a better bet. You can see that most of this region is poor in the orange and brown tones. So could it be that poverty, poor countries are more likely to engage in civil war? Why is that? One reason could be that you have less to lose by joining an insurrection because you are going to be in poverty anyway, and at least joining in an insurrection means you have a chance

at something better, gaining resources . You also have fewer alternatives in terms of well-paying jobs, and so your opportunity cost of engaging in a violent insurrection is lower.

- 5.45** Also, we can look at the availability of lootable resources, that is, gems, gold, and also oil resources, and the location of those resources. So you might say, well, a country that has more precious stones and oil reserves is more likely to experience civil war as people try and fight to control those resources. This is a map of gemstone resources. You can see East Africa, for example. Southeast Africa is one place that has a lot of resources. Myanmar, which is also very conflict-ridden, is another place where you find gemstone resources . In terms of oil, this map perhaps would suggest that oil on its own is not really likely to be the explanation. However, there are certain countries in Africa, like Nigeria, that have more oil resources. And is it the case that countries with more oil resources are more prone to violent conflict?
- 5.46** Another possible explanation is the topography of a country, since almost all civil wars are fought in the countryside. Almost all civil wars are fought in the countryside, so it's going to be very difficult to fight as an insurgent if you have nowhere to hide. This is something very practical. So a more mountainous country, or a country with more forests or inaccessible terrain, is going to be more friendly for insurgents to operate and organize. This map shows you that, in terms of mountainous territory, there are certain regions, such as Eastern Africa, for example, or much of Southeast Asia, that might be friendly to rebel movements. The location of forests here, in particularly the tropical belt of Africa, that also might make it easier for rebel movements to hide, places like the Eastern Democratic Republic of the Congo, where we see a lot of violence.
- 5.47** Another possible factor is ethnic fractionalization, the number of ethnic groups in a country and their relative share of the population. The way this is calculated is the likelihood that two random citizens of a country will be of the same ethnic group. If that likelihood is very low, you have high ethnic fractionalization. So the likelihood is, if you take two individuals from Nigeria or Congo, there's a very high likelihood they're going to be members of different ethnic groups. In much of sub-Saharan Africa, you have very high ethnic fractionalization. And is ethnic fracture—and you see that in Southeast Asia.
- 5.48** So a lot of this tropical belt is more ethnically diverse than the wealthier parts of the world. If you look at Europe, for example, if you look at East Asia, and even though there is diversity in North America, it's mainly immigrant diversity in urban areas. So the question of ethnic diversity, particularly indigenous ethnic diversity, is an important consideration as well. So do more fractionalized countries have a greater risk of civil war?
- 5.49** Another factor we could look at is the age structure of a population. Almost all violence is committed by young men between about 15 and 30 in most societies, and that holds

for crime, that holds for a whole series of different forms of violence . So you would think that, on average, a younger population means you'll have a greater risk of conflict and war. There are a whole bunch of other factors that play into this. If you have a big youth bulge, what's called a youth bulge, a large number of people between 15 and 30 in your population entering the labor force, usually the labor force is designed for a smaller population. And so there's a greater chance those young men will be unemployed, and therefore, the insurrectionary activity becomes more attractive and less costly.

5.50 So the calculation is, well, I don't have much to gain in the labor market, and I have very little to lose by joining one of these insurrectionary movements, plus younger men, testosterone, and all of that. They are involved in more violence. So if we look at this map of the world, we can see that much of sub-Saharan Africa, the average age is below 20, and much of Southeast Asia, it's below 30. So is that very young age structure then going to be conducive to more violence?

5.51 What are the other factors we might look at? One of them is religiosity, perhaps. Is that going to be a contributing factor? The share of people who say religion is very important to them is higher in some countries. But again, that doesn't seem to be a perfect correlation either. So we see it quite high in sub-Saharan Africa and Southeast Asia. Islam, some have argued that a lot of the conflicts have taken place recently in Muslim parts of the world, and that's mainly North Africa, Middle East, Arabia, into Turkey. But again, it's not a perfect match . We can see a lot of the conflict has actually occurred in sub-Saharan African countries that are not Muslim. And so, how well does that explain? It explains for Syria, perhaps for Yemen. It doesn't explain as well for Ethiopia, for Congo, and so forth .

5.52 Another factor that comparative politics scholars might look at is state penetration. How well established is a state in terms of having control over peripheral areas? Because that state penetration and control and monopoly of violence is very important, according to Hobbes and according to Pinker. You need that state authority to be able to tamp down private violence. But in states that were founded more recently, authority, particularly in the peripheral areas of a country, how much does the writ of the Iraqi government run in the Kurdish regions, or of the Syrian government run in the Kurdish regions of Syria? Perhaps not as much, especially if those regions are mountainous or in some way, if the terrain is inhospitable.

5.53 The founding date of the state, we can see that most of the states in this tropical belt , sorry, in the tropical belt outside of Latin America, but Africa into Asia, those are post-colonial states with recent founding dates. And in some cases, these are weak, in some cases, failed states like Somalia, you could argue, or Afghanistan, relatively weak state authority . Where you have weak state authority, you're more likely to have civil wars. Now, it's a bit of a chicken and an egg because civil wars weaken state authority. But in

general, if you have a weak dysfunctional state, arguably you're going to get more groups trying to break away or rebel or engage in civil war.

5.54 And that then brings me to this article by David Laitin and James Fearon, which is one of the most cited. It looks at the determinants of civil war onset. That is—what we're trying to explain, the outcome variable, is the likelihood that a country will experience a civil war onset, so the start of a civil war. That is what we're trying to explain. The factors that we're looking at here are a whole range of factors. This is, again, that modeling exercise. Similar to the one that we did when we looked at voting behavior, where we've got 200 countries over a span of about 50 years, and we've got a whole series of characteristics of these countries—how large they are, how mountainous they are, how rich they are, are they democracies or not, how ethnically and religiously diverse are they?

5.55 And so those are thrown into this model, and we can see a couple of factors are jumping out as predictors of civil war. Anything with three stars on this chart is a more important predictor. So one of those is per capita income. Poorer countries are more likely to experience a civil war. So that seems to be the most important factor, along with the proportion of a country that is mountainous. So that gets to this idea that the more mountainous a country, the more rebels are able to hide in places that the national army can't get at them. So you need to have a territorial-based amount, an effective military rebellion. So a mountainous country with low per capita income is more likely to experience a civil war onset.

5.56 There are a couple of other important factors. Being an oil exporter makes you more prone to civil war, and that gets to greed-based explanations for civil war, this idea that wars are fought to control lootable resources. But also we see some evidence for this new state hypothesis, that the more recently the state was founded, which is perhaps correlated with weaker state authority, the greater the risk of civil war. Now, in terms of democracy versus authoritarianism, democracies are actually not less likely to experience a civil war onset, but anocracies, which are the semi-democracies, are more likely to experience a civil war onset. Again, that perhaps speaks to instability, anarchy, that whole equation. Where you have instability of the regime, that seems to be associated with more violence as well.

5.57 Now, in terms of ethnic and religious fractionalization, Fearon and Laitin didn't find the ethnic fractionalization to be a significant predictor, but they did find the number of religious groups and the spread of religious groups, the more such groups, the more violence. Now, other papers have, instead of testing ethnic fractionalization, total diversity, they have tested for ethnic polarization, which is where you have two groups that are relatively large. And Sri Lanka would be an example of that. If you have two groups that are relatively large, then that, in many papers, a number of papers have found that to be a risk also of civil war. Whereas Tanzania, with its hundreds of small groups, presents actually a lower risk of civil war.

- 5.58 The other finding some papers show is, when the regime, like in Syria, is controlled by an ethnic minority, or Iraq, before under Saddam Hussein, by an ethnic or religious minority, that is also an elevated risk of civil conflict. Just stepping back for a minute to return to Pinker, Pinker's argument was an optimistic one, that the level of violence in the world is declining over time. War is declining. That optimistic view of the world was also held by people like Francis Fukuyama and Matt Ridley. So Fukuyama's argument is that a lot of violence was being sublimated into capitalism. So instead of showing your manhood through war, you're showing it through accumulation of resources, and there was this pacification.
- 5.59 This was occurring in the '90s. When Fukuyama was writing in the '90s, this was post-1989. We're seeing a rise in the number of democracies, decline in the number of civil wars. A very optimistic view of the world. It's been criticized a lot, but still remains a very valuable book to read and an important argument to understand. So the idea of The End of History, by Francis Fukuyama. Against that optimistic view that violence is declining, war is declining, yes, there'll be a few blips. Yes, there may be a Russia-Ukraine, there may be an Ethiopia, but basically the trend is downward.
- 5.60 There are those who say, well, actually we're entering into a more dangerous phase in the world, partly perhaps due to population pressure, the increase in population in the developing world, coupled with global warming and climate change and pressure on resources, these Malthusian arguments by people such as Robert Kaplan or Thomas Homer-Dixon. Their argument is actually you might see large-scale migrations as a result of climate change and population pressure, as well as disease and other factors such as Ebola. So that is a more pessimistic outlook, that we are entering a more dangerous phase in the world.
- 5.61 Then there are writers such as John Gray in the pessimistic tradition who would say, actually, those who talk about the end of history are implying that humans are making moral progress. So Pinker's book is also a book about humanity making moral progress over time. And John Gray is very much a skeptic of that. He would argue that there's only a cyclical, and there is no linear moral progress. And those who believe in that are essentially believing in a religion, that they believe history has a direction. And this idea of history having a direction is wrong-headed, according to John Gray.
- 5.62 So if we take the recent period, no doubt we see there has been an increase in violence in the world since about 2006, and that would be perhaps evidence for the John Grays of this world. On the other hand, if you take the very long view, going back to hunter-gatherer days, you could say, well, this is just really a drop in the ocean compared to the number of people that were killed in those hunter-gatherer societies. So who has it right, the optimists or the pessimists? Pinker and Fukuyama seeing a decline of violence in human history. Their argument would be, yes, there can be temporary reversals and blips, but that should not be used as evidence that the theory is incorrect.

- 5.63 And Pinker argues there are a number of structural features that are embedded in human history that are inclining in the direction of greater pacification, most notably perhaps commerce, but also value change. Commerce and value change playing a role in pacification. So greater interdependency, meaning less likelihood of countries going to war against each other.
- 5.64 So that leaves us with the question, really, to end this lecture—which way do we think things are going to go? Obviously, there's views about the long term, and then there's views about our lifetime. Maybe we have a different conclusion depending on the time horizon . But one of the big questions is whether there are these structural features that are driving human societies towards lower levels of violence. Just as a last coda, because it's one of my areas of specialty, another argument is that because the population of the world is getting older, even in the developing world, we're seeing a drop in fertility rates. Because of the older nature of the population, the risk of violence is going to be lower, as we have fewer people in that 18 to 30 age range.

Lecture 6: Designing Democracy

At a glance — Designing democracy.

- 6.1 OK, so today we're going to be speaking about the design of democracy in ethnically divided or heterogeneous societies. If you recall, going back to the first couple of lectures when we talked about different democratic systems and electoral systems, a lot of the political philosophy around democracy and liberal democracy came from relatively ethnically homogenous Western societies that could, at least in theory, make the assumption that there were not significant group differences within a society. You could talk about individual citizens as being somewhat homogenous.
- 6.2 But most of the world actually isn't like that. The question is, as you expand democracy from the core countries of Western Europe and North America to other societies, how can you actually adapt it to work in those societies? Some people argue that democracy will never work in such societies, but others are more hopeful. They just would argue that you need to have a certain kind of democracy to work. In terms of the questions that we'll be addressing today, one of the questions is to do with the, if you like, quote-unquote, "imperfect overlap" between ethnicity and politics. That's really what drives nationalism, this idea that there are either multiple ethnic groups within one political roof or one ethnic group is divided into many different political units, as is the case with the Arabs today or what was the case with the Germans and Italians in the 19th century.
- 6.3 How do we manage ethnic diversity in a particular society? I mean, this is partly about not having ethnic violence and civil war, and it's also partly about having a legitimate state and a democracy in an ethnically diverse or divided-type of society. These ethnic questions are tricky because maybe where you have rich or poor, you can agree to have a certain level of taxation and welfare spending. Perhaps those economic issues are easier to resolve than zero-sum issues such as, who gets this territory? Is Western Sahara part of Morocco or not, for example? Is Kosovo part of Serbia in any way or not? These are symbolic questions, and they raise more zero-sum type issues where people tend to think, "No, symbolically, this is ours, not theirs." Israel, Palestine, another example. Non-tradable issues, it's harder to arise at those sorts of accommodations.
- 6.4 There are two major approaches to managing ethnic difference in a society. One is to eliminate ethnic difference, and the other is to manage difference. It might sound just from those words that eliminate is morally awful and manage is very good. But as we'll see, in fact, there are good and bad forms of both elimination and management. It's not as simple as that. There are both democratic and non-democratic forms also of elimination and management.
- 6.5 In terms of, and this is using some of the work of Brendan O'Leary and John McGarry in terms of enumerating these different methods. In terms of elimination of difference,

you obviously have violent non-democratic methods like genocide that clearly eliminates ethnic difference within a society. Ethnic cleansing, or what's called forced mass population transfer—and those of you who are old enough to remember the war in former Yugoslavia, this was a technique that was being used there. But it has been used by many countries and civilizations, over many millennia, to create a more homogenous population.

- 6.6 Now we move to the more democratic forms of elimination, and these would include partition or self-determination or secession. So, allowing Scotland, Quebec, to secede, there's nothing undemocratic about that. If Scotland and Wales left, and you just had England, that would be a less diverse society. It wouldn't necessarily be an undemocratic thing if it was voted for by the Scots or—the Welsh, it's unlikely, but the Scots. Then we last get to integration or assimilation of groups, which can be coercive, but it can also be voluntary and therefore perfectly compatible with democracy. Those are also methods of elimination.
- 6.7 The second group of methods are to do with managing existing difference. And we also have non-democratic and democratic forms of managing ethnic difference, rather than trying to eliminate it. One method could be hegemonic control. If you think about the Sunni dominance under Saddam in Iraq, or the Assad regime, which is Alawi, their dominance over Syria—these are examples of one group largely controlling a society. Another extreme example might be the Americo-Liberians. These are Liberians that are descended from American slaves who emigrated and formed the elite of Liberia, and they controlled Liberia for many, many years.
- 6.8 So this idea of hegemonic control, or this question of ethnic democracy in places like Israel, Estonia, Malaysia, where you may have a democracy and everybody has participation, but one ethnic group is clearly privileged, perhaps in the constitution of the state. Arbitration as a means of managing ethnic differences, which is a way in which sometimes outside countries or agencies, sometimes internal, seek to manage conflict between groups.
- 6.9 Option three under management is federalism, which is that you give different groups their own federal territory or federal unit or canton, and that's a way in which you manage difference. So some powers are given to the federal units, some powers are maintained at the center. And there's also a non-territorial form of federalism, which is used in Lebanon and Northern Ireland, called consociationalism. It's where the groups are not spatially delineated, and so it's very difficult to use federal units. We'll get into more detail on all of these next.
- 6.10 In terms of methods of regulating conflict and hopefully implementing democracy, these are ideal types. And very often, what you see is that a mixture of those—we had eight types there, eight or nine types. You often get a mixture of those used. In the case of Tito in the former Yugoslavia, there was a mix of control. Clearly, the Serbs were a dominant group in a way. Tito's regime kept very tight control on the expression of

group difference, but there were also elements of power-sharing within the regime. Over American history, we've seen some genocide, some control, some integration.

- 6.11 In terms of methods for eliminating differences, this is where countries try and reduce ethnic difference within their territory. So this is a way of eliminating ethnic difference within the territory. And the methods listed on this slide, genocide, forced mass population transfer, partition or secession, integration and assimilation. I've already gone over broadly what those are. Just deal with some of these. The first is ethnic cleansing. I'm going to leave genocide aside because genocide is genocide. There's not much to say it, other than it's awful.
- 6.12 But in terms of some of these other means of eliminating difference, if you take forced mass population transfer or ethnic cleansing—for example, the Serbs in Bosnia in the war in the former Yugoslavia—as a way of changing facts on the ground to make a territory seem like it is controlled by your ethnic group and give you territorial claims, make your territorial claims more easy. Whereas if you have another ethnic group there that claims that it is, essentially that that land is its ethnic homeland, it is difficult. Particularly if they have buried their dead in the territory for many years and have a certain emotional attachment to the land, it's harder to make a territorial claim to that land. So ethnic cleansing is a strategy that was used by the Serbs, for example.
- 6.13 That can be distinguished from agreed population exchanges, which are not the same as ethnic cleansing, which are forced mass population transfers. So the Greek-Turk, Greek-Turkey population exchange after World War I is an example of this agreed mass population transfer. It's not the same as people being forced out. It's worth also noting that ethnic cleansing often does not terminate an ethnic conflict. The Chechens in USSR were deported in large numbers, but that didn't prevent the Chechen wars from occurring. Ethnic cleansing has been used by empires. So for example, the Russian Empire in the Caucasus tried to ethnically cleanse Muslim populations from its territories.
- 6.14 There's also a fuzzy line between mass population transfer and legitimate deportation and immigration control. There's a slide here about 1.7 million undocumented Afghans being ordered to leave Pakistan recently. We've seen in the past large numbers of Mexicans being deported from the US in the 1950s. And so there's a difference, perhaps, between legitimate enforcement of borders and deportation of illegal immigrants versus actual ethnic cleansing. So if you take what's going on amongst the Rohingya, Rohingya in Myanmar being forced out, that would be an example of ethnic cleansing because they actually have been living in the area for many generations. And then you have situations that are in between. So there is this question about legitimate residents versus illegitimate residents. And depending on whether a resident is legitimate or illegitimate, the deportation is a violation of human rights or not a violation of human rights.

- 6.15** Option C, in terms of elimination, is partition or secession. Here's a picture of Israel-Palestine. Partition, the so-called two-state solution, would be an example of partition, where you would have a territory for the Palestinians and a territory for the Jews, or at least for Israel, which Israel does include 20% Israeli-Arab population, which doesn't live in the territories. Partition is an example of where, if you took Israel-Palestine as one unit, clearly with the Palestinians, it's maybe 50-50. I don't have the exact number between Arab and Jew. If you did a two-state solution, it would be more like 80-20 in Israel, 80% Jewish. And in the territories, it would be something like 100% Arab or thereabouts. So, partition is one way in which you could imagine the degree of ethnic difference being reduced within Israel-Palestine.
- 6.16** Another method, of course, could be secession. I mean, you could imagine secession and partition being somewhat similar. So if, let's say, the territories, the Palestinian territories, seceded and formed their own state, then that would be equivalent functionally to partition. Another example of partition is Czechoslovakia being partitioned into Czech Republic and Slovakia, so-called Velvet Divorce. Sometimes these are peaceful, like Czechs and Slovaks. Other times, they involve a lot of bloodletting, like Pakistan, India. It's a very difficult question as to, people say, well, the partition of India was a terrible thing because it led to millions of people dying. I guess the question is always one of, what is the counterfactual? If you tried to keep Pakistan in India, would you have had less violence?
- 6.17** Northern Ireland, Ireland, that's another similar question. Clearly, there's been civil war, an attempt to acquire the northern six counties for the Republic of Ireland. That's what the IRA was all about and the troubles in Northern Ireland was all about. Now, you might say, well, it would have been better not to partition Ireland, but then you might have had different kinds of violence emerging, which could have been worse. These are the kinds of questions that one has to think about when we think about managing ethnic conflict. Sometimes partition is the least worst. It can be done in bad ways, in good ways. Sometimes holding plebiscites at a detailed level might be a way of drawing the lines between—so, a key question is where you draw the lines.
- 6.18** As in Israel, where is that border wall? Where should it go? Should it, perhaps, include some parts of the territories, but then parts of Israel go to Palestine, and so there's perhaps an exchange based on where Arabs and Jews are living? These are questions that are always raised in the peace agreements. Does Scotland have the right to self-determination and to leave Britain? But then would the Highland Scots have a right to leave Scotland? Who determines which peoples have this right of self-determination? What is the relevant unit also in which they should exercise self-determination? Should the parts of Scotland that perhaps don't identify as Scottish or are not separatist, should they be included, like the borders region of Scotland? Should they be included in the unit that secedes? Should the English-speaking parts of Quebec be included in the part? If Quebec were to secede, should the English-speaking parts go with it, or should

they stay with Canada, is an important question. And what constitutes a majority? What is the number that you require in a referendum for independence?

- 6.19** There is a question also around anarchy in the world because we saw that when empires break up and new states are created and when there's anarchy, that's when we see a large increase in violence and instability. And does secession produce copycat secessions and a domino effect? Generally, the UN is opposed to secession; most countries don't want secession within their own borders. It's worth saying also that over 90% of the world's countries have at least some ethnic minorities, so there are almost no ethnically homogenous countries. However, about 70% of the world has an ethnic majority of at least 50%, and 80% of the world has an ethnic majority or plurality of at least 40%. So most countries have an ethnic majority and some minorities.
- 6.20** And most of those minorities are not immigrant minorities. They're mostly native minorities. And native minorities are actually the groups that are involved in violent rebel movements. This is a question then that the international lawyers and international system thinks about very carefully. They allowed East Timor to become a country in the United Nations. They're not going to allow Taiwan or Somaliland or Kosovo easily to become a country because they don't really want to encourage—the international norms are such that they want to discourage the creation of new countries.
- 6.21** That brings us along to option D, which is assimilation and integration. This is a picture of Ellis Island in the US. It's famous for immigrants coming to the US. The policy at the time was very much one of Americanization or assimilation. There's a difference between integration and assimilation, in that integration is seen as just, as long as you are working and are loyal to the state, participate politically, what you do in private is your own business, and you can have your own ethnic identity, and you don't actually have to become part of the ethnic us. You can be ethnically separate, but as long as you are integrated politically and economically.
- 6.22** Assimilation, however, usually carries a meaning of something deeper, which is that you are also culturally and probably, in your identity, becoming the same as the ethnic majority population. Now, there are different levels and degrees of assimilation. It could be that you speak the language, but you maintain your religion and your separate ethnic identity, or it could be that you change, ultimately, your children change their ethnic identity and become like the host society. It's also a question of what are you integrating into? Do you integrate into a very civic, political-style national identity that is less thick? It's kind of a thinner national identity based perhaps around some common values, maybe certain bits of history, versus do you assimilate to a more ethnic national identity?
- 6.23** Hungary is a country where there actually was a lot of melting and assimilation between the late 1700s and the 20th century of different groups into the Hungarian nation, similarly with Turkey. But the national identity they were expected to assimilate

into was actually one that had a very ethnic cast. When I say ethnic, I mean based on myths of genealogical descent and origin. Whereas perhaps in Britain or the US, there's maybe a set of values, a constitution, a certain version of history, but it's a thinner and lighter, more civic identity.

- 6.24** Now, you can have one-way or two-way assimilation, where the immigrants are expected to completely conform to the host society, or you have two-way assimilation, which is favored more by liberal progressives, which is that both are adapting to each other. The immigrants adapt to the host. The host changes a bit to the immigrants. That's the so-called two-way assimilation. There are state-led high-pressure forms of assimilation, like the Russification in the Tsarist Empire, the Turkification in the Turkish Republic under Atatürk, and even Americanization in the early 20th century, which was arguably more high-pressure.
- 6.25** There's different theories of assimilation. Milton Gordon's book, *Assimilation in American Life*, it offers a seven-step process where you go from getting a job assimilating to the economy to then politically, culturally, speaking the language, but eventually, marrying in, changing identity. That is the deepest layer of assimilation that takes place. It's worth saying assimilation theory is no longer talked about very much in academia, with a few exceptions. But there are a few writers, such as Richard Alba, Rogers Brubaker, who do talk about it, but it is something that has largely been avoided by academia more recently.
- 6.26** There can be liberal and illiberal forms of assimilation. In many countries, let's say, in the interwar period, the countries that were on the winning side in World War I, Romania, for example, which because they were on the winning side, they got more territory and they got ethnic minorities as part of that territory. So, Hungarians, Hungary was on the losing side and lost two-thirds of its territory. So a lot of Hungarians wound up in other countries. And the Germans lost as well. So Germans wound up in other countries as well, German minorities. And some of these countries tried to high-pressure assimilate the members of these losing ethnic groups like Germans and Hungarian by preventing them from speaking their language in school, for example.
- 6.27** So you have a high-pressure assimilation of groups that are, in many ways, native or indigenous to the territories they're living in. This isn't immigrants we're talking about. These are long-settled groups that consider themselves native to the territory. And that generates a lot of resistance. Arguably was a factor, perhaps, in causing World War II, but not the main factor, but it arguably was an irritant. There's a whole debate around assimilation versus multiculturalism, that this idea of whether you can have unity and diversity, is it possible to have unity with diversity, or does it have to tip one way? The diversity is either going to lead to disunity, or the unity is going to lead to less diversity. It's very difficult to have both at the same time.

- 6.28 Also, the question is, can you actually pursue, let's say, integration, without that eventually becoming assimilation? If people are integrated in the labor market and they're participating politically, do they not then take the next step after learning the language and also move closer to the host population through intermarriage and identity change?
- 6.29 In terms of means of integration and assimilation, both coercive and non-coercive. We have voluntary assimilation, people choosing to assimilate, or you have state-led coercive assimilation as well. What are the means that are adopted by states? Could be integrated schooling, language instruction, civics and history lessons, forced integration, or integration of workplace and public facilities. In terms of assimilation, and particularly high-pressure means of assimilation, for example, in Bulgaria, in the 1990s, there was a law that forced all of the Turkish-origin Muslim Bulgarians to adopt a Christian surname. That would be an example of forced assimilation or banning the use of other languages. Now, of course, if you go back in history, this is what a lot of countries did. France banned the speaking of Catalan and Provençal and all these dialects as it was building its nation.
- 6.30 So assimilation has been a common theme in nation-building through the 18th, 19th centuries. The aim is to create a single history, a single language, single school system. Going back to the 19th century, this was to make sure that people paid tax and served in the military and were loyal to the country. OK, so I've talked a lot about the elimination of differences through secession, partition, assimilation, integration. We're now going to move to regimes that manage differences, where rulers accept this is a diverse country, and we've got to manage that and work with the grain of that diversity somehow. There are different ways to do it. So there are undemocratic ways to do it.
- 6.31 Most empires in the world, like the Ottomans, the Habsburgs, they were essentially hegemonic control systems, what O'Leary and McGarry would call hegemonic control systems, where you had a dominant ethnic group, the Austro-Germans in the Austro-Hungarian Empire, the Ottoman Turks in the Ottoman Empire. This was the dominant group in the Empire, and they controlled other groups. They weren't trying to assimilate everybody necessarily into being, let's say, speaking German, although there were phases of assimilation, but generally, they weren't trying to build a nation. They accepted, "We're an empire, we have many different groups, but we want to control these groups."
- 6.32 And so this is a hegemonic control approach. Within countries, you also tend to have dominant ethnic groups in many cases. And sometimes those groups are minorities, like in Syria with the Assad regime, the Alawi sect, which is semi-Shia, is dominant in Syria, and they are controlling the Sunni Arab majority of Syria.
- 6.33 In terms of other methods, we have arbitration, which is where you have often an external, not always, but often an external auditor imposing a settlement on groups within a country. Federalism, which involves devolving power to federal units which

approximate to the different ethnic groups in your society. Sometimes that can involve very small units, cantons, as in Switzerland, where you devolve power to the cantonal level. Switzerland, you actually have power at the communal, the cantonal level, and the federal level.

- 6.34** Option four is a non-territorial form of devolution of power, known as consociationalism, which is a way of sharing power between ethnic groups that are not territorialized, like Northern Ireland. The groups are mixed together, like Lebanon. They're somewhat separate, but they're also somewhat mixed. And so you can't create federal units easily in Lebanon without having a lot of people stuck in the wrong unit for their ethnic group. Just working through these different methods, we start with hegemonic control, which has been very common through world history and in those great multi-ethnic empires, such as the Tsarist-Ottoman Empire, but also the Soviet Union, if we can think of the Soviet Union as an empire.
- 6.35** Now, some states, you can look at Indonesia and say, "Is that an empire in some way?" Well, it's not an empire, but it's a state where you have a Javanese majority, and then you have all these minorities in the islands that are—now, to what extent are they under the control of the Javanese majority? But anyway, this idea of hegemonic control where you're managing groups and group differences. So you have to deal with, you have to recognize, to some degree, group rights, but you want to manage that.
- 6.36** There's also this term ethnic democracy or *Herrenvolk* democracy. Some people would argue that certain countries, yes, they offer democratic rights to minorities, but only certain groups can occupy top positions in the state. So, places like Israel, Northern Ireland under the Stormont regime, Estonia, Malaysia, et cetera. Countries where there are rights for minorities, but perhaps a titular ethnic group dominates the power structure. Arbitration is the second means of managing ethnic differences. Here we see a picture of Tony Blair, Bertie Ahern, and George W. Bush, who were all involved in the Northern Ireland peace process as arbiters. What arbitration means is that these arbiters—the Irish government, the American government, and the British government—were trying to push the unionists and nationalists to a solution in Northern Ireland. So it wasn't just saying, "We're not just going to be a go-between." That's mediation, where you're not imposing any solution.
- 6.37** The idea of an arbitration is the arbiter imposes, in some way, some kind of a solution or tries to get the parties using various carrots and sticks to the table. And maybe if we think of Israel-Palestine, maybe that's going to be a combination of also arbitration from the Americans. Typically, one side, so the Catholic side in Northern Ireland would see Bertie Ahern and the Irish government as, to some degree, their friends or looking out for their interests. The Protestant side, it was trickier because it wasn't obvious who was going to look out for their interests. Perhaps Tony Blair and the British government would be closer to that position, although I would say the unionists didn't have as much trust in Britain as the nationalists did in Bertie Ahern.

- 6.38** And similarly, if we were to take Israel-Palestine, the question is, so who's going to look out for the interest of the Palestinians? It would probably be a Sunni Arab state. And who is going to look out for the interests of the Jews and of Israel? That's probably the Americans. And so the Americans and one of the major, or a group of the major Arab states would be the arbiters if they were trying to get those parties to agree to some a solution.
- 6.39** There are different kinds of arbiters. You can have an internal, actually a member, somebody within the country who is trusted by both sides, or you have external arbiters. Sometimes you have a so-called father of the nation, like Julius Nyerere in Tanzania or Mahatma Gandhi in India. Gandhi may have been trusted by both the Muslims and the Hindus. In Canada, it might be that the native peoples trust the Canadian federal government more than the provincial governments. Provincial governments might be looking out for resource interests. So maybe there's more trust in the federal government than in the provinces. So there's a way in which the federal government can be seen as arbitrating between the interests of the provincial governments and the natives.
- 6.40** You then have external forms of arbitration, which could be, as we saw in Northern Ireland, there could be states that the parties trust. So maybe the Israelis trust the Americans, and the Palestinians trust the Egyptians or the Saudis or the Turks. So you maybe have external states, but you can also have supranational bodies like the United Nations, European Union, NATO, which can be the external arbiters and can be involved in peace agreements. And so we saw that. We see different combinations. Very often you see, so in the case of South Tyrol, which is part of Italy, which is an ethnically German part of Italy, there was negotiation between the Austrian and Italian governments, a condominium between the two.
- 6.41** The whole point of arbitration is to arrive at some kind of final arrangement to resolve the territorial conflicts. That arrangement is going to have to involve something more than the arbitration, because arbitration is kind of, like, just a process. It's not actually a constitutional way of dealing with powers between groups. In addition to arbitration, you need another method, which is typically going to be federalism, sometimes dominant control, but either federalism or consociationalism. In this last section, I'm going to talk a bit about federalism and consociationalism. So federalism really is about devolving power to federal units. In Britain, we have this term devolution. It's not full federalism because the devolved parliaments in Wales and Scotland have some powers, but there's a lot of power still at Westminster. Whereas in Germany, the Länder have a lot more power, and they're seen as more co-equal.
- 6.42** US states, Canadian provinces, all have power, so the Canadian provinces have power over education and resources. Often, the federal center has power over foreign policy. There's sometimes a splitting of tax-raising powers. The Canadian provinces have provincial sales tax revenues, but your income tax goes to the federal government.

Cantonization differs from federalism in a number of ways, as in Switzerland. Cantons are often smaller. They can involve asymmetrical powers where certain cantons have more powers than other cantons, and that's allowed within the system. To some degree in Spain, there are different sets of powers allocated to different regions. Quebec, for example, has certain special powers that the other provinces don't have within the Canadian federal system, powers over language and culture.

- 6.43** There's also a difference between systems where the power resides mainly at the federal center. Britain, of course, power is mainly at the federal center. There's some power to the Scottish and Welsh and Northern Irish assemblies, but it's more power at the center. Other systems are more devolved. They're called confederations. The power is more down with the federal units.
- 6.44** Assessing federalism, how well has it dealt with ethnic tensions and conflicts in the world? In so many of these cases, it's very difficult to provide a definitive answer. So federalism has a mixed record of success. It seems to have worked to some degree to resolve conflict in certain countries. You can look at Canada, the federal system there. You can look at the federal system in India. Has that reduced ethnic tensions, religious tensions? One argument, if you take this country, one argument is that devolution has helped to deal with some of the grievances of the Welsh and the Scots. But the other argument would be that, while creating those parliaments gave political entrepreneurs, the regional nationalists, a power base and an institutional framework and a whole set of concretized, say, Scottish nationalism, and therefore, it made it more for the country to break up.
- 6.45** Others would say, actually, it's drawn the sting. If you didn't allow for the devolution of power to Scotland and Wales, we'd have a bigger problem with Scottish and Welsh nationalism. In Canada, it's worth saying, by the way, that the Quebec nationalist movement, they came very close in the 1995 referendum. I think it was 49.5% vote. So it came very close. But since then, separatist sentiment has declined to the low 30s. You could argue perhaps that the devolution of powers, that the federal system in Canada was able to adapt and allow Quebec to have most of what it wanted without seceding. So maybe that's a success.
- 6.46** In other cases, however, it would appear that federalism hasn't solved the problem in a place like Nigeria, where the devolution of power to the federal units is fine, but the problem is that you're never going to get ethnically homogenous federal units, and where there are minorities who find themselves suddenly in a federal unit where it's mostly the other group, you then get discontent. You might have a country like Nigeria, this is very multi-ethnic at the national level, but when you break it down to the federal units, there may be two groups, not 15. When there's two groups, the chance of conflict is greater than when there's a whole bunch of groups and there are shifting coalitions that are possible.

- 6.47** OK, I want to finally talk about a non-territorial form of federalism called consociationalism. It's a big word. This is the system, the democracy that you need to craft in a society where the ethnic groups are not neatly delineated. In Canada, most of the French are in Quebec. In India, you have different states where the groups are collected territorially. But in Northern Ireland or Lebanon, you don't have that. You have the groups mixed together very much. If group rights and group identities are really important in those societies, which they are, and people vote on ethnic lines for ethnic parties, then you need to have a different design. This is where this idea of non-territorial federalism, or consociationalism, comes about.
- 6.48** It has four features, and we could do a whole lecture on this, so this is going to be very quick. But one of the features is a proportional representation system, rather than a first-past-the-post. So, all the groups are represented in the legislature and feel that they're being listened to. The second is the executive or the cabinet is not based on just one party, like in Britain or the US; the party that wins forms the cabinet. No, in the consensual system, it's made up of all the different parties. And so the type of democracy is not meant to be adversarial but consensual. In addition, there are certain powers that are devolved to the ethnic groups. Instead of devolving power to federal units, you're devolving power to groups. Rights to language, perhaps, would be one.
- 6.49** Then you have an emphasis on proportional employment. Northern Ireland has the 50/50 policing, Catholic-Protestant recruitment. Similarly, in other countries, it might be the civil service must reflect the population, or government spending must be proportional to the groups in the population. There's a lot of attention to fairness between groups in a consociational system. Sometimes you have the idea that you have a veto. Minorities can veto legislation; and in the Northern Ireland assembly, there's a threshold amount. No legislation can pass just on the votes of one community. There has to be a certain proportion of both communities that accept legislation for it to go forward. And that provides a check against legislation that can be seen as discriminating against one of the groups. Of course, the whole point of this is to prevent groups that feel discriminated against from losing trust in the system than trying to overthrow the system through civil war.
- 6.50** In terms of the success rate of consociationalism, again, it's tricky to know what would have happened if Lebanon decided to do first-past-the-post. We can't be sure what the result would be, so it's not a perfect science. We can look at the history of certain countries. We can say, well, Lebanon's had civil war from 1975 to the early '90s, and then there was a flare-up in 2006, and now we've got problems still there in Lebanon. Same with Syria. Now, is that because of the consociational system? The question is, what is the alternative? Is it for the Christians to control the country, which was sort of how it was? Is it for the Shia or the Sunni to control the country? That would arguably be worse. It's not easy to do a partition, either. In societies where you have these

intermingled ethnic groups, and group identities are really important for people in the way they vote, then this may be the only option.

- 6.51** But there are strong criticisms as well. People who say, well, this is entrenched in ethnic identity and ethnic politics in Lebanon. One of the problems you now have is you've got these ethnic elites who are making deals amongst themselves, but neglecting the poor and the working class within each of the ethnic groups. So they get left out. And we have a dysfunctional, corrupt elite. Even though it's multi-ethnic, it's a multi-ethnic corrupt elite in Lebanon because there's no real competition. Because one of the virtues of the first-past-the-post system is you have competition between parties on policies, whereas in a consensual system, it's smoke-filled rooms and deals stitched up. That is a criticism. But the other side of the equation is, well, what's the alternative? If you were to go for first-past-the-post in an adversarial system in Lebanon, you might be inviting violence.
- 6.52** Just getting to the last few slides here then, in terms of which constitutional and political design to adopt for democracies in a divided society—I mean, part of this is based on the pattern of ethnic groups in your society and how important ethnicity is for people's voting patterns. In terms of, for example, if you have mainly immigrant groups, then assimilation and integration becomes more of a possibility. If the society is mainly made up of indigenous, what are called primary ethnic groups, and that's most of the world—if it's mainly primary ethnic groups, then assimilation is much more difficult and will be resisted and contested. Almost every rebel movement, civil war, is driven in some way by a primary ethnic group, rather than a secondary or immigrant diaspora. Partly it depends on whether groups are indigenous or immigrant, but also partly depends on whether groups are territorially clustered, perhaps in India, perhaps in Nigeria, or whether they are intermingled, like in Lebanon and Northern Ireland.
- 6.53** We'll just look at a few cases here. Britain, where the groups are territorially located, at least the indigenous groups are territorially located, Scotland is over 80% ethnically Scottish, for example. Wales is not as homogeneously Welsh, but still, because of the territorial concentration, secession or partition is a possibility. Whereas Northern Ireland, that's not the case; the groups are too intermingled. Canada, again, is an interesting case where the English are in most of the country, east and west. Quebec, where the French are located, is compact territorially. You can imagine a secession in Quebec coming off all right and being democratic.
- 6.54** But on the other hand, that northern two-thirds of Quebec are indigenous-speaking or English-speaking. The immediate question that is raised with a Quebec secession is whether that northern two-thirds, which was only granted in 1912, should have the right to secede from Quebec. And that, again, leads to potential prospect of multiple secessions, or recurrent secessions, as groups secede from groups that have seceded and so on and so forth. So again, it depends. You can use federalism where groups are territorially concentrated, but not where they're intermingled.

- 6.55** Another example we can look at is Sudan. There was a secession. South Sudan was created as a new country and accepted into the United Nations as a recognized country. But within South Sudan, we have a range of different ethnic groups, and that has meant, well, has been the basis for a lot of civil war within South Sudan, which has a lot of the risk factors associated with civil war, such as very low income and challenging topography. What is the solution? A partition doesn't necessarily solve the problem. Having said that, there's no question there was a lot of repression from the Sudanese regime against the South Sudanese. Maybe it solved one problem, but then there is another, perhaps a vacuum of authority that is created in South Sudan, and that's behind a lot of the conflict going on there.
- 6.56** Iraq, a tricky case. We've got certain parts of Iraq, where the ethnic groups are territorially compact. Much of the Kurdish region, but not all of it. So you have places like Kirkuk, which are ethnically mixed. So it's difficult to easily impose a federal solution in Iraq. So there was some attempt, really, there to have a combination of certain federal powers with certain non-territorial federal elements, or consociational elements, in the Iraqi peace plan as well. And again, that's determined by whether ethnic groups are regionally concentrated or whether they're intermingled.
- 6.57** There's also other factors, of course, that will come into play, such as the location of oil resources. There's always a tension between drawing the borders around where your ethnic group is located and wanting to take more land, even if you don't have co-ethnics on it. So in both the case of Northern Ireland and Lebanon, Lebanon, the dominant, the ethnic majority, used to be Christian, and their view was, "Well, what is the maximum amount of territory that we can hold?" And similarly in Northern Ireland. Now, of course, there's been ethnic shifting in both of those societies since, which makes it more complicated. Nigeria, a case where groups are territorially located, but once you created those federal units, there are always cut-off minorities within the federal units, and that can create antagonism as well.
- 6.58** Just in terms of the condition for the success of democracy in deeply divided multi-ethnic societies, one is, to what extent are the groups territorially compact and separate so that you can create federal units? To what extent is there an ethnic majority that is demographically dominant enough that it could be a little bit flexible and a little bit more generous and not insisting on completely the same privileges as the other groups?
- 6.59** Demographic stability. If the groups are not shifting in composition, then it's easier to maintain a system. The problem in Lebanon is that you had a decrease in the Christian share from two-thirds down to something like 20 or 30%. And the Sunni population first increased because of Palestinian refugees, and then the Shia population increased due to higher birth rates. And so you had a change in the proportion. So the Shia were saying, "Well, we don't have as much representation as our numbers warrant because we're now a larger group than we were when Lebanon was founded." Northern Ireland,

too, the shift from about two-thirds Protestant to about 50-50 has also been part of the reason for instability in Northern Ireland.

- 6.60 There are also other factors that can make it easier to make a society work, such as a history of political cooperation between groups and also cross-cutting cleavages. So Switzerland, for example, is very multi-ethnic. It's got Italian speakers, German speakers, French speakers, Romansh speakers, but there are other cross-cutting dimensions. So the Protestant-Catholic divide cut through both the German and the French areas. So you had French Protestants and German Protestants, and French Catholics and German Catholics. And so this cross-cutting cleavage effect tends to weaken the separatism of the different ethnic groups.
- 6.61 Or it could be an ideological divide between, say, socialists and liberals. So if you have these kinds of cross-cutting cleavages, that can make it easier. And so if we think of even a contemporary situation like the US and people say, "well, this is a very divided society," and it is very divided ideologically, but there's also an ethnic or racial cleavage, which to some degree cross-cuts the ideological divide. That means that the US is not as at risk of conflict as it would be if there was just one cleavage. So if all the Democrats were non-white and all of the Republicans were white, then you'd have a riskier situation, for example. But because you've got Democrats and Republicans in both groups, for the most part, then you have that cross-cut, which reduces the instability. Thank you very much.
- 6.62 Integration and assimilation seem to be a pertinent issue in the West. So especially even in Russia, actually, we saw something like the forced assimilation of Russian-speaking natives, for example. And you said it's not something that's researched at the moment. I was wondering, that's also something that's not spoken about in the media very much. Is that because of career-ending possibilities or emotional reasons? Or what was exactly going on there?
- 6.63 Yeah, I think that amongst a lot of the sociologists who study questions of ethnic relations and ethnic processes, I think there's probably an ideological commitment to multiculturalism, for example, that means that they would tend to frown on assimilation. That's not all. I mean, I used the example of Rogers Brubaker and Richard Alba, but they would be very rare. So any emphasis on similarity, as opposed to difference, is—I wouldn't say it's completely out of bounds, but the furthest you can get is some emphasis on some kind of political integration and economic integration, which is often framed as getting rid of discrimination, that that's basically what integration is, rather than actually considering things such as reducing segregation, encouraging intermarriage, or perhaps some form of assimilation.
- 6.64 And so what Alba and Brubaker are talking about is voluntary assimilation. Just removing barriers to voluntary assimilation is not the same thing as saying you can't speak other languages in the school ground or that you must change your surname. So there's a tendency there to conflate the voluntary forms, liberal forms, with the more

authoritarian forms. And again, there is this predilection towards multiculturalism in academia.

- 6.65 In the arbitration process where an external arbitrator comes in, there's a leader who is obviously put in to bring the peace. In the case, let's say, Israel and Palestine. Would you say that, during this process, in the instance of these different countries trusting a different arbitrator, will in some way have an influence in their foreign policy in the future, which will then have an impact and bring about the same situation that has happened, which is the war in this case?
- 6.66 Yeah. An influence on the foreign policy of Israel? Would the arbiter influence the foreign policy of Israel? Yes. The relationship between the protagonist in the conflict and the external arbiter does reflect certain ties. Those might be cultural ties, shared ideology or shared culture. The Serbs, for example, are Orthodox. They trusted the Russians. So there can be different ties that lead to bonds of affection between different protagonists. So in that sense, the natural ally, perhaps of Israel, is more likely to be the US than other countries.
- 6.67 And going forward, that would probably mean that Israel would— its foreign policy would be one that isn't going to be too antagonistic to the American foreign policy because maybe the Americans have some pressure that they can exert on Israel. And so if Israel charts a foreign policy where they cozy up to Iran—I mean, that's impossible. But let's just say the Russians or China, then that would be, the Americans would protest. I think, yeah, the US may be able to have an impact on Israel's foreign policy because of these ties. Those are the same ties that allow Israel to trust the US as an arbiter. It's almost like the existence of the ties explains both the arbitration relationship and also the foreign policy influence. That's how I would see this.

Lecture 7: Evolution of the Nation-State

At a glance — Evolution of the nation-state.

- 7.1** In this lecture I want to speak about the rise of the modern state. The world is now subdivided into almost 200 sovereign nation-states, and those states have certain properties. They have very delineated borders. They are often centralized in terms of tax collecting and public spending. And very often, they'll have a currency, common currency, common laws, that apply across the territory. One of the questions that I want to ask today is to look historically and to say, how did we get to this particular setup we have now? Another feature of today's nation-states is that they are nations that appeal to patriotism, and that the entire citizenry is involved in the nation-state, not just a small elite.
- 7.2** There are a number of different features of today's nation-states, and we want to ask, first of all, how did we get here? Second part of the question is whether the nation-state form can be superseded in the future, because if it's contingent on a certain accident of history, on a certain confluence of factors, then it's also possible that if that confluence of factors changes, maybe the nation-state will go out of fashion in favor of empires or city-states or something else.
- 7.3** We want to look at the broad sweep of history. This is a more historical topic, the rise of the modern state. We're going to go way back to those hunter-gatherer bands we talked about when we were talking about Steven Pinker's work on war and how we've seen a decline of violence from the hunter-gatherer band through the Middle Ages and into the modern period. Similarly, what we're talking about here is political evolution, and it's similar to biological evolution in a way. We can use an analogy, a move from a single-celled organism, which are our ancient ancestors, and eventually we move to complex organisms such as ourselves, where each organ has a specialized function, liver, heart, et cetera, and it's multicellular, much more complex and therefore can do a lot more things.
- 7.4** Similarly, you could argue with the state moving from the hunter-gatherer band through to empires and city-states and nation-states. These get more complex. Societies and politics become more complex with specialization, not just everybody hunting and gathering, but you have people who are blacksmiths, people who are rulers, religious specialists, military specialists. By specializing, you're able to create more resources and wealth in a society, and also military power. So the more complex states are able to defeat the simpler states. An empire can defeat hunter-gatherer bands quite easily.
- 7.5** Looking at political evolution, we want to look at various arguments for why the political organization of human societies has moved in the direction that it has. There are a number of features here. One is that the scale, moving from a small hunter-

gatherer band to something very big, like an empire. Centralization of power, not just many different clans, but a central ruler, central state. The participation of the population, not just a tiny elite with slaves or peasants, but actually everybody participating in politics as a voter, for example, being able to read, not just a small number of people being able to read, but everybody.

- 7.6 And one of the questions is, what is it that's driving this evolution? Is it, as Marxists would claim, changes in the mode of economic production, from hunting and gathering to agriculture to industrial capitalism? Is it changes in culture? The so-called Axial Age, when we see around 0 AD, we see the rise of Christianity and rise of Buddhism and the rise of other religions, roughly within several hundred years of this, or the Reformation, Protestant Reformation, or the Enlightenment. These sorts of cultural shifts, are they really the key to explaining the evolution of political organization? Or is it about military hard power and technology, weapons that can shoot straighter, faster, with greater impact, the efficiency of killing, going up with new military technology?
- 7.7 Or is it political institutions? So the rise of, for example, a bureaucracy that is picked not because they are related to you, but because they actually have skills that they demonstrate in an exam, perhaps. So a more meritocratic bureaucracy. What is it that's driving the evolution of the political organization to get us to the modern state? We'll also, along the way, look at a number of other factors, including this question of national identity and patriotism, which actually wasn't always there, but is there in certain kinds of forms of political organization and not in others.
- 7.8 In terms of some of the critical forces that are at work in this process of evolution, one is that, in this evolutionary battle, let's just say, if it's the case that a bigger unit defeats a smaller unit because it can marshal more resources or it can specialize and create more advanced technologies, you're going to see an evolution of the system towards bigger and bigger political units. That would lead to the decline of hunter-gatherer bands and the emergence of these bigger entities. But sometimes, maybe, the big entity is like an empire; it's too big and it's unwieldy, so then decompose into smaller states. There are all kinds of evolutionary pressures that could lead us towards the size of unit that we have today, which is generally smaller than an empire, bigger than a city-state, and certainly bigger than a hunter-gatherer band.
- 7.9 We also have very economic and status dynamics within these societies between ruler and ruled. How much of a division and how much specialization between, say, the rulers and different groups of producers within a society? And related to this first question of warfare, to some degree, warfare is what leads to evolution. So whichever size and organization of unit is more militarily successful is likely to evolve and become the norm. And then what that can mean is that, functionally, that is in terms of what makes sense to survive in this evolutionary battle, which is really much of human history, is a kind of anarchic battle between these different entities since there wasn't international law. Largely, this was about "might makes right," in a way.

- 7.10** And maybe certain visionaries were able to say, actually, if we unite the tribes here in Arabia or in Switzerland or Ireland, if we unite these tribes, we're going to have better luck against the empire that's trying to crush us. And so maybe somebody got people together and said, "We've got to unite to resist the threat from Rome, from the Habsburgs, or whatever." So that could be a functionalist argument that it simply makes sense to expand the scale of political cooperation.
- 7.11** I also want to talk about a number of theories of political evolution. One theory is that of the mid-20th-century American sociologist, Talcott Parsons. We've already encountered briefly when talking about functionalism and where politics fits in amongst biology, chemistry, on the one hand, and sociology, economics, and other factors on the other. But what I want to look at is this evolutionary theory of Talcott Parsons to explain that shift from very simple societies to complex societies. Parsons took the analogy of the organism evolving, becoming increasingly specialized and interdependent. And he foresaw a general pattern of cultural and political evolution, a shift from ascribed identities to more achieved and meritocratic identities, from particularity to universality, and from the group to the individual.
- 7.12** Now, that's been criticized for essentially embodying certain kinds of American liberal capitalist biases. We can have that debate, but is that influencing this theory or not? But the argument is, therefore, there is a general movement of history, almost in a way, through this process of evolution. Parsons had 6 evolutionary universals he argued that societies went through as they became more complex and developed. These are social stratification, cultural legitimation, bureaucratic administration, money and markets, generalized legal system, and democracy. So I'll just talk through these six steps. Now, other writers had their own evolutionary steps. So Marxism has primitive, slave, feudal, capitalist, socialist. Again, seen in evolutionary terms, society is moving through these steps and that they must go through these steps as they evolve.
- 7.13** To talk a bit about Parsons' evolutionary steps, so the first step is social stratification. That's moving from a hunter-gatherer society where everyone's totally equal. They all hunt or gather. Typically, the women are more likely to gather, the men more likely to hunt, to a system of social stratification, where you have a group of people who don't hunt and gather. Maybe they're thinking about how to make war, improve technology. Maybe they're religious specialists. Parsons would argue that that social stratification is very important because you can't get a more advanced society without some kind of hierarchy. You need hierarchy, actually, in order to advance. And so the perfectly equal hunter-gatherer stage is not particularly conducive to evolution and advancement in political terms.
- 7.14** So social stratification occurs first with certain more stratified, still hunter-gatherer, but more stratified tribes, and then ultimately, agricultural civilizations, where you have the accumulation of surpluses, maybe through storing of grain resources. And that accumulation of wealth means the accumulation of a kind of capital, which then allows

for investment. Rulers who can then think , "OK, if we get everybody to cooperate in an irrigation system, we can increase the agricultural yield. We need policing. We need eventually law codes." All of this generation comes out of having a group of people that aren't required to constantly be hunting and gathering, or farming. They can pay attention to forms of innovation that can improve the society.

- 7.15 Cultural legitimation, again, is another step in Parsons' evolutionary schema , and that really refers to religious legitimation of the existing political order. Why do these aristocrats and kings or queens get to rule? Why are there religious specialists and scribes who don't have to work in the fields like the rest of us? Well, if there's a religious explanation, then that will be accepted by the population more easily. And so that will help to legitimate the social order and the political order. Now, of course, it may legitimate a very unequal order, which can include slavery, but the argument is that this is necessary in some ways for societies to be stable and develop new technologies and advance down that evolutionary track.
- 7.16 Bureaucratic administration, step three, which is really referring to the kind of meritocratic recruitment into the bureaucracy that really is invented in China with the Chinese civil service examination. That is a Chinese innovation, which is subsequently taken up by Western countries as we enter into the 18th century. And so a shift from nepotism and clientelism and loyalties that are based on family ties and relatedness to the most talented people being promoted in the bureaucracies, and bureaucratization of the societies, a standardized set of rules within the bureaucracy.
- 7.17 Step four is money and markets, the development of money and markets. The Roman Empire , and a number of these civilizations, developed coinage . And money, that's a medium of exchange that smooths commerce. It's a store of value. It really allows the market to develop, and trade to develop more easily, as compared to a barter system. So the money and markets stage is very important for societies to gain wealth and complexity .
- 7.18 Then step five is having a common legal system. There was Roman law. There are different legal systems that develop as well that are standardized based on certain general principles. There's a difference between those that are universalist, principle-based legal systems coming out of that Roman law tradition, which has influenced continental European law more. Then there's the English common law tradition, which is more based on precedent and particularity . That's a different, a different trajectory of legal development.
- 7.19 Then the last stage was democracy, and that's, again, been criticized to some degree. Is this necessarily an evolutionary step, or is this, again, influenced by an American liberal democratic capitalist view of the world? Maybe, maybe not, but that's certainly not a stage that would be in the Marxist schema, for example. Marx has a different schema. It starts with primitive, which equates to hunter-gatherer stages, moving to feudal, capitalist, and then socialist. But the difference in Marx is that Marxism very much

posits the economy, the mode of production, as the key. So changes in the techno-economic, what they would call, the Marxists would call, the base of society, that always comes first. So, culture doesn't really matter that much. Culture is kind of a second-order byproduct of the system. It's not something that changes the system.

7.20 And also Marxism isn't really about military technology and war driving the system either. That's not really central to the Marxist schema. The Marxist schema argues that everything derives from the economic changes. So the shift from hunting and gathering to agriculture to industrial capitalism is central to their understanding of political evolution. They're very focused on conflicts between different social strata in the society, which are associated with occupations. So the working-class industrial laborers, the capitalists who are the owners of capital, the conflict between those two driving forth—through the contradictions between these, we then see the emergence of a new higher-level society coming out of that conflict.

7.21 The view is that ideologies are largely there to justify the privileges of the dominant class. An ideology like religion or nationalism is strictly there as a form of so-called false consciousness in order to legitimate the capitalist system, to divide the working class of the world. That would be the understanding of culture. So culture is actually secondary. It's not what drives change within the Marxist understanding. Now, there are then, so we've talked about the Parsonian model, the Marxist model. You then have those who say, actually, war and warfare is really key to understanding how we see the evolution of states. This is about fighting off challengers to your land, to your power, learning to exploit your internal resources to defend or expand and conquer others.

7.22 It's a conquest and defense model. Smaller units are simply not able to survive in this evolutionary race. They're not adaptive, initially. Very small units like bands are not adaptive. There have been studies of early states that found that the vast majority were formed by a small unit conquering other units to form something bigger through conquest, or the mobilization, such as a confederation of tribes, to unite into a bigger group to resist the threat from another. That would suggest that certainly the scaling-up that occurs as we move from the hunter-gatherer band to the empire, and to some extent, the city-state, that that is partly an adaptation based upon military threats and dynamics.

7.23 Charles Tilly, his theories very much are based on this idea of warfare as very important. It's about conquering others to extract resources, which may include human resources, people to be used as slaves, or perhaps to be incorporated into your military. I mean, this is a strategy of many polities. The Ottoman Empire going into the Balkans, taking slaves, which the Janissaries could form a military corps within the Ottoman Empire. That's one example. If you look at the Bible, for example, there's a lot of talk about the Jews being enslaved by the major civilizations that existed at the time. That was very common. Empires conquering new areas, almost digesting the populations into themselves as slaves, as soldiers, et cetera.

- 7.24 It also involved neutralizing divisions within the territory, within your polity, so you would have to have policing plus a military. And that's getting us towards the definition of the state, which is the monopoly on the use of force within a particular territory, which means you've pacified internally and you've got a military that can defend or expand your territory and resources. There are then authors such as Michael Mann who says, "Well, we can't reduce everything to economics the way the Marxists do." It's not necessarily only about military evolution of technology. It's also not only about culture or about bureaucratization. Change can come from any one of these four sources.
- 7.25 So there are four potential sources of social power, and they interact, and it's impossible to reduce the story just to one of these forces. They are interacting, and at different times, it may be that the Reformation, which is a cultural development, led to literacy. That maybe is very important in explaining developments in the 1500s, 1600s, and so forth. But at other times, perhaps, the development of industrial capitalism, maybe that was very important in the late 18th, early 19th centuries. So it just depends which era and which part of the world as to what is driving, in a way, political and social evolution.
- 7.26 And so there's a question as we move from lower levels of complexity to higher levels of complexity, from the tribe to the state, how that happens. I mean, one way it happens internally is you get a degree of social stratification within a particular tribe. So a certain clan might become the dominant clan, and the rulers may be drawn from that dominant clan or lineage. So that is the beginning of phase one in the Parsons model of social stratification. And then, out of that, perhaps you then get a certain degree of efficiency as the dominant clan can maybe think about war, technology, irrigation, and other innovations that can improve the evolutionary fitness of a particular political unit.
- 7.27 Another question that's important to ask in relation to the modern nation-state is how much patriotism existed in these early societies. To what extent did the mass of the population participate, or was it only a tiny elite that participated? That seems to vary over time. The warrior bands that sacked the Roman Empire are sometimes used as an example of groups where you had, large-scale, a patriotism where everybody felt part of the warrior band. For example, the Visigoths, they were a group that sacked Rome. There were other groups as well, the Alans, the Vandals. These groups involved, typically, up to tens of thousands of individuals. You had large-scale movements of groups that were involved in attacking the Roman Empire. They had a certain degree of social stratification, but they also had that sense of group identification as well. That's one of the precursors to what then becomes patriotism that we see in the contemporary nation-state.
- 7.28 It's the case that these groups did have common languages and cultures, and it's the case that the groups that spoke related languages probably fused more easily. But it is also true that groups with vastly different languages were able to ally. There was an

alliance between the Persian-speaking Alans and the Germanic-speaking Vandals when they were attacking the North African bits of the Roman Empire. So that showed that cultural commonality plays some role, but it's not a deal-breaker when it comes to a common political identity. This is one of the questions that continually pops up, is whether an entity like an empire, which has many groups and languages, can be effective, or whether you need something that is a bit more homogenous to be effective. Homogenous in terms of culture and identity.

- 7.29** What about centralization? There's a move to a more centralized system over time , although not linearly. There are periods of decentralization and periods of centralization. It seems as though one of the benefits to centralization is pooling resources. If you take some of the complex chiefdoms like the Zulus, the Irish, or the Swiss, what they did is they bring together a confederation of different tribes, pooling resources so that they are stronger and can resist or conquer their neighbors. The motive for centralization is to pool resources and manpower in order to be more effective, again, in this evolutionary race against other civilizations.
- 7.30** What about the mass of the population? The mass of the population, the peasantry, the working class—to what extent are they involved in the state, or are they simply producers living their local lives? When it comes to discussing the rise of the nation, for example, the people who say, "Well, the Hungarian nation has existed back to Attila the Hun, goes back thousands of years," others say, "No, the nation only emerges when everybody can read and there's newspapers and there's mass conscription, and there are other factors that are only arriving in the modern era , post-1789." There are different views of when the mass of the population started to feel attached to something like a nation.
- 7.31** One of the arguments is that, prior to mass literacy and mass communications, this sense of patriotism didn't exist. The people were very rooted to a local village, and they didn't really have a sense of the broader political identity. You had different empires and you had shifting elites. Maybe one elite conquered another elite, but the peasantry were just there being ruled over by different groups and just living their local lives without a sense of identity to the nation overall . That's another question we need to consider, is how do we get to a position now where there is this thing called national identity, and the masses are involved in it, and they have a consciousness of being American, Japanese, Tanzanian, et cetera ?
- 7.32** The argument is that, in the premodern era, the mass of the population were producers, but they were not, for example, in the military, because militaries were typically made up of mercenaries hired from elsewhere and not made up of citizens. The concept of citizen was alien to the premodern state. So you had foreign mercenaries , partly because you didn't want to give your peasants guns, or not guns, but depending on which era we're talking about, you didn't want to arm them, or they might turn those weapons on you and overthrow you. So the principle here was that,

well, we'll hire specialists, mercenaries, rather than arm our own citizenry . And also, the social structure of society was such that you looked very much down on the peasants, that there wasn't much fellow feeling necessarily between the elites and the peasants. And because of that lack of fellow feeling, you didn't necessarily want to have a shared identity with them.

7.33 OK, I just want to talk through then some of the evolutionary stages in terms of political organization. If we talk about the Roman Empire, the early Arab empires such as the Umayyads or even the Mughal Empire, which comes in later in the 1500s in India, these empires were in many ways quite successful. It's said that it's not until the 1700s that the West achieved the same economic level that the Roman Empire had achieved. So these early imperial states, some of them were very successful. What are the features of those imperial states? They're agricultural civilizations. They are quite centralized in the figure of the Emperor in Rome or Constantinople, for example. Very hierarchical. Clearly, you have specialists, religious specialists, military specialists, and administrative specialists.

7.34 Very cosmopolitan in most cases. And what I mean by that is that you had many different groups of people living in the empire, and often, in many cases, even running the empire. The Roman emperors came from many different backgrounds, especially as we move into the late Roman Empire. So they might be from North Africa; they might be from present-day Turkey, many parts of the empire. And so there wasn't necessarily this concept of attachment to territory and a people. This notion of the people descended from particular ancestors living in a particular territory, that wasn't necessarily there in these early imperial states. The Assyrian Empire would conquer other peoples , and they would export the people they conquered back into the heartland cities of the Assyrian Empire. So clearly, these heartlands were becoming very mixed based on all the peoples that these empires had conquered. Very little mass participation, and slavery was standard in these empires.

7.35 Moving in Europe into the feudal period, in the period from the fall of Rome up until the rise of absolutist states in the 1600s, we have this period marked by a decentralization of power. The collapse of the Roman Empire meant power flowed down to principalities and smaller states. And therefore, under feudalism, you may have had entities that called themselves an empire, like the Holy Roman Empire. The joke is, it's neither holy nor Roman, nor an empire. But the Holy Roman Empire then actually is a very loosely organized, highly decentralized entity. In this highly decentralized entity, cities and principalities had a lot of actually the power, including the military power.

7.36 You had city walls, typically, to protect particular principalities. And in between these small states, if you like, these cities, in between them, it was very hazardous. You had highwaymen who would rob you if you tried to travel. There was no authority that would police the wilderness between these settlements. So there's no real nation-state

authority. It was anarchic between these units. In common with the early empires, there was very little mass participation. There was a high degree of hierarchy, for example. We then move on to a period of consolidation. After you have the Roman Empire or other empires, they decompose into smaller principalities and units, maybe nominally under the Holy Roman Empire. But then you get a reaggregation that occurs. Why does it occur? And this is, again, an area of dispute.

- 7.37** Does it occur because we get the beginnings of capitalism and industrial capitalism? Does it occur because there is new military technology, such as artillery, which can blast through city walls and make—so if you're going with a military explanation, the new artillery renders the city wall out of date. It also means you've got to consolidate into something larger in order to be militarily successful and repel invasion. That's a military explanation. Now, you could also go with an economic explanation that says, well, we have a vast importation of silver and gold from the Americas, after the Age of Exploration, coming into Europe. That's perhaps a stimulus to the development, ultimately, of industrial capitalism.
- 7.38** Industrial capitalism requires a larger market that requires common weights and measures, common currencies, common property rights and laws. So all of these things follow from the economic change. That's maybe more of a Marxist type of argument. That is, the economy and the economic change is most important in explaining political evolution. Whether we take that military argument or the economic argument, or perhaps the cultural argument later with regard to the Reformation, which then leads to the wars of religion and the Treaty of Westphalia, which matches religion to state, and perhaps that's the beginning of the road towards the nation-state. There is also a cultural explanation that we can use as well. Michael Mann would say all of these things matter, and you can't simply focus only on one of these forces as driving history.
- 7.39** We move to a more patrimonial, centralized situation in which states become—you get a centralization of power into larger units. There are a number of characteristics that accompany this centralization and expansion of scale, including the building of roads, the policing, the policing of large areas. So it's no longer bandit country between settlements. Standardization of weights and measures, that helps with trade. There's also the question of language, by the way. Prior to the age of the modern nation-state, you may have had radically different dialects as you move from place to place. Even understanding people, understanding contracts, might not have been so simple. All of these things are helped by standardization. That's pushing us towards a setup in which we have a standardized coinage, laws, language, and that means more something like the nation-state.
- 7.40** Maybe the nation-state is more efficient because it provides a lot of things that a modern industrial economy needs. Now, we have other forms of political organization. I've talked about the industrial nation-state, but there's also the agricultural empires. Then we have city-states which occupy a distinct niche. You can go back to ancient

Athens, Sparta, ancient Rome, as examples of city-states. City-states are quite distinctive in a number of ways. Sometimes, especially as we get into the Middle Ages, city-states arise to conduct trade between major agricultural empires. So they are positioned between agricultural empires, and they are often centers of banking, for example, in northern Italy or in the Low Countries, places where manufacturing takes place, textiles, weaponry.

- 7.41** And so city-states occupy a new niche in the system as we get into the Middle Ages. And they are led not by a king, typically, but by some kind of a patrician elite who run the city. Now, one of the interesting things about the city-states is they do have this concept of patriotism, the idea of patria. That comes out of the city-state, not out of the empire. So the concept of citizenry, democracy, patriotism, that's linked to the early city-states. In a way, our nation-states are just a scaling-up of some of those properties from city-states to a larger scale. A lot of these ideas around popular sovereignty, citizenship, democracy, come from the age, or come from city-states. It's not coincidental that Athens and some of the ancient Greek ideas and early Roman ideas, these are city-states, and some of these ideas of democracy are incubated in city-states.
- 7.42** Those city-states occur also in the trading cities of the Middle Ages, the Ständestaat. These are city league like the Hanseatic League in the Baltic. Germany, up near the Baltic. These preserve some of the features of the Holy Roman Empire and feudalism in that there's a certain decentralization and different weights and measures and so on. But there's a growth in the urban bourgeoisie and in this sort of, a growth in capitalism and trade, which is a precursor to what comes later. However, it's still the case that in those city leagues, there isn't necessarily a strong degree of patriotism, a sense of citizenship and democracy. There isn't really that dimension yet.
- 7.43** You have a number of different actors in these systems that determine how they develop. In England, for example, you had the king, the nobility, and the mass of the population. One of the reasons that you get the emergence of democracy in England is because the nobility sought to assert their privileges against the king. That's where the whole concept of the rights of man and liberalism comes from, is the nobles asserting their rights as Englishmen against the king. That then becomes expanded. Instead of just—they would never have thought of the mass of the population of England having these rights. It was just the rights of the nobles, several thousand people. But then that becomes the germ of an idea that then can become expanded to encompass all of the population of England. A lot of these ideas started at a small scale like the city-state—patriotism, democracy, liberalism—and then they became expanded out as the scale increased.
- 7.44** I'm going to take the story into the age of absolutism, the rise of the absolutist state, epitomized by the France of Louis XIV, the Court at Versailles, which these are heavily centralized states, unlike the period in the Middle Ages, where you had that

decentralization of power. The absolute estate, much more centralized, is maybe involved in voyages of exploration to the New World, funding the mercantilist adventures of the French, for example, in the Americas and elsewhere. There is perhaps a growing sense of identification with the state, a kind of incipient patriotism. Now, that's debated by many scholars. Some would say, no, there was no French nation in 1600. That didn't exist. Others would say, well, wait a minute. Look at the rivalry between England and France in various parts of the world. There was clearly a sense of patriotism. In the courts, we can see this rivalry with the English. How can you say there's no sense of national identity?

- 7.45 Maybe a compromised position is to say that the elites in England and France had a competition, had national identity, but maybe the mass of the population in the countryside didn't really understand that they were part of this thing called England or part of this thing called France. It's very hard to know because no one can conduct surveys and anthropological studies of the French peasantry in 1600 to know what they thought. They were illiterate. They didn't write things down. The only people who wrote things down were elites, and so we only know what elites thought. Now, elites could sometimes talk about the feelings of the peasants, but they didn't tend to do that too much. We don't have a very good idea of how the typical peasant thought about themselves and their political identification.
- 7.46 There are just a number of slides here showing the court of Louis XIV at Versailles, circa the year 1700, a classic example of an absolutist state that was very much engaged in competition with other states in Europe, such as England or such as Spain at the time. The notion of who had power in absolutist France, it was very clear that everything centered on the Sun King, Louis XIV. That meant that, what was the basis of the legitimacy of that regime was that Louis XIV claimed the right to rule from God. So the divine right of the king to rule came from God. It didn't come from being a representative of the people. There was no popular sovereignty, nothing like what comes with the French Revolution, nearly 100 years later.
- 7.47 Sovereignty accrues to the monarch as a representative of God on Earth, and that is the basis of legitimation. It's a religious legitimacy for power rather than a nationalist legitimacy for power, and it doesn't really invoke the nation-state. Now, that's not to say that there wasn't a narrative about France, and the history of France, and France against its enemies. There arguably still was a sense of national identity, even though the masses were not allowed to participate in running politics in France. This gets to a debate between two schools of thought. One school of thought that says there was a sense of national identification in the pre-modern period, and the other school of thought that says there was no such identity.
- 7.48 This second group, one of those in that second group, would be a sociologist by the name of Ernest Gellner, or Anthony Giddens would be another name in this group of scholars. What they would argue is that what you tended to see prior to the French

Revolution was strata of elites. This would have been the nobility, the clerics within the Catholic hierarchy , for example, nobility and warriors. They identified with a religion like Christianity , which was universal, or they identified with Islam. So that's not restricted to a particular piece of territory. It's centered on a holy city like Rome, for example, or perhaps like Constantinople, sorry, Istanbul.

7.49 So you would have this imperial city with this universal religion. And these cosmopolitan elites were quite happy to marry across language lines. They didn't care so much what your language was and whether you were of this ethnic background or that ethnic background. What mattered for them was the status of being elite. So that's all they cared about. If you were elite and you had the same religion, then you were OK in a way in this system. So they had these kind of broad, very cosmopolitan —when I say cosmopolitan, I mean identities that are not particularistic, but are based on universal faiths, like Islam or Christianity that are very big. They're identifying with all of Christendom, all of the Dar al-Islam , the very large entities.

7.50 Then you have the peasants who are living in their villages who speak dialects that are maybe hard to understand , even several hundred miles away. And they never leave their village or wander very far from it. And they have no conception of the nation, in any way. That is the social structure and the identity structure of the premodern period, according to what are known as modernist theorists of nationalism. Against that are those who say, well, actually, we can see in the writings of a lot of the elites of this time a very pronounced national consciousness. And so the only question is how far down the social scale that national consciousness went. And in fact, the word nation derives from Latin and was used in Rome. The word *ethnos* for ethnicity comes from ancient Greek, which was used. So these have long lineages, and there's a lot of mention of nations and peoples in the Bible and by elites.

7.51 So clearly, there is evidence then for some sense of premodern national identity, but there are some evidence of people who've gone into these local villages and found that the locals really knew nothing about the history of France, let's say. People in a Breton village, when asked, "When was the French Revolution?", they would say, "Oh, yes, a long time ago." There is evidence that, in fact, these villagers and these provincials really didn't have a sense of national identity. So there's merit to both of these arguments .

7.52 And finally, we then, we've talked through the patrimonial empires , the city-states. We entered into a decentralized feudal period, recentralizing into the absolutist state. And then finally, we get to the modern nation-state, which has a number of characteristics. It has the same centralization that you got in the early empires like Rome, but it has a number of features that you find in the city-states, such as a sense of patriotism and citizen participation. It's a combination of features that you find in empires and city-states. But in terms of scale, most modern nation-states are smaller than those large, sprawling empires . They're also more culturally homogenous than the older empires.

7.53 One of the questions we might ask is, is this the final, is this the end of history, the final form of human political organization? Or are we likely to be moving towards either something larger, so regional blocs like the European Union, for example, or ASEAN, if we take Asia, or are we going to be moving to something smaller, like a modern version of city-states? And that's a question that we can talk about more when we talk about globalization in the next lecture. Thank you.

Lecture 8: Navigating Globalization

At a glance — Navigating globalization.

- 8.1** Welcome. So last time we talked about the evolution of human political organization, from the hunter-gatherer band through to large agricultural empires like Rome, through feudalism, to the absolutist state, and then the modern nation-state, along the way detouring and talking about city-states as well. And just at the end, we touched upon the possibility of superseding the nation-state to perhaps moving towards something bigger or smaller as a new form of human political organization. So today, what I want to address is this whole question of globalization. Is globalization really spelling the end of the contemporary nation-state? And are we going to be moving into a global world, or at least something that is larger than the nation-state?
- 8.2** Let's just talk about globalization. Globalization is a very new word. The term globalism and globalization only date from 1960, though the word global is 400 years old, but the word cosmopolitanism is much, much older. And there are cosmopolitan philosophers from ancient Greece, for example, and so the Cynics and Stoics, for example. The idea of cosmopolitanism means "the world is my city." And that's kind of a political philosophy that is really about identifying with the world as your political and cultural entity. So that's got a longer history. So I kind of want to look a little bit at both of these, but I'll focus mainly on the, on the globalization angle.
- 8.3** This discourse really gets a shot in the arm with the Canadian media theorist Marshall McLuhan's work on the global village. He has this term, "global village", coined in 1962, and this was the emergence of television and seeing the potential for television to unite people across borders. Now we might say, you know, 1962, television was, you know, maybe one or two channels in certain countries, so it was hardly the Internet. And of course, since, we've seen much more global forms of communication. But even in 1962, there were prophets who foresaw this idea of a global consciousness, which McLuhan described as being synchronized, simultaneous, and global. So everybody living in the same moment anywhere on the planet and tied in with that kind of more liberal individualism, that idea of being detached from groups like nations and becoming part, just an individual floating in a global consciousness.
- 8.4** Is this a utopian dream connected to that older cosmopolitanism, or is it actually a reality driven by technology? And the argument of McLuhan was no, technology is inevitably moving us towards this more globalized consciousness. So we want to assess the globalization argument on several dimensions. One cultural, the other economic, the other political. And so we have this debate which emerges and becomes really strong in the 1990s in the wake of the end of the Cold War. There was a certain optimism around, we've superseded the Cold War division and we're moving towards a more globalized world.

- 8.5** Globalization is defined by the sociologist, British sociologist Anthony Giddens, as, quote, "the intensification of worldwide social relations which link distant localities." David Held defines it as "the extent, intensity, velocity, and impact of worldwide interconnectedness." So there's two kind of concepts there. One is extent, so going beyond the nation-state, across national borders, globally, so moving the scale of human existence to a global level, and then intensity, quicker, faster, and more intense communications along those more globalized networks. Within the globalization debate, you have two camps, in a way. You've got the globalists and, yes, that is a term that is used thousands and thousands of times in academia. It is not a conspiracy term. You have the globalists and you have the skeptics.
- 8.6** And within the globalists, you have some subfields. You have the more neoliberal capitalist globalists, such as Kenichi Ohmae, who had formerly worked for McKinsey, and you have the more social democratic or third-way globalists, such as David Held, Anthony Giddens, Ulrich Beck, or Daniele Archibugi, just to take a number of examples. These would be social democrats, but who envision social democracy operating at a global scale. And then you have a series of skeptics. I've listed a few here. Michael Mann, who we encountered last lecture; Paul Hirst, who actually taught at the university I used to work at, Birkbeck; Grahame Thompson; Anthony Smith. These are only some of the skeptics of globalization.
- 8.7** So in terms of the globalization hypothesis, we have three major vectors of globalization. One is the economy or the material sector. The second is the political, and the third is the cultural. And I'll talk about these in more detail in what follows. First, material or economic globalization. And this is technology and the economy. So in terms of technology—the Internet, satellite television, mobile phone connectivity, to some degree, air travel. I know the speed of air travel has not increased for a long time, but on the other hand, there's cheaper flights in many parts of the world. So air travel is part of the equation. All of these then produce, and we can also add remittances, for example, and other forms of global connectedness that are reliant on cheaper satellite TV and Internet. So that then enables an expansion in communication networks and an intensification of the messages flowing on those communication networks around the world.
- 8.8** Economically, there is rising trade in goods. And I'm going to come on to the trends in the last decade and how they've been affected by things like the pandemic and populism. But international trade as a share of GDP in the world has risen a lot since certainly 1945, let's say. There's the rise of global financial markets and trading of financial assets, stocks and derivatives, and other financial assets from many different countries traded in many different markets. And then you have global economic institutions, and this is more a political economy topic. Institutions like the World Trade Organization, International Monetary Fund, and World Bank that were founded after World War II at Bretton Woods, a conference at Bretton Woods.

- 8.9** And then you have a number of supranational organizations. The European Union, which grew out of the European Economic Community that was founded just after the war, particularly in the 1950s, but then expanding into become the European Union of 27 states. So that's, the European Union is both expanding and it's intensifying in a way by deepening the number of functions that the EU actually handles. You have the free trade agreements such as north, NAFTA, the North American Free Trade Agreement covering Mexico, the US, and Canada, and a number of other supranational institutions. So there's kind of an economic architecture of institutions, as well as economic flows such as international trade and financial flows. And then you have new technologies knitting together many parts of the globe. So African fishermen using mobile phones to trade. So maybe we're in the realm now of material globalization due to these new technologies.
- 8.10** In terms of the theory of why globalization should emerge economically, we can go back to the neoclassical economics of Adam Smith and the principle of comparative advantage. So if England and Portugal both try to produce their own milk and wine through economic autarchy and self-sufficiency, both England and Portugal can consume less milk and wine than if they specialized, and Portugal just did wine and England just did milk, and then they traded their surplus. Everybody would be better off than in a situation where each party was trying to be self-sufficient .
- 8.11** And there's some of this debate now over reshoring of industry from, reshoring the production of chips and various other products, this idea that countries should be more self-sufficient in energy. These are debates that are ongoing now. To what extent do you go with economic self-sufficiency and nationalism, or do you go with free trade, which is more kind of globalization? But the idea of the comparative advantage is that you're better off if you specialize in trade than if you try and aim for self-sufficiency.
- 8.12** The neoclassical economic theory also would argue that factors of production—labor, capital, and resources—in a perfect free market system, they should flow to where they are most productively used. So if labor is really productive in India and is only being paid a small amount, then there's a big incentive for places with a lot of capital, like the West, to move production to India in order to use that high-productivity, low-cost labor. So the system will tend to continue to move capital into India until the wage levels of Indians rise to an equivalent level of their Western counterparts.
- 8.13** Now that could also be labor flowing from India into Britain or in other countries. Productivity equaling price, that would be the equilibrium. So in a way, the neoclassical economic model really would argue that globalization naturally emerges because of asymmetries in the price and productivity of these different factors of production in different parts of the world. So in order to achieve equilibrium, you have global flows of labor, of capital, and so forth. And that's why, if you read a neoclassical economics text, you will often see criticism of economic nationalism, that any attempts at self-

sufficiency result, which are described as autarchic, impede the efficiency of the market and reduce global GDP.

8.14 And so, there are barriers to the flow, for example, of capital. So restrictions on foreign ownership, licenses, taxes, perhaps corruption that prevents places with a lot of capital, let's say in the West, from moving some of those, that financial capital, and investing in places with cheaper labor where they could make higher profits, which would raise wage levels in the developing countries they move to. But that might be impeded by a whole series of these sets of regulations that would make it difficult for foreigners to own factories, to own land and other factors of production in overseas jurisdictions. Then there could also be other kinds of unofficial barriers, such as language barriers, customs barriers, or nationalist hostility from locals.

8.15 So there's this kind of tension between the innate global cosmopolitanism of the neoclassical economic model, which really favors frictionless free trade and free movement of labor and capital around the world, and as a means of maximizing GDP, and economic nationalists who want to retain a degree of independence for a country, independence from depending on foreigners for their resources and labor and capital. And so nationalism, for example, would block the flow of labor through immigration restrictions. It may block the flow of resources by preventing foreign companies from mining or logging, or removing resources from a country and exporting those resources. It might block capital flows by insisting on capital controls or taxes and making investment risky, raising transaction costs. So there is a tension then between economic nationalism and the neoclassical globalization model.

8.16 And resistance to foreign ownership, foreign land ownership, foreign goods and culture, is going to limit the ability of that global marketplace to operate. So there's a strong kind of liberal capitalist, neoliberal, neoclassical imperative toward globalization. And of course, once you have a global marketplace, you also need a series of legal and political mechanisms to ensure the harmonious functioning of that global marketplace. So enforcement of property rights—if you have, if you aren't paid, you need to be able to go to a court to enforce a contract. And that necessitates some kind of legal order as well, some kind of political order. And maybe the answer, therefore, is that you have a global government or a global polity.

8.17 Now, for some of the globalists, this is unrealistic. So what they see as a sort of intermediate step is the emergence of supranational regions like the European Union as a prototype. So the EU becomes a prototype for other supranational regions to emerge. Maybe those supranational organizations are flimsier, like the North American Free Trade Association or the Association of Southeast Asian Nations. There's very few domains in which those organizations have much power. There's simply free trade deals that have been struck between a set of countries, a certain arrangement between a specified number of countries, but with limited powers.

- 8.18** But maybe they are the beginning of a world of supranational regions. And a number of different authors have talked about the emergence of these global regions that maybe, in order to resist, in order to be able to compete globally, you need to amalgamate your resources into something larger. It's a bit like when I talked about political evolution. The smaller tribes had to amalgamate into larger confederations to resist the other larger confederations and empires. So maybe in a world of behemoths, you've got to throw your lot in with another behemoth and go for these global regions. So there may be a foreign policy justification, as well as an economic justification to creating these supranational regions.
- 8.19** So I mentioned that neoclassical economists are very much in favor of frictionless movement of the factors of production—goods, capital, labor—across national boundaries. Kenichi Ohmae, his work, *The Borderless World*, is a good example of this kind of globalist thinking, which argues that the nation-state is obsolete and is being rendered obsolete by the rise of multinational corporations which have operations in many different countries. And that the optimal economic units, if we're just talking about maximizing global GDP, the optimal economic units are maybe regions that cross borders, like Ontario in Canada, Michigan in the US, or at the time, Hong Kong wasn't part of China, but Hong Kong, Canton is another transnational region. Also, that you can have entities like Singapore which import virtually everything. And yet because they have free trade, they've got cheaper food than places like Japan, which subsidize their farmers and try and maintain agricultural self-sufficiency. So maybe the best way is to do a Singapore and to embrace, fully embrace free trade and that will maximize your welfare and your income.
- 8.20** For Ohmae, then nation-states were becoming obsolete because of the rise of globalization, the movement of capital information, and the multinational corporations were able to source labor anywhere in the world, capital anywhere in the world, put this all together, and not have a national identity. So he talks about a firm sourcing its capital in London, locating its plant in Malaysia, tapping information from a database in Tokyo, and hiring people in California to design the factory layouts. And so you're sourcing factors of production anywhere in the world, in this frictionless world. And that's really the most efficient way of maximizing global welfare.
- 8.21** And that's enabled by new technologies, the Internet and satellite. So these are the technologies that are allowing for these more extensive and intense global networks. And these very productive transnational corporations do not, are not tied to a particular home country. Of course the counterargument to that is, in fact, these transnational corporations do tend to have a national identity—that Sony is, in some ways, Japanese, and Nokia is, in some ways, Finnish and so on. So you tend to have, the counterargument is that actually there is a big invest, a big stake that nation-states and transnational corporations have in each other. But Ohmae is arguing the converse, that in fact they are fully global and don't have a national orientation. And so they're really

agnostic as to who they hire, what the national backgrounds are; they're just meritocratic and they're concerned only with profit. And they'll buy and sell anything, anywhere.

- 8.22** As a result then of the rise of the transnational corporation and these global networks that are facilitated by the Internet and other technologies, you're getting a more global economy and that's then going to necessitate a global polity. And so there is a theory called neofunctionalism, which is sometimes known as spillover theory, where one thing functionally necessitates another. So the globalization of the economy makes it necessary to have a global polity, makes it necessary to have a global culture, and that all of these things follow one from the other. So because we're getting this global economy, we're going to need more of a global polity. We can't just have the nation-state, we need something bigger.
- 8.23** And there are a number of reasons why we need something bigger. One is to regulate transactions across borders, enforce contracts across borders, prosecute criminals who go across borders, deal with macro-economic policy for the world. So if there are financial risks caused by the bursting of a property bubble in Asia or a technology stock bubble in Asia, that could affect the West. And so you actually have to have some kind of coordination and policy regulation that operates across borders. And there are the social democrat globalists who would say, well, in addition, yes, you can have a global capitalist economy, but we have to be able to deal with the inequality that may flow from that. And so we also need some kind of global redistribution of wealth between countries, between wealthy people who may be concentrated more in East Asia or Western countries to the global poor in the developing world.
- 8.24** Labor standards, environmental standards, these are the kinds of things that a kind of global social democracy needs to address. So that's kind of suggesting that this supranational body should also take on properties of the welfare state and ensure a certain degree of redistribution of wealth. Now, to some degree, that also requires a global identity, because if people don't identify with other people, they're not going to be willing to pay tax to support those other people. And we've seen in the European Union, for example, that the richer countries in the north of the EU, like Germany, have been reluctant to subsidize some of the struggling countries, such as Greece, in the southern part of the EU.
- 8.25** So even in the European Union, which has very limited tax-raising and spending powers, even there, where you have no shared identity, say Germany and Greece are separate countries, yes, there is a thing called the EU, but maybe the bonds between Germans and Greeks are just not strong enough to support the Germans subsidizing the Greeks. Whereas in the US, people in a wealthy state like California might be, or Massachusetts, might be more willing to see their tax money spent on welfare programs that might benefit people in poorer states, such as Alabama, for example. And so, maybe then because there's that shared American national identity, people are

more willing to pool their wealth and subsidize people who are less fortunate. Whereas in a polity like the European Union, where there isn't a shared national identity, Germans will be very upset if a large amount of their wealth, or if a significant proportion of their wealth, is sent to other countries. That's still very difficult.

8.26 But for the social democratic globalists, that's going to be important, when thinking about this new supranational entity that will replace the nation-state, that must replace the nation-state, as a result of that economic globalization necessitating political globalization. And so when we talk about political globalization, there are a number of entities which globalist theorists will look to. So, for example, there is international law and international norms embodied in some of the international institutions, like the United Nations and, to some degree, in regional institutions like the European Union. There is a European Court of Justice which engages in the interpretation of law. And some of the decisions of the European courts influence, even in a country like Britain, which is not in the EU, but certainly when it comes to EU member states, the decisions of the ECJ will supersede those of the national courts. And so here we see that a supranational institution is having power over national institutions.

8.27 There is, however, a debate, one could say. If you take the United Nations, is the United Nations really transcending nation-states or is it reinforcing nation-states? So are the globalists perhaps too quick to say the UN is an example of globalism and overriding the nation-state? What separatists are yearning for, what Somaliland and Kosovo would love, is a seat at the UN. The UN is almost the final stamp of approval, like you are a nation-state. And so maybe the UN actually reinforces the nation-state norm and it doesn't undercut the nation-state norm.

8.28 Now, the EU is more clearly an institution that arguably undercuts the idea of national sovereignty more because certain functions are allocated to the European level, and there is qualified majority voting. So certain nation-states can oppose an EU policy and be outvoted. They don't have a veto in all parts of EU legislation. They do it in some parts of EU legislation, but not all. So there is an extent to which, when you join the EU, you accept that your national sovereignty will be overridden in certain policy areas. Now, there's a secondary question as to how much a country like Hungary would abide by EU regulations regarding accepting refugees or perhaps regarding relationships with Russia and so on. So in the breach, maybe the member states don't always observe what they signed up to. But at least in theory, these organizations are, in some ways, taking power from the nation-state—the EU, certainly, UN is more arguable.

8.29 We also then have other entities that are transnational, like nongovernmental organizations, such as the World Wildlife Fund, Friends of the Earth, Oxfam. These operate within, they lobby UN agencies. They also lobby nation-states. So that international civil society is kind of like an international or globalized, globalized political lobbyists in a way we can think of them. And so there too we have evidence of something that looks global in nature. So political globalization seems to be proceeding,

at least to some degree, through the growth of these regional organizations and through global NGOs and civil society. Globalizers also make a case, a normative case. So I've talked mainly about the "is" rather than the "ought", globalization as an empirical phenomenon, rather than what we ought to be doing.

- 8.30** A lot of those who see the rise of globalization are also advocates of globalization and would argue the case for a more global approach to human problems. So climate change, for example, and in the past, the question of the ozone hole. But these sorts of challenges are not really specific to any one country. They affect people all over the world. Health challenges like AIDS, or more and more recently, the pandemic, for example—these would be health challenges that are potentially global. Global organized crime, new scientific questions such as biotech, labor laws, corporate regulation. These are all global problems that necessitate in some ways global solutions. So we should have a layer of government that is global, that can really take a sort of global view and get people from different countries on the same page and working to solve these problems. So that is the normative case for global government.
- 8.31** Now there's the term government and governance. Government suggests a global superstate, which many of these theorists do not advocate, actually. Rather a lot of them would argue for a global layer of governance alongside regional and national. So that is the outlook, for example, of David Held, this multi-tiered political unit where you have some powers at the global level, some at the regional, some at the national, some of the local. However, it is the case there seems to be a push, generally, amongst a lot of these offices for more power to be devolved upwards to global institutions.
- 8.32** So the view tends to be that there's too much power at the nation-state level and not enough at these global levels. And that there needs to be some, sometimes a certain degree of enforcement coming from the global level. Because in a way, if certain countries aren't cooperating in solving a global problem, then there needs to be some carrot, some stick. So there has to be some sovereignty at the global level. That would be the argument, that the global problems require global solutions. A global market requires some kind of global market regulation, which entails globalized politics to some degree.
- 8.33** So David Held's notion of cosmopolitan democracy, it takes that term cosmopolitan, which comes from ancient Greece, and it applies it into the modern era of globalization. And so Held is arguing for this multi-tiered polity, where some powers are held at the global level. And the argument is this is already happening. There's this kind of inevitability. We've already got the EU; we've already got global NGOs like Friends of the Earth. And we need to rethink governance. It shouldn't all be concentrated at the nation-state level.
- 8.34** OK, so I've talked a lot about the globalists. We've talked about economic, political, and, to some degree, cultural globalization. I'll say more about that later. I now want to introduce the writings of a number of skeptics. Michael Mann, sociologist, long based

at the University of California, Los Angeles, he talks, he says, well, there's been a lot of obfuscation in the globalization debate, that actually there are, we must make a distinction between local, national, international, transnational, and global. So, trade between Ontario and Michigan is not globalization, according to Michael Mann; that is a transnational flow of goods across one border. And yes, it's the case that you have got certain parts of the world where you have very strong transnational flows between two countries very locally. So that's not, you cannot call that globalization.

- 8.35** What Mann would argue is that the power of the local has certainly diminished over time, but the power of all of the other networks, the national, the international, transnational, and global, have all strengthened. So the global has not strengthened at the expense of the national, but rather the global has strengthened and the national has strengthened. The only loser, in a way, is the local. And that you can actually see the expansion of nation-state, national networks, and international networks. So for example, the spread of railways within countries in the 19th century, like India and the US, and the spread of railways across countries. So that's an increase in the national network and an increase in the transnational network at the same time.
- 8.36** The state has lost some power, but it had already lost power, for example, over religion. The link between religion and the state religion had become less powerful as a force. So the Anglican Church in Britain, a less powerful actor in the 19th century than it was prior. So already there was a loss, to some degree, of power in certain domains. The state having less power over religion, but it gains power elsewhere. So for example, the expansion of the welfare state, the state is spending more money, more of a country's GDP, than ever before. So in that sense the nation-state is gaining power. It's not losing power. It just depends; it's ebbing in certain areas, so less power over religion, but more power over income and spending.
- 8.37** Much of what is talked up, talked up as globalization, is in fact well-established cross-border transnational trade flows between developed countries. So Canada is the US's largest trading partner and vice versa. And this has been largely unchanged despite talk of global trade flows. So a lot of these trade flows across borders are well established and there's not necessarily been much change in who the trading partners are of major countries.
- 8.38** Most of the world's global production is still for the domestic market. Transnational corporations are heavily intertwined with the home state, which take pride in—Japan takes pride in Sony, Finland takes pride in Nokia, and so forth. So that is—they're seen as national champions and they have certain political influence. And there was a certain intertwining of the nation-state with these global companies. So they are not fully—Microsoft and Apple and Google, these are not fully global companies. They are in fact, in many ways, national; and even international finance is constrained in certain ways in terms of which companies raise money from which stock exchanges.

- 8.39** In terms of global migration, this is very highly restricted and limited. And it's inconceivable that the working class in the wealthy parts of the world would be willing to accept a wage similar to that of the developing world proletariat. That's politically unacceptable to most citizens in the developed world. So these are just a number of different reasons to be skeptical of the argument that we are entering a global world and that globalization is sweeping all before it and transforming the main unit of political organization from the nation-state to some kind of a supranational or even global state. That's unlikely to be the case.
- 8.40** Mann also argues that in terms of the real economy rather than the virtual economy, in terms of manufacturing, for example, in terms of spending of GDP, this is largely again taking place within nation-states. There are only in the European Union do we see an element of true reduction in national sovereignty, that in other parts of the world we don't see this, and trade associations, free trade deals like NAFTA or associations like ASEAN, this is pretty superficial in terms of sovereign power. Sovereign power still remains within the nation-state. And it's only in the EU that we see some willingness to cede powers to a supranational body.
- 8.41** But even in the European Union, the argument is that the EU spends only 1% of European GDP, so most of the tax people pay, most of the spending, public spending that takes place in European countries, is national. Only a tiny fraction, 1% of GDP, is European. So it's pretty minimal. And it's maybe one of the reasons that most European citizens pay much less attention to the European Union. And your EU politicians, EU policies, they get a lot less coverage in European countries than national politics, national politicians. And one of the arguments that was made by some globalist theorists is that the nation-state is too big for the small problems and too small for the big problems.
- 8.42** In terms of too big for the small problems, one of the arguments made is that this is why we're seeing separatism. But you could make the argument that separatist nationalisms actually are a reinforcing of the nationalist ideal. They want to break away, you know, for example, East Timor breaking away from Indonesia to form a new country. It wants its own nation-state. The Kurds want their own nation-state. That's not weakening nationalism, that's actually strengthening the nation-state norm. That's Michael Mann's argument. I mean, Grahame Thompson and Paul Hirst's book *Globalization in Question* is another skeptical.
- 8.43** It's skeptical for a number of different reasons. One of the arguments, the core arguments in Hirst and Thompson is that democracy and democratic legitimacy resides at the nation-state level. And even though you have economic globalization and you have certain supranational institutions, they all lack democratic legitimacy. And without that democratic legitimacy, they're unlikely to usurp the functions of the nation-state. The nation-state is vital for democratization. So one of the fears expressed in Hirst and Thompson is that a lot of these supranational bodies are unaccountable, and they are

more likely to be swayed by global lobbyists and other kinds of elites, and less likely to deliver democratic responsiveness.

- 8.44** One argument is that we moved from city-states to nations, and then we're going to move from nations to something regional and something global. Hirst and Thompson would argue, you could move patriotism, citizenship, and democracy from the city-state level to the nation-state level, but it's going to be much more difficult to go from the nation-state level upwards to the global level. That is a much more difficult step. So it doesn't follow, just because we move from city-states to nation-states, that we're inevitably going to move from the nation-state to the supranational or global state.
- 8.45** What then? Just to look at a few data series to try and get a quantitative handle on what's happening with globalization, there is a kind of narrative that globalization has stalled because of populism and the pandemic. But actually, if you look at a number of indices and measures of global free trade, for example—there's a chart here looking at the Trade Openness Index—it shows a steady rise from 1940 up until 2010 and thereabouts, and it's gone down a little bit, but it remains relatively stable at a high level. This index is the sum of world exports and imports divided by world GDP, and that's at around somewhere between 50 and 60 percent.
- 8.46** There are other indices that have been constructed with other kinds of measures, so trade in goods, tariffs, measures of investment. There are a whole series of different ingredients in these indices. And this organization here has compiled what they call a de facto measure of globalization and a de jure, so legal and real globalization according to their measures. And in both cases, we see this rise really taking off from 1990 and then, but still actually continuing to increase through 2020. It doesn't appear as though the pandemic has massively affected things. Globalization, now, in other measures, as we see here, there's perhaps been a slight dampening, slight flattening, since this 2007-08 financial crisis. And the pandemic hasn't helped that. But it doesn't seem like the picture's changed all that much.
- 8.47** So actually, despite the narrative that we've somehow moved away from global free trade to self-sufficiency and economic nationalism, it's not showing up really strongly in the global statistics around free trade as a percentage of GDP. So it does seem like we still live in a kind of globalized world, at least in terms of trade flows and certainly in terms of technology.
- 8.48** Now that then brings us to perhaps what is the most contentious aspect of globalization, which is international migration. And in terms of international migration, it's worth saying that most migration is within a continent. As you can see on this chart, most migration from Africa is to other African countries as well. And the same is true in Asia and in Europe. Not so much in Latin America, where the flow to North America is larger than flows within, although there's been significant—this is from 2018. Since then, we've had Venezuelans moving very heavily to other countries in South America, so maybe that's changed.

- 8.49** So in terms of the trends globally, the share of people who are born outside, who are living in countries outside the country they were born in, has not changed very much over time. Looking at the world as a whole, we've gone from 2.9% foreign-born on average across the world in 1990 to 3.4% in 2017. That's pretty minimal. That share has been pretty constant for a very long time. So the number of people who are immigrants is pretty small. And it's been pretty stable for a long time, hasn't changed much. So it does not look like globalization is happening when it comes to the movement of people.
- 8.50** Now, having said that, there's a big difference between the movement of people in less developed regions, which has been pretty stable—1.7% 1990, 1.8%, 2017. And the more developed parts of the world, especially the West. This chart here shows the more developed regions in red, going from 7.2% foreign-born in 1990 to 11.6% in 2017. A big rise. The big rise is, in a way, south to north migration, long-distance migration to developed countries and especially to developed Western countries. And so the foreign-born share in places like Australia, New Zealand, and Canada is above 20%. The foreign-born share in the EU and the United States is above 10%. In the US, it's about 13, 13.5%. So that's a big rise. 1960, it was only about 5% in the US, so there's been a big increase in long distance, south to north migration and that is a real trend. But globally, the share of the world that is immigrants has been pretty stable.
- 8.51** In terms of culture, another argument that's made by the globalists is that culture is becoming global. McLuhan, remember he talked about this global consciousness. The idea is that English is becoming a global language. And scientific discourse in English is becoming globalized. People from all, in many different countries in the world are publishing scientific findings in the same English-language journals. So there's that globalization of science. There is also a cosmopolitan class and elite identity based on consuming global products and brands, global lifestyles based on international experiences. So you see similar shops, similar stores, particularly at the high end in Dubai, in Washington, in Paris, and so on.
- 8.52** So there's a globalization of lifestyles, a kind of global civil society. Reading perhaps some of the same media. Maybe that's the New York Times; certain publications may have a global audience. The Economist, perhaps. There's an increased diversity and hybridity brought about by international migration. Now of course, as we saw that international migration is largely south to north. That's really where we're getting an increase, not so much in migration from south to south, and then an increased cultural exchange through tourism and through media products, online and global goods and mass culture.
- 8.53** David Held would argue that we're moving from the economic, frictionless, free trade-type globalization to political institutions and, ultimately, to culture and even law and mores. And so that, this is kind of a spillover argument that it's functional to move from the economic to the political to the cultural. Other globalists, like Malcolm Waters, the

sociologist, would argue that actually culture is the easiest to globalize because it's just about moving symbols, moving symbols down an Internet cable or through satellites. So that's the easiest to globalize. So we should expect globalization to proceed fastest in the culture, whereas in the economy it's a bit tricky. Trade is still cumbersome because you're dealing with shipping material goods or even human beings. That's perhaps more difficult than shipping symbols.

- 8.54** And Kenichi Ohmae makes the same argument that there's this global culture emerging. For Anthony Giddens, people are mixing bits of global with bits of local, and that becomes their identity. And all of that is suggesting that national identities are giving way to lifestyle identities that cross borders or even to some kind of global identification. Giddens sees modernization and globalization as linked. And so people become aware that they are, in some ways, they have closer connections with people in distant parts of the world. And they're aware that things that happen on the other side of the world carry risks for them in, let's say, the Western world. So that's the cultural globalist argument.
- 8.55** But then we also have cultural skeptics who would, such as Anthony Smith or Michael Mann or Walker Connor or Samuel Huntington. So a number of these authors would say, first of all, yes, there is a globalization of culture, but is that the same thing as the globalization of consciousness, and especially the globalization of identity? We can use one image. It's that of a Pakistani Islamic militant celebrating the 9/11 bombings wearing a Chicago Bears T-shirt. So what's going on there? On the one hand, Chicago Bears T-shirt suggests globalization of culture, but very clearly there's not a globalization of identity going on. In fact, it could even be the case the more culture globalizes, the more of a reaction in identity terms you get from those whose culture has been globalized. They're reacting in identity terms.
- 8.56** So culture and identity are not the same thing. We can get a more globalized culture. Global brands, McDonald's can spread to more countries, but that can actually lead to a greater assertion of national identification. We've seen this in the past at a lower scale. So when Ireland and Wales were losing their distinctive language is when we started to see the emergence of stronger nationalism in Wales and Ireland. You lose cultural distinctiveness; you can sometimes call compensate by assertions of identity. And in that sense, we might expect the more that culture globalizes, the more people will reassert the distinctiveness of their national identities.
- 8.57** Now, there are other reasons to expect globalization to reinforce nationalism, and one is this notion of long-distance nationalism. Ukrainians in Canada and the US supporting Ukrainian struggle against Russia, Serbs in North America, Palestinians in Europe with strong diaspora ties to the Palestinian territories. This notion of long-distance nationalism would even argue that the view of the homeland, the view that Armenians in France and the US have of Armenia, is in some ways more ethnic and purified and idealized than Armenians in Armenia. And therefore, what Armenians in the diaspora

are going to demand is a more nationalistic politics in Armenia. So actually, the globalization of the Armenian population can strengthen, not weaken, nationalism in Armenia.

- 8.58** And even if we look at the Islamic revival and the role of Muslim diaspora, parts of the Muslim diaspora playing in Islamist politics, that too is an example of this. Now, that's at the, not at the level of nationalism, but the level of religion. So globalization has different effects on identity than it does on culture. Even if we accept that culture is perhaps becoming more homogenous in some ways around the world, that doesn't mean that identity is becoming more homogenous. Anthony Smith also talks about global culture and global identity as being very symbolically thin, lacking a narrative, a sense of the past, and powerful symbols.
- 8.59** Whereas cosmopolitan empires in the past, like Rome, had a set of symbols that they exported wherever they conquered, and did have a certain ritual and power in their Latin language and their literature and so on. The global culture is really a mix of various different elements and scientific technology that lacks the kind of emotional resonance that major world religions or that nation-states possess. And that improved communication technology has often been associated with upsurges of nationalism and expressions of religious or nationalist revival. So the role of cassette tapes in spreading the message of the Iranian revolution, the role of television in Serbian, or more recently, Russian nationalism, these sort of networks, actually, and technologies can actually intensify.
- 8.60** We saw that with the spread of print and what print did in terms of giving rise to the modern nation-state. Likewise, some of these new technologies, including the Internet, allow for a strengthening of relationships between the diaspora and the homeland, which can actually accelerate rather than reduce nationalism. We also see a number of countervailing trends to that globalizing trend. One, of course, is the rise of the populist right in Europe, which has been reasonably steady. It's gone in two waves, from about the late 1980s to the early 2000s, and then in another wave from 2014. And this is again an example of almost an identity reaction. You're getting globalization through migration and culture, but you're getting an identity reaction against that, manifest in, for example, the rise of national populism.
- 8.61** The European Union's popularity amongst European citizens began to decline in the early '90s, and Euroskepticism has increased in Europe since then. So, yes, the EU has acquired new powers, but set against that is growing resistance to the European Union in the public opinion of Europe. And that's now leading to the scaling back and stalling of the European project. This dream of the kind of United States of Europe increasing its power all the time collided with a very skeptical public opinion. And it'll be interesting to watch the results of the next European elections and what that does to the European project.

- 8.62** So, question marks being raised to the globalization thesis. Are there limits set by this kind of identity reaction? And I've already talked through Smith's skepticism that, in a way, global scientific—the global culture and global science don't really have that emotional depth that earlier cosmopolitan, religious. So the universalist movements like Islam, Christendom, that they possessed the symbol structures of empires don't seem to exist in the current global culture.
- 8.63** The last thing I want to talk about then is to what extent technology is improving all the time. That at least opens up the possibility for greater communications between points around the world, faster communications. As technology advances, does that mean we automatically become more global? And does that automatically push us away from the nation-state? So one of the arguments here is that modernization can push us in a globalist direction, but it can also push us in a nationalist direction. And maybe there's a zigzag over time. It's not, you know, clearly technology has been improving consistently for many hundreds of years, but there has in that period been waves that are of more global sentiment and more national sentiment.
- 8.64** And it's not obvious that technology is the overriding factor. Just because we advance technologically doesn't necessarily mean that we move towards a more globalist, a globalized consciousness, in particular. So just to conclude, I've talked about globalization theory, economic, political, and cultural globalization, how those three are related. Some would argue that the economic starts first, others that the cultural starts first. And like Michael Mann, who argue that there are actually multiple networks, of which the global is just one and one of the least important, that much of what passes for globalization is actually either transnational between two countries, or perhaps something like the United Nations, which is really international, which is something that reinforces rather than reduces the nation-state. It is discrete nations with their sovereignty meeting together.
- 8.65** There are the globalists who see the world globalizing and the skeptics who would argue against this. And there's both an is and an ought dimension, the empirical "is" dimension is, you know, is globalization actually happening? Yes or no? And that can be distinguished from the ought, or the normative dimension. Do you think that the world should globalize to solve global problems, or are there risks with globalization in that the global is less responsive to the citizenry and lacks the legitimation that comes with the nation-state?
- 8.66** We've also looked at the distinction between globalization of culture and global economy and identity. So you can actually have culture becoming somewhat more homogenous and a McDonald's in every country, Prada in every country. You can have globalization of culture, everyone learning English, at the same time as you have stronger rather than weaker national identity. So culture is not the same as identity. And maybe what we're seeing is, with global culture, stronger reassertions of national identity. Thank you.

- 8.67** The question is, we're at this point in history where we're not only looking at the globe, but other planets. And so, you know, resources are going to be tyrannically controlled by whichever company colonizes Mars. So what is your suggestion for the political system to Elon Musk?
- 8.68** First of all, I don't think this is likely to happen anytime soon. But what would be interesting is, if you actually did get settlement of other planets and those planets having some kind of identity. I mean, that's as compared to an alien invasion or meeting aliens. Like if, if we suddenly encountered an alien civilization, that would make global identification much more of a possibility, I would argue. Identification as human would matter much more in relation to other species than it does now because there's nothing else to bounce off, bounce your identity off. So, and in fact, there have even been psychological experiments where they talk about, imagine an alien invasion and it has all these effects. You know, people become less nationalistic and, you know, so, yeah, I mean, it would be interesting if that occurred, but I don't think Elon's adventure necessarily is going to change much in the near future.
- 8.69** In a world where low-cost drones can pose a significant risk to fleets of ships somewhere the US doesn't have, say, four or 500 destroyers to secure shipping routes, is there a real threat to globalization or global trade?
- 8.70** Yeah, that's interesting because the globalist solution would be that you would have a global coalition go in and pacify the Houthis, for example. Because that global governance or global power doesn't exist, it then falls to the American-led world order, which is sort of a coalition, which is sort of supposed to be acting in the global interest, perhaps. And I guess one of the issues is whether the Americans are willing to front that project, when many of the benefits will flow to China and other countries, and the costs will be borne exclusively by the United States, for example.
- 8.71** How much of a threat to globalization? I mean, you know, it's more cost to go around the Cape of Good Hope or go around, yeah, Cape of Good Hope. How much of an impact that's going to have on world trade flows? I don't know. I mean, this is only part of world trade and it's not clear how long this interlude will last. We've had kind of Somali pirates. That was a problem for a while. Doesn't seem to be a problem as much now. And I think one could argue that eventually this Houthi thing with the piracy in those shipping lanes will become less of an irritant and we'll get back to where we were before. Now, maybe that will take more concerted efforts by Western powers, and maybe that'll be forthcoming, maybe it won't be. But I'm not sure this is a sort of long-term permanent threat to global trade. I could be wrong. I've been wrong before many times.
- 8.72** When it comes to English national identity, a lot of it's demonized because of colonization and past histories that we should really be ashamed of or we're being made to feel guilty about. Would that have an effect on national identity and therefore

play into the hands of globalist ideas, even in America? The identity with regards to slave trade in the past?

- 8.73** Yeah. So the answer is yes. It's kind of complicated. So what this really is is a sort of internal ideological debate between the cultural left and cultural conservatives. The cultural left wants to emphasize the shame in the national past. The cultural conservatives want to defend the national heroes and myths. You can look at this as, I mean, one way of looking at it is that the cultural left wants to overthrow the nation-state, get rid of patriotism, and introduce just global multiculturalism. And I think that is part of what's going on. But I also think the other way of thinking about it is that you might actually have a, a kind of, to put it crudely, a kind of woke nationalism, which is to say, you know, we in Canada have apologized profusely to the natives and for how bad we were to immigrant groups and we are the most virtuous in the world.
- 8.74** And so what that is is actually a form of nationalism. You're saying, well, because we are the most self-abasing, the most apologizing, the most guilty people in the world, only we have risen above primitive national sentiment and we are the leaders in this sort of new post-national version of identity. But what that's actually saying is, we're the best in the world at being the most virtuous. And it's still a kind of nationalism in an odd way. And so one way of thinking about this is competing versions of, let's say, British national identity, one of which is based on the kind of traditional heroes and myths and symbols of England and Britain, and the other which is based on multiculturalism and based on advancing progressive LGBT policies and being very critical of your own country's past to show that you're actually the most moral. You're the most moral country in the world.
- 8.75** And there's kind of an analogy here to, in the Islamic world, you have certain countries competing to be the best Muslim nation. Is Iran, Saudi Arabia, Pakistan, each of them trying to be the missionary for this ideology of Islam. And I think in the West, what you have is, you've got the US and Britain and Australia and Canada and other countries competing to be, again, to put it crudely, the most woke—that is, the most likely to have outgrown patriotism and essentially to be the most welcoming to minorities and willing to sort of tear apart your own national story in order to make minorities feel comfortable and therefore the most virtuous.
- 8.76** So in a roundabout way, I still don't necessarily think that this sort of missionary woke nationalism, or, sorry, missionary wokeism and competition between these progressive elites in different Western countries, is necessarily the same thing as the decline of national identity, that it is actually in some ways, in some ways still a form of national identity. It is just that it's based upon competition for who is going to be the most virtuous country and the most woke in exemplifying this cultural leftist ideology, just the way the Muslim nations are competing to be who is the nation that exemplifies Islamic religion the best. And so I still think it can be classified as a form of missionary nationalism.

